

INTRODUCTION TO SOCIOLOGY
(SOC101)

VIRTUAL UNIVERSITY OF PAKISTAN

Lesson-01**THE ORIGIONS OF SOCIOLOGY****Lesson Overview**

- Meaning of sociology
- Scientific thinking vs tradition
- August Comte
- Herbert Spencer
- Karl Marx
- Emile Durkheim

Topic-001: Meaning of Sociology

Sociology is the systematic and scientific study of human behavior, social groups, and society. Sociologists study structural and institutional forces that shape our everyday lives, behaviors, and social values and delve into how we help create those social structures and institutions. Sociology is an academic discipline, but this does not mean that it is simply “a thing to be studied . . . sociology is, first of all, a thing lived” (Lemert, 2008: xv). Perhaps sociologist Peter Berger (1963:4) rightly said when he wrote, “Sociology is not a practice but an attempt to understand.” This requires that sociologists deal with everyday events a little differently from the way most people do (Thomson and Hickey 2016).

Sociology provides us with the tools to analyze and interpret social phenomena. Sociology can be used to address social issues and promote social change. It is a broad and diverse field that covers a range of topics and approaches. Sociology is relevant to our everyday lives and the world we live in.

Topic-002: Scientific Thinking vs Tradition

The scientific revolution in the 17th century paved the way for a new approach to understanding the world. The scientific method emphasized empirical evidence and systematic observation. This approach challenged traditional beliefs and authority. It led to the development of new fields of study, including sociology. Sociology emerged as a response to the social changes and challenges of the modern era. It sought to apply the scientific method to the study of social phenomena. Sociology aimed to provide a rational and systematic understanding of society and human behavior. It challenged traditional ways of thinking and offered new insights into the social world.

Some Major Sociologists**Topic003: Positivism August Comte (1798-1857)**

According to Blumberg (1974) August Comte was born into an aristocratic Catholic family in France; he studied science and for many years was the private secretary and collaborator of Claude Henri de Saint-Simon (1760–1825), who emphasized an observation based, positivist social scientific method. Comte elaborated a “Positive Philosophy” for the study of humanity, and won renown for coining the

term “sociology,” a word designed to capture his belief that a social physics, a science that would emulate the natural sciences, could discover laws explaining society (Dillon 2014).

Focus on Objectivity

In Comte’s view, sociology would focus only on observable data, and approach its subject matter with the same objectivity and impartiality, and the same systematic attention to processes and causes, that physical scientists use; what, for example, biologists do in studying plants. We don’t expect the biologist’s empirical observations of plant life to be impacted by his or her values or social background; and so too, Comte believed that social life could be similarly studied (Dillon 2014).

Positivism

Applying the scientific method to the social world, a process known as positivism, apparently was first proposed by Auguste Comte. Reflecting on the upheavals of the French Revolution and on the changes, he experienced when he moved to Paris from the small town in which he had grown up, Comte became interested in what holds society together. He began to ask what creates social order, instead of anarchy or chaos. And once society does become set on a particular course, what causes it to change, he wondered. Comte decided that the scientific method was the key to answering such questions. Just as the scientific method had revealed the law of gravity, so, too, it would uncover the laws that underlie society. Comte called this new science sociology— “the study of society” (from the Greek *logos*, “study of,” and the Latin *socius*, “companion,” or “being with others”). The purpose of this new science, he said, would be not only to discover social principles but also to apply them to social reform. Comte developed a grandiose view: Sociologists would reform the entire society, making it a better place to live (Henslin 2010).

Law of three Stages

Comte viewed sociology as the product of a three-stage historical development. During the earliest, the theological stage, from the beginning of human history to the end of the European Middle Ages about 1350 C.E., people took a religious view that God’s will is expressed through society. With the rise of the Renaissance in the fifteenth century, the theological approach gave way to a metaphysical stage of history in which people perceived society as a natural rather than a supernatural system. What Comte called the scientific stage of history began with the work of early scientists such as the Polish astronomer Copernicus (1473–1543), the Italian astronomer and physicist Galileo (1564–1642), and the English physicist and mathematician Isaac Newton (1642–1727). Comte’s contribution came in applying the scientific approach to the study of society which was first used to study the physical world. (Macdonis 2012).

Topic-004: Social Darwinism Herbert Spencer (1820-1903)

Spencer was born on 27 April 1820 in England. He is popularly known as the British Aristotle and often called the second founding father of sociology. The succeeding writers were highly influenced from his thoughts. The name of Spencer cannot be separated from the birth of sociology in England. He can be thought in terms of original and independent thinker. His contributions in the fields of knowledge like philosophy, biology, psychology, anthropology, and sociology are manifold. Following are some of the important books written by Herbert Spencer.

1. Social Statics (1850)
2. First Principles (1862).

3. The study of Sociology (1873)
4. The Principles of Sociology in three volumes (1876-96)
5. The Man versus the State (1884)

Spencer's evolutionary theory and Sociology

Societies go through a natural evolution, he said, evolving from lower (“barbarian”) to higher (“civilized”) forms. This natural process improves societies. As generations pass, the most capable and intelligent (“the fittest”) members of a society survive, while the less capable die out. The fittest members will produce a more advanced society—unless misguided do-gooders get in the way and help the less fit (the lower classes) survive. Spencer called this principle the survival of the fittest. Although Spencer coined this phrase, it usually is attributed to his contemporary, Charles Darwin, who proposed that organisms evolve over time as they adapt to their environment (Henslin 2010). Spencer and social Darwinism: Where Darwin refers to the evolution of organisms, Spencer refers to the evolution of societies. Because Darwin is better known, Spencer's idea is called social Darwinism. (If fame had gone the other way, we might be speaking of “biological Spencerism.”). Spencer's idea that it was wrong to help the poor offended many. Many wealthy businessmen of the time, however, liked the concept of the survival of the fittest: They saw themselves as “the fittest”—and therefore superior. I'm sure that Spencer's views also helped some of them avoid feeling guilty for living like royalty while people around them went hungry (Henslin 2010).

Ethics and Politics

According to Spencer, moral law was derived from individuals, yet, good and evil are determined by God. Evil resulted from non adaptation to external conditions which would diminish in a society which is [perfectly evolved. We can characterize Spencerian politics as libertarian because he was against state intervention in daily life matters especially economic matters. He also disapproved state centered charity, education, and other services such as garbage removal. Private philanthropy was also rejected by him because he was the advocate of survival of the fittest. According to him, charity, whether from state or private hands facilitated unhealthy and nonproductive members in society.

Topic-005: Origin of Sociology: Capitalism Karl Marx (1818-1883)

He was a German political philosopher and economist born in 1818 in Prussia. The year 1848 was the “Year of Revolutions” in Europe, as workers and ordinary people revolted against the ruling monarchies in Germany, Italy, Austria, Hungary, and France. Marx himself had participated in the German revolutionary movement, and that same year he and Friedrich Engels published their famous treatise The Communist Manifesto. Marx was expelled from Germany and subsequently too from France because of his revolutionary views. He died in 1883 (Dillon 2014).

Wage labor

Wage-workers think they are free; they may think of themselves as just trying to make a decent living, but in essence, as we recall, their Labor power is a commodity bought and sold on the market for others' profit accumulation (Dillon 2014).

Alienation

The division of labor may seem necessary to distributing responsibility and expertise for the many complex jobs that need to be done in society and ensuring that labor is used efficiently to produce the

vast number of commodities that are needed to meet consumer demand. But Marx wants us to see it differently – to see it as dehumanizing of the individual and of society. Marx argues that the commodification of labor power such that workers are reduced to commodities (with exchange- and use-value) produces alienation, or alienated labor. Alienated labor is the result of the economic and social organization of capitalism, of capitalism's production objectives (e.g., profit) and processes such as the division of labor (Dillon 2014).

Capitalism as Structured Inequality

Capitalism is a mode of production based on unequal private ownership of the means of production (in contrast, for example, to state ownership in socialist societies, e.g., North Korea). Under capitalism, a minority of capitalists, the bourgeoisie, who own and monopolize the means of production, i.e., property – land, oil wells, railroads, factories, corporations – accumulate profit based on the labor of employees – the wage-workers, the proletariat, who must work hard to meet production demands in factories, farms, mines, corporate offices, and hotels and who through their work convert raw materials into commodities (including services and information) that are sold by the capitalists for profit. In turn, capitalists use this profit to expand their ownership of private property while the property-less workers – like hotel housekeepers continue to toil for minimal wages, thus maintaining, as Marx argued, the ever-growing economic and social gap between capitalists and workers (Dillon 2014).

Dialectical Materialism

Marx believes that history does not progress smoothly. Each historical-economic epoch (e.g., slave society, feudalism, capitalism) is featured as tensions or contradictions. Change emerges only when these contradictions, and the social forces and relations which reproduce these contradictions, are exposed, and ruptured through social revolution – “revolution is the driving force of history”. Marx's view of history emphasizes that the human-created economic conditions in place at a given historical moment give rise to particular economic and social practices. These practices motivate particular groups to challenge the unequal conditions of their existence, and this opens the way for the emergence of new material (economic) conditions and social relations. This historical process, for Marx, is dialectical materialism. The word “dialectic” derives from the Greek word *dialegein*, meaning “to argue,” and was used by philosophers from Plato down to Hegel to draw out the contradictions in the logic used in intellectual ideas. This method typically follows not a linear but a pendulum-like thesis–antithesis–synthesis form. Marx – given his focus on what he considered real history, i.e., the history not of ideas but of “the production of material life itself” (Dillon 2014).

Marx vision of communism: In Marx's evolutionary view, communism is the type of society that would emerge following the overthrow of capitalism. It would be a society features as the abolition of private property, profit, the division of labor, and social classes. The logic of material production in communist society would require each person to contribute their labor to the everyday material and social good of the community on the basis of their diverse and multifaceted abilities (to build cabins, grow tomatoes, cook, sew, sing). In a communist society – i.e., a society in which private property, profit, and inequality would be eliminated and thus no one class (e.g., slave-owners, feudal lords, capitalists) would control the means of production (slaves, land, capital) – there would be no more tensions and contradictions to resolve. Hence the dialectic of history (dialectical materialism) would come to a stop. Marx's vision of communism, therefore, would entail the emancipation not only of the working class, but of all people; it would represent “universal human emancipation” (Dillon 2014).

Topic-006: Empiricism Emile Durkheim (1858-1917)

Emile Durkheim was born in April 1858 into a middle-class orthodox Jewish family in France. Living through a period of social, economic, and political upheaval, unsurprisingly, like Marx, the center of his focus was social change and industrial society. But unlike Marx, who focused on the structural contradictions in capitalism (e.g., class inequality), the question of social order preoccupied Durkheim. Like Saint-Simon, Comte, and Rousseau, he was interested to unearth how social order can be achieved and maintained while social progress is ongoing (Bellah 1973: xviii).

Social Structures

Durkheim conceptualized society as a complex system whose component parts or structures (e.g., economic activity, law, science, family structure, religion, etc.) are all interrelated but whose independent functioning allows smooth functioning of whole society. because of this, his sociology is often called functionalism or structural functionalism (Dillon 2014).

Scientific Sociology: The Study of Social Facts

Durkheim has a long-lasting impact on the everyday practice of sociology. This is particularly true of American sociology. Although many sociologists today might not acknowledge any debt to Durkheim, the dominant way sociologists go about studying the world owes much to his methodological approach. He outlined a scientific sociological methodology in *The Rules of Sociological Method*, first published in 1895, and in a pioneering study of suicide rates in nineteenth-century Europe (published in *Suicide*, 1897) demonstrated the scientific method that has inspired what sociologists do in carrying out quantitative research. This includes the definition and measurement of social variables and the statistical study of the relations between independent and dependent variables. Durkheim gave the concept of social facts, which refers to all those external and collective ways in which society shapes, structures, and constrains behavior of its members. According to Durkheim, “the first and most basic rule is to consider social facts as things” – as things that objectively exist in society, and which can objectively be studied. social facts as things that objectively exist outside of us and which can be objectively measured using various indicators, we can study social phenomena irrespective of our own views of, or feelings toward, the phenomenon. Consider religion. Religion concerns a lot of unknowns. Does God exist? Does God answer prayers? Is there an afterlife? These are questions that no researcher, and not even the most devout faith believer, can verify empirically. However, many sociologists, following Durkheim, study religion as a social fact, as an objective thing in society – using indicators of its thingness, such as how often individuals attend church. These sociologists then investigate how frequency of church attendance constrains and is constrained by other forms of social behavior, such as volunteering in the community, alcohol consumption, voting.

Social facts should not be equated with “statistical facts,” such as the percentages of girls and boys who go to college, or the divorce or birth rates, though all these facts too are social facts because they shape social behavior: they structure social policies, cultural expectations, and individuals’ decisions about various things. But social facts encompass much more than statistical facts; they include all the ways in which social structures and social norms and collective expectations constrain social behavior (Dillon 2014).

Nature of Society

For Durkheim, society is not simply a collection of individuals but is a collectivity with own characteristics and features. Society is beyond the sum of the individuals that comprise it; it includes social relationships (e.g., family, friends, community), social patterns (e.g., demographic trends), and forms of social organization (e.g., occupational divisions, bureaucracy, marriage, church), and these collective forces independently regulate individual and group behavior. Although marriage, for

instance, is contracted by two individuals, marriage as a social fact predates and outlives the lifetime of any couple, and the propensity of individuals to marry is itself constrained not alone by romantic attraction (itself a social fact), but by many other social facts including, for example, the state of the economy, church expectations and prohibitions, divorce legislation, and cultural expectations (e.g., of age of marriage/cohabitation, etc.). Thus, Durkheim argues, society has its own reality, what he calls a *sui generis* reality, that is, a collective reality that exerts its own force independent of individuals. Society, therefore, through its various social structures and everyday customs and norms, constrains how we think, feel, and act. These external constraints exist outside of the self; they have an independent existence in society and cannot be willed out of existence by the individual (Dillon 2014).

Data centered Sociology/Empirical Sociology

Durkheim asserts that to treat phenomena as things is to treat them as data and this constitute the starting point for science. In this scientific process, the whole of social reality is open to empirical investigation, wherein “the conventional character of a practice or an institution should never be assumed in advance”. Therefore, although we study things that may seem obvious or that we think we already know, such as friendship, crime, families, by studying these social phenomena scientifically – using data and making inferences based on data – we will likely discover or clarify characteristics about the phenomenon. He demonstrated this by carrying out an empirical study, *Suicide* (1897), where he addressed suicide rates in 19th century Europe. Using suicide as the dependent (outcome) variable, he examines how social integration or regulation varies by several independent (predictor) variables to increase the likelihood of suicide (Dillon 2014).

Suicide: A Social Fact

Although suicide is an individual act, it is also a social phenomenon. And although we might think of suicide as a “social problem,” it is “normal” in the Durkheimian sense because every society has a certain level of suicide. Already in the early nineteenth century, Harriet Martineau had defined suicide as “the voluntary surrender of life from any cause” and as Durkheim would too, she recognized it as a normal social fact, and one indicative of varying levels of social regulation and integration. From a sociological perspective, therefore, notwithstanding the unique personal circumstances in which individuals commit suicide, suicide can – and should, according to Durkheim – be studied in terms of its antecedent social context, specifically, its relation to social integration. From his analysis of suicide rates in Western Europe, Durkheim concluded that “suicide varies inversely with the degree of integration of the social groups of which the individual forms a part” (Su 209). Social groups and the extent to which those groups are tightly integrated exert a constraining influence on the individual. He distinguished between four types of suicides (Dillon 2014).

Altruistic Suicide

Dillon (2014) notes that the type of suicide which occurs due to excessive integration of individual with his social group is known as altruistic suicide. In these circumstances of high social integration, individuals are so closely oriented to fulfilling the expectations of the community or group that suicide becomes the obligatory honorable option when they fail to meet those expectations (Su 221).

Egoistic Suicide

Egoistic as the label suggests, refers to suicide under social conditions in which individuals are excessively self-oriented, and hence only very loosely bound to other individuals and social groups. In modern western society individualism is highly valued; the advanced division of labor associated with industrialization requires, as Durkheim emphasized, individual specialization. The collective

conscience does not rein in the individual's egoistic appetites, and indeed celebrates individual freedom and ambition. It is not so surprising, then, that some individuals become so self-oriented they have fewer outlets and opportunities for social relations (family, friends, community) (Dillon 2014).

Anomic Suicide

Anomie is a French word meaning the absence of norms or of established standards; it refers to circumstances when the normal patterns of social life are suddenly uprooted. In contemporary times, many people live in communities that are aptly characterized as “places without roots,” places that attract transients, people on the move for various economic and personal reasons, and as such it is difficult for these communities to provide a socially integrating anchor for individuals and families. In these anomic places, we would expect suicide rates to be high (Dillon 2014).

Social Solidarity: Organic Solidarity and Mechanical Solidarity

Mechanical Solidarity

The structural and cultural sameness that characterizes the beliefs and social relationships in traditional societies produces what Durkheim calls mechanical solidarity; the creation and maintenance of social ties are mechanical, i.e., they are built into the very structure of the community. When people in a community have relatively similar occupations, family histories, experiences, and beliefs, and overlapping social relationships, these similarities make it relatively easy to produce social cohesion. Vacherie, Louisiana, the most rooted town in the most rooted state in America, is a good illustration of the mechanical solidarity that Durkheim attributes to traditional communities. Its tightly bounded and overlapping family and neighborhood relationships, the force of its collective expectations on social habits (e.g., Sunday dinner with the extended family), and long-established shared occupational histories and leisure routines ensure a mechanical maintenance of the community's social ties, order, and cohesion (Dillon 2014).

Organic Solidarity

The interdependence that is required by and results from the highly specialized division of labor leads to, what Durkheim calls, organic solidarity. “This solidarity is like that observed in the higher animals. In fact, each organ has its own special characteristics and autonomy, yet the greater the unity of the organism, the more marked the individualization of the components. employing this analogy, we propose to call ‘organic’ the solidarity that results from the division of labor” (Dillon 2014).

Collective Conscience

This term (translated from the French conscience collective) is used by Durkheim to refer to a society's or community's collectively shared feelings, values, and ideals. the collective conscience exerts a strong authority over the whole community, maintaining social order and cohesiveness by tightly regulating the expectations and behavior of individuals. In Vacherie, Louisiana, for example, it would be hard for a woman to defy the expectation of helping to prepare the extended family's Sunday dinner. In traditional communities there is little individualism, little personal freedom, and anonymity – the individual, rather, “is absorbed into the collective”. This brings a strong feeling of social belonging, but it also means that the individual has little freedom to stray from the norms and authority of the community. Anyone who has grown up in a small town knows this feeling well; it's hard to escape your neighbor's watchful eyes, and particularly as you move through your teenage years looking for excitement, you might find the community's “social horizon” too limiting, too constraining and overpowering of your individual desires (Dillon 2014).

Religion and Science

Durkheim recognized that with the rise of modern society, particularly, the increase in individualism (required by the specialized division of labor) and the expansion of science as the basis of knowledge – the dogmatic hold of traditional religious systems would vanish. However, Durkheim also believed that scientific knowledge alone does not suffice to connect people together. He did not see science and religion in contradiction with one another, but as having functions which are interlinked. Science offers knowledge, but religion (and its functional equivalents such as baseball, soccer, etc.) provides action – the “moral remaking,” the social bonding, that revolve around its rituals. thus, “religion cannot be replaced by science. For if science expresses life, it does not create it”. It does not revitalize social bonds. Thus, Durkheim argued, religion would maintain itself as an eternal social fact; it would adapt and transform rather than wane. As we see today, although traditional religion is a vital source of social integration in many societies (and especially in the US), there are also many other sacred things (e.g., sports events, knitting groups, book clubs) that draw people together and invigorate social cohesion and solidarity (Dillon 2014).

Lesson-02**SOCIOLOGICAL PERSPECTIVE****Lesson Overview**

- Sociological Imagination
- Thinking like a Sociologist: Key Questions
- Sociology and common sense
- Perspectivising human behavior
- Understanding causality
- Sociological Themes and Topics

SOCIOLOGICAL PERSPECTIVE

Sociology provides a fascinating view of social life. The sociological perspective (or imagination) opens a window onto strange worlds—and offers a fresh look at familiar ones. The sociological perspective gives importance to the social contexts in which people live. It investigates how these contexts impacts people's lives. At the heart of the sociological perspective is the question of how groups influence people, especially how people are influenced by their society—a group of people who share a culture and a territory. To find out why people do what they do, sociologists look at social location, the corners in life that people occupy because of where they are in a society. Sociologists look at how jobs, income, education, gender, race–ethnicity, and age affect people's ideas and behaviour. Consider, for example, how being identified with a group called females or with a group called males when you were growing up has shaped your ideas of who you are growing up as a female or a male has influenced not only how you feel about yourself but also your ideas of what you should attain in life and how you relate to others. Sociologist C. Wright Mills (1959) put it this way: “The sociological imagination enables us to grasp the connection between history and biography.” By history, Mills meant that each society is in a broad stream of events. This gives each society specific characteristics—such as its ideas about the proper roles of men and women. By biography, Mills referred to our experiences within these historical settings, which give us our orientations to life. In short, people don't do what they do because they inherited some internal mechanism, such as instincts. Rather, external influences—our experiences—become part of our thinking and motivation. In short, the society in which we grow up, and our location in that society, lie at the centre of what we do and how we think. (Henslin 2011).

The Global Context and the Local

How life has changed! Our predecessors lived on isolated farms and in small towns. They grew their own food and made their own clothing. They bought only sugar, coffee, and a few other items that they couldn't produce. Beyond the borders of their small communities lay a world they perceived only dimly. The labels on our clothing (from Hong Kong to Italy), in contrast, as well as the many other imported products that have become part of our daily lives shout that our world has shrunk into a global village. Even though we can pick up a telephone or use the Internet to communicate instantly with people anywhere on the planet, we continue to occupy our own little corners of life. Like those of our predecessors, our worlds, too, are marked by differences in family background, religion, gender, race–ethnicity, and social class. In these corners, we continue to learn distinctive ways of viewing the world. One of the beautiful—and

fascinating—aspects of sociology is that it enables us to look at both parts of our current reality: being part of a global network and our unique experiences in our smaller corners of life. This text reflects both worlds, each so vital in understanding who we are (Henslin 2011).

Social Problems

What motivates sociologists to investigate social phenomena? Why do they study obesity as a social phenomenon, for example? An important reason for sociologists to study certain topics is when these are considered social problems. But what are social problems? A social problem, also named public issue, is commonly understood as a problem that (Mills, 2000):

1. Goes beyond the individual (it affects many people)
2. Is an issue about which many people are concerned (it is in conflict with certain values).

Social problems are more severe the more people are affected (criterion 1) and the more strongly they conflict with prevalent values (criterion 2).

Topic-007: Sociological Imagination (C Wright Mills)

By using our sociological imaginations, we can better see the relationship between ourselves and the society in which we live. Sociologist C. Wright Mills (1959) contended that this requires that we grasp the connection between history (events that have shaped an entire society's values and beliefs) and biography (an individual's life experiences within a particular society). This important link is often overlooked, but it is essential for sociological understanding, because it places individual behavior in a larger social context. It reminds us that we, as individuals, are to some extent products of the particular society and historical period in which we live, but also acknowledges that we are history makers who help produce and change society by our actions (Thompson and Hickey 2016).

Personal Troubles versus Social Issues: A sociological imagination allows us to see the important relationship between personal troubles, which affect an individual (e.g., being an alcoholic), and social issues, which reflect a problem for the entire society (e.g., alcoholism) (Mills, 1959). This distinction is a critical component of sociology because it enables us to see the general in the particular (Berger, 1963). Sociologists study patterns of behavior to draw general conclusions about a social issue that transcend the effect of the problem or issue on any individual. For example, although alcoholism may have devastating consequences for the alcoholic and his or her immediate family, sociology focuses on the larger problem of alcoholism and its impact on society. This broader sociological focus may include cross-cultural values and attitudes toward alcohol consumption, alcohol use and abuse on college campuses, drinking and driving, the differences and similarities between alcoholism and other forms of drug abuse, and other sociological issues. This is not to say that sociologists are unconcerned about individuals and their lives, but sociology's emphasis is on the way individuals relate to others, peoples' positions in society, and the interdependence between society and individuals (Thompson and Hickey 2016).

Topic-008: Thinking like a Sociologist: Key Questions

- What are the social structures and institutions that shape human behavior?
- How do social norms, values, and beliefs influence human actions and interactions?
- How does power and inequality operate in society?
- What are the causes and consequences of social problems?

- How do individuals and groups create and maintain social order?
- What are the implications of social change and social movements for society and individuals?
- How can we use sociological knowledge to promote social justice and social change?
- Example from Pakistani society: Examining the role of religion and caste in shaping social stratification and inequality.

Topic-009: Sociology and Common Sense

Isn't sociology just common sense? It could be a friend who raises this question with you, a family member or someone else to whom you talked about sociology. Sociology is a relatively young discipline compared with other sciences such as physics and biology, starting off in real spirit roughly around the year 1900. In slightly more than 100 years it has witnessed an enormous growth of scientific observations and explanations and has become a respected social science with clear societal relevance. However, sometimes people are not aware of the progress that has been made in sociology and think that sociological work is no different from common sense and conventional wisdom. Why are people sometimes thinking this way?

In his book *Why Everything is Obvious—Once You Know the Facts*, the sociologist Duncan Watts argues that common sense helps us with practical issues that we encounter daily (Watts, 2011). For example: how should we behave when talking to people, how do we navigate through the traffic to our work and how to keep relationships going on well. We use common sense often implicitly, intuitively and it helps to solve all kinds of small things. However, he also makes clear that such common-sense thinking is often utterly wrong when it comes to understanding social phenomena. What is worse, people often think that only other people are subject to the failure of common sense, whereas everyone happens to be prone to failures of common-sense thinking. Watts, who trained as a mathematician and physicist before he turned to sociology, makes the interesting observation that few people nowadays would dare to apply common-sense thinking regarding physics—which often shows counter-intuitive findings—whereas many people still do so when it comes to social phenomena. It is easy to come up with explanations for human behavior, as we are human beings, rather than to imagine oneself being an electron, for example, and explain the way electrons behave. Watts argues that people have too much confidence in their common sense when it comes to understanding such social behavior.

Sociological knowledge often challenges common sense, i.e., people's descriptions of reality and their explanations. Indeed, an important role for sociologists is to debunk myths and uncover social patterns that are sometimes surprising and counter intuitive. All of us, as human beings, are private sociologists, because we engage in social life and develop our own, private, beliefs about social phenomena, about what's happening and why. For many daily situations, our common-sense thinking is sufficiently accurate, however there is a major gap between this common-sense thinking of private sociologists on the one hand and academic sociology on the other hand. One difference is that, in academic sociology, knowledge becomes available to others, it becomes public, "objective," and hence the subject of critique and systematic inquiries by many people.

Topic-010: Perspectivising Human Behavior

- Understanding that human behavior is shaped by multiple factors, including social, cultural, and psychological influences
- Recognizing the importance of individual agency and free will in shaping behavior
- Examining the interplay between individual and societal factors in shaping behavior
- Appreciating the diversity and complexity of human experience and behavior
- Recognizing the influence of power and inequality on individual and group behavior

- Using different theoretical perspectives to analyze human behavior, such as functionalism, conflict theory, and symbolic interactionism
- Applying sociological concepts and theories to real-life situations and issues
- Example from Pakistani society: Analyzing the impact of honor culture on individual behavior and social relationships.

Topic-011: Understanding Causality

- Recognizing the complexity of causal relationships in social phenomena
- Avoiding simplistic and reductionist explanations of social phenomena
- Using systematic research methods to establish causal relationships
- Understanding the difference between correlation and causation
- Considering alternative explanations and potential confounding factors in establishing causal relationships
- Being mindful of the ethical implications of causal research and interventions
- Using causal knowledge to inform policy and practice
- Example from Pakistani society: Investigating the causes of child labor and developing effective interventions to address the issue.

We need three things to establish causality: temporal order, empirical association, and the elimination of plausible alternatives. An implicit fourth condition is that the causal relationship makes sense or fits with broader assumptions or a theoretical framework. Let us examine the three basic conditions. In addition to these three, a full explanation also requires specifying the causal mechanism and outlining a causal chain.

1. Temporal order means that the cause must come earlier in time than an effect. This common-sense assumption establishes the direction of causality: from the cause toward the effect. You may ask how the cause can come after what it is to affect. It cannot, but temporal order is only one of the conditions needed for causality. Temporal order is necessary but not sufficient to infer causality.
2. An association means that two phenomena occur together in a patterned way or appear to act together. People often confuse the word correlation with association. Correlation has a specific technical meaning and there are certain statistical requirements for it. Association is the more general idea.
3. Eliminating alternatives means that we must show that the effect is due to the causal variable, not to something else. It is also called no spuriousness because an apparent causal relationship that is due to an alternative but unrecognized cause is called a spurious relationship. While we can observe temporal order and associations, we cannot empirically eliminate all logical alternatives. Eliminating possible alternatives is an ideal. This means we can demonstrate this only indirectly or rule out the more obvious alternative explanations.
4. Specifying the mechanism in a causal relationship means that when we create a causal explanation, we must have more than two variables that are correlated, which is “a satisfactory explanation requires that we also specify the social ‘cogs and wheels.’ We go beyond saying that an independent and dependent variable are linked, as if the connection were through a “black box” of unknown processes. A full causal explanation identifies a causal relationship and specifies a causal mechanism (Neuman 2014).

Topic-012: Sociological Themes and Topics

- Social stratification and inequality
- Race, ethnicity, and discrimination
- Gender and sexuality
- Family and kinship
- Education and socialization
- Religion and spirituality
- Globalization and transnationalism
- Health, illness, and medicine

Lesson-03

THEORETICAL PERSPECTIVES IN SOCIOLOGY

Lesson Overview

- Levels of analysis (Micro, Meso, Macro)
- Structural functionalism
- Conflict
- Symbolic Interactionism
- Contemporary Theoretical Approaches (Feminism, Post Colonialism, Post Modernism)

Facts never interpret themselves. To make sense out of life, we place our experiences (our “facts”) into a framework of more-or-less related ideas. This gives us a way of interpreting them. Sociologists do this, too, but they place their observations into a conceptual framework called a theory. A theory is a general statement about how some parts of the world fit together and how they work. It is an explanation of how two or more “facts” are related to one another. Sociologists use three major

theories: symbolic interactionism, functional analysis, and conflict theory. Each theory is like a lens through which we can view social life (Henslin 2011).

Topic-013: Levels of Analysis: Micro, Macro, Meso

Micro level analysis refers to the individual level of analysis and focuses on individual actions, behaviors and attitudes.

Macro level analysis refers to the society level of analysis and focuses on large scale social structures and institutions.

Meso level analysis refers to the intermediate level of analysis and focuses on groups and organizations.

In Pakistani society, micro level analysis could include studying the impact of individual beliefs and attitudes on gender roles, macro level analysis could include studying the impact of political structures on the distribution of power, and meso level analysis could include studying the impact of cultural organizations on local communities.

A major difference among these three theoretical perspectives is their level of analysis. Functionalists and conflict theorists focus on the macro level; that is, they examine large-scale patterns of society. In contrast, symbolic interactionists usually focus on the micro level, on social interaction—what people do when they are in one another's presence. To make this distinction clear an example can be given.

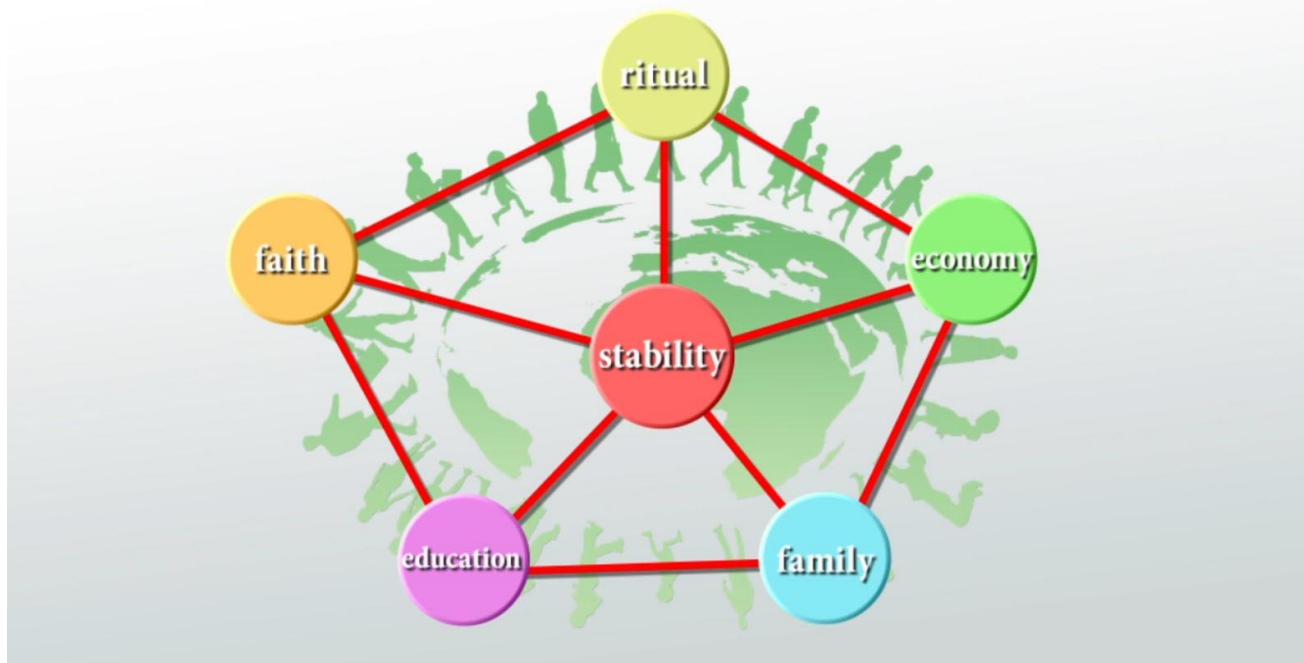
For instance, to study homeless people, symbolic interactionists would focus on the micro level. They would analyse what homeless people do when they are in shelters and on the streets. They would also analyse their communications, both their talk and their nonverbal interaction (gestures, use of space, and so on). This micro level, however, would not interest functionalists and conflict theorists. They would focus instead on the macro level; how changes in some parts of society increase homelessness. Functionalists might look at how jobs have dried up—that there is less need for unskilled labor and how millions of jobs have been transferred to workers overseas. Or they might focus on changes in the family—how because of divorce and smaller families many people who can't find work don't have others

to fall back on. For their part, conflict theorists would stress the struggle between social classes. They would be interested in how the decisions of international elites affect not only global production and trade but also the local job market, unemployment, and homelessness.

Topic-014: Structural Functionalism

The central idea of functional analysis is that society is a whole unit, made up of interrelated parts that work together. Functional analysis (also known as functionalism and structural functionalism) is rooted in the origins of sociology. August Comte and Herbert Spencer viewed society as a kind of living organism. Just as a person or animal has organs that function together, they wrote, so does society. And like an organism, if society is to function smoothly, its parts must work together in harmony. Emile Durkheim also viewed society as being composed of many parts, each with its own function. When all the parts of society fulfill their functions, society is in a “normal” state. If they do not fulfill their functions, society is in an “abnormal” or “pathological” state. To understand society, then, functionalists say that we need to look at both structure (how the parts of a society fit together to make the whole) and function (what each part does, how it contributes to society) (Henslin 2011).

SOCIAL STRUCTURE AND SOCIAL FUNCTIONS



Robert Merton and Functionalism: Robert Merton (1910–2003) dismissed the organic analogy, but he did maintain the essence of functionalism—the image of society being composed of parts that work together. Merton used the term functions to refer to the beneficial consequences of people’s actions: Functions help keep a group (society, social system) in balance. In contrast, dysfunctions are the harmful consequences of people’s actions. They undermine a system’s equilibrium. Functions can be either manifest or latent. If an action is intended to help some part of a system, it is a manifest function. For example, suppose that government officials become concerned that women are having so few children. Congress offers a \$10,000 bonus for every child born to a married couple. The intention, or manifest function, of the bonus is to increase childbearing within the family unit. Merton pointed out that people’s actions can also have latent functions; that is, they can have unintended consequences that help a system adjust. Let’s suppose that the bonus works. As the birth rate jumps, so does the sale of diapers and baby furniture. Because the benefits to these businesses were not the intended consequences, they are latent functions of the bonus. Of course, human actions can also hurt a system. Because such consequences usually are unintended, Merton called them latent dysfunctions. Let’s assume that the government has failed to specify a “stopping point” regarding its bonus system. To collect more bonuses, some people keep on having children. The more children they have, however, the more they need the next bonus to survive. Large families become common, and poverty increases. Welfare is reinstated, taxes jump, and the nation erupts in protest. Because these results were not intended and because they harmed the social system, they would be latent dysfunctions of the bonus program.

In Sum: From the perspective of functional analysis, society is a functioning unit, with each part related to the whole. Whenever we examine a smaller part, we need to look for its functions and dysfunctions to see how it is related to the larger unit. This basic approach can be applied to any social group, whether an entire society, a college, or even a group as small as a family (**Henslin 2011**).

Topic-015: Conflict Theory

Conflict theory provides a third perspective on social life. Unlike the functionalists, who view society as a harmonious whole with its parts working together, conflict theorists stress that society is composed

of groups that are competing with one another for scarce resources. The surface might show cooperation but scratch that surface and you will find a struggle for power.

Karl Marx and Conflict Theory

Karl Marx, the founder of conflict theory, witnessed the Industrial Revolution that transformed Europe. He saw that peasants who had left the land to work in cities earned barely enough to eat. Things were so bad that the average worker died at age 30, the average wealthy person at age 50 (Edgerton 1992:87). Shocked by this suffering and exploitation, Marx began to analyse society and history. As he did so, he developed conflict theory. He concluded that the key to human history is class conflict. In each society, some small group controls the means of production and exploits those who are not in control. In industrialized societies, the struggle is between the bourgeoisie, the small group of capitalists who own the means to produce wealth, and the proletariat, the mass of workers who are exploited by the bourgeoisie. The capitalists control the legal and political system: If the workers rebel, the capitalists call on the power of the state to subdue them. When Marx made his observations, capitalism was in its infancy and workers were at the mercy of their employers. Workers had

none of what we take for granted today— minimum wages, eight-hour days, coffee breaks, five-day work weeks, paid vacations and holidays, medical benefits, sick leave, unemployment compensation, Social Security, and, for union workers, the right to strike. Marx’s analysis reminds us that these benefits came not from generous hearts, but by workers forcing concessions from their employers.

Conflict Theory Today

Many sociologists extend conflict theory beyond the relationship of capitalists and workers. They examine how opposing interests run through every layer of society—whether that be a small group, an organization, a community, or the entire society. For example, when police, teachers, and parents try to enforce conformity, this creates resentment and resistance. It is the same when a teenager tries to “change the rules” to gain more independence. Throughout society, then, there is a constant struggle to determine who has authority or influence and how far that dominance goes (Turner 1978; Piven 2008; Manza and McCarthy 2011). Sociologist Lewis Coser (1913–2003) pointed out that conflict is most likely to develop among people who are in close relationships. These people have worked out ways to distribute power and privilege, responsibilities, and rewards. Any change in this arrangement can lead to hurt feelings, resentment, and conflict. Even in intimate relationships, people are in a constant balancing act, with conflict lying uneasily just beneath the surface.

Feminists and Conflict Theory: Just as Marx examined conflict between capitalists and workers, many feminists analyze conflict between men and women. Their primary focus is the historical, contemporary, and global inequalities of men and women—and how the traditional dominance by men can be overcome to bring about equality of the sexes. Feminists are not united by the conflict perspective, however. They tackle a variety of topics and use whatever theory applies (Henslin 2011).

Topic-016: Symbolic Interactionism

The central idea of symbolic interactionism is that symbols—things to which we attach meaning—are the key to understanding how we view the world and communicate with one another. Two major sociologists who developed this perspective are George Herbert Mead (1863–1931) and Charles Horton Cooley (1864–1929). Let’s look at the main elements of this theory.

Symbols in Everyday Life: Without symbols, our social life would be no more sophisticated than that of animals. For example, without symbols we would have no aunts or uncles, employers, or teachers—or even brothers and sisters. I know that this sounds strange, but it is symbols that define our relationships. There would still be reproduction, of course, but no symbols to tell us how we are related to whom. We would not know to whom we owe respect and obligations, or from whom we can expect privileges—two elements that lie at the essence of human relationships.

Not only do relationships depend on symbols, but so does society itself. Without symbols, we could not coordinate our actions with those of others. We could not make plans for a future day, time, and place. Unable to specify times, materials, sizes, or goals, we could not build bridges and highways. Without symbols, we would have no movies or musical instruments, no hospitals, no government, no religion. The class you are taking could not exist—nor could this book. On the positive side, there would be no war **(Henslin 2011)**.

Topic-017: Contemporary Theoretical Approaches (Feminism, Post Colonialism, Post Modernism)

Feminism is a theoretical approach that emphasizes the importance of gender in shaping social relations and structures. Post colonialism is a theoretical approach that emphasizes the importance of colonialism and its legacy in shaping social relations and structures. Post modernism is a theoretical approach that emphasizes the importance of language and discourse in shaping social relations and structures. In Pakistani society, feminism could be applied to studying the impact of gender on social inequality, post colonialism could be applied to studying the legacy of British colonialism on social structures, and post modernism could be applied to studying the impact of media and language on cultural norms and values.

Putting the theoretical perspectives together

Which of these theoretical perspectives is the right one? As you have seen, each is a lens that produces a contrasting picture of divorce. The pictures that emerge are quite different from the common-sense understanding that two people are simply “incompatible.” Because each theory focuses on different features of social life, each provides a distinct interpretation. Consequently, we need to use all three theoretical lenses to analyse human behavior. By combining the contributions of each, we gain a more comprehensive picture of social life. **(Henslin 2011)**.

Lesson 04**SOCIOLOGY AS SCIENCE****Lesson Overview**

- What is Science?
- Theory Building Process: Inductive vs. Deductive
- Theory Building Process: Concepts and Variables
- Theory Building Process: Causation vs Correlation
- Is Sociology a Science?

Topic-018: What is Science?

Science is based upon verifiable evidence. By evidence we mean factual observations other observers can see, weight, count, and check for accuracy. Scientific observation is not the same as just “looking at things”. We have all been looking at things all our lives, but this does not make us scientific observers any more than a lifetime of swatting flies makes us entomologists. Science constitute observation which differs from ordinary observation in following ways:

Scientific Observation is Accurate

Scientific observation tries to make sure that things are exactly as described and avoids jumping to conclusions. Novelists may fantasize and politicians may exaggerate, but the scientist must try to be accurate.

Scientific Observation is Precise: Precision refers to degree of measurement.

Scientific Observation is Systematic: unless observations are collected in an organized, systematic program, they turn out to be spotty and incomplete. Scientific observation is objective means scientific observation is unaffected by the observers’ own beliefs, preference, wishes, or values. In other words, objectivity means to see and accept facts as they are, not as one might wish them to be (Horton and Hunt 2004).

The Goals of Science

The first goal of each science is to explain why something happens. The second goal is to generalize, that is, to go beyond the individual case and make statements that apply to a broader group or situation. For example, a sociologist wants to explain not only why Mary went to college or became an armed robber but also why people with her characteristics are more likely than others to go to college or to become armed robbers. To achieve generalizations, sociologists look for patterns, recurring characteristics or events. The third scientific goal is to predict, to specify in the light of current knowledge what will happen in the future. To attain these goals, scientists do not rely on magic, superstition, or common beliefs, but, instead, they do systematic research. They explain exactly how they did their research so it can be reviewed by others. Secrecy, prejudice, and other biases go against the grain of science. Sociologists and other scientists also move beyond common sense—the prevailing ideas in a society, the things that “everyone knows” are true. “Everyone” can be misguided today just as everyone was wrong when common sense dictated that the world was flat or that no human could ever walk on the moon. As sociologists do their research, their findings may confirm or contradict commonsense notions about social life (Horton and Hunt 2004).

Sociology as a science: A science may be defined in at least two ways:

1. A science is a body of organized, verified knowledge which has been secured through scientific investigation.
2. A science is a method of study whereby a body of organized, verified knowledge is discovered.

These are of course two ways of saying much the same thing. If the first definition is accepted then sociology is a science to the extent that it develops a body of organized, verified knowledge which is based on scientific investigation. To the extent that sociology forsakes myth, folklore and wishful thinking and bases its conclusion on scientific evidence, it is a science. If science is defined as a method of study, chapter then sociology is a science to the extent that it uses scientific method of study. All natural phenomena can be studied scientifically if one is willing to use scientific methods. Any kind of behavior whether of atoms, animals and adolescents is a proper field for scientific study. During human history few of our actions have been based on verified knowledge, for people through the ages have been guided mainly by folklore, habit, and guess work. Until a few centuries ago very few people accepted the idea that we should find out about the natural world by systematic observation of the natural world itself, rather than by consulting oracles, ancestors, and intuition. This new idea created the modern world. A few decades ago we began acting on the assumption that this same approach might also give useful knowledge about human social life (Horton and Hunt 2004)

Topic-019: Theory building process: Inductive vs Deductive

Inductive process

Inductive logical thought is reasoning that transforms specific observations into general theory. In this mode, a researcher's thinking runs from the specific to the general and goes something like this: "I have some interesting data here; I wonder what they mean."

Deductive Process

A second type of logical thought moves "downward," in the opposite direction: Deductive logical thought is reasoning that transforms general theory into specific hypotheses suitable for testing. The researcher's thinking runs from the general to the specific: "I have this hunch about human behavior; let's collect some data and put it to the test." Working deductively, the researcher first states the theory in the form of a hypothesis and then selects a method by which to test it. To the extent that the data support the hypothesis, a researcher concludes that the theory is correct; on the other hand, data that refute the hypothesis suggest that the theory needs to be revised or perhaps rejected entirely. Just as researchers often employ several methods over the course of one study, they typically use both kinds of logical thought.

Topic-020: Concepts and Variables

Concepts are the Building Blocks of Theory. A theoretical concept is an idea we can express as a symbol or in words. We often express theoretical concepts in natural science and mathematics in symbolic forms, such as Greek letters or as formulas (e.g., $s = d/t$). Let us look at a simple example concept with which you are already familiar, height. You can say the word height or write it as a symbol, h . The combination of letters in the word or its sound symbolizes, or stands for, an idea in your head. Concepts exist outside of social science theory. They are everywhere, and we use them all the time. Height is a simple concept from everyday life, but what does it mean? We may find it easy to use the concept height but difficult to define or describe the concept itself. This is often the case: We may use concepts but find it difficult to think through their full meaning and give them good definitions. The concept height is an abstract idea about a physical relationship. As a characteristic of

a physical object, it indicates the distance from top to bottom. We typically define concepts both by using other concepts and with examples. We can define height by using the concepts of top, bottom, and distance and can illustrate it with numerous examples in the physical world.

Concepts have Two Parts

A symbol (a word, term, or written character) and a definition. We learn definitions in many ways. We probably learned the word height and the idea it represents, or its definition, from our parents. We learn many concepts as we learn to speak and learn to be socialized to a culture. Our parents probably did not give us a dictionary definition. Instead, they taught us through a diffuse, nonverbal, informal process. They showed us many examples; we observed and listened to others use the word. We used the word incorrectly and got confused looks or someone corrected us. We used it correctly, and others understood us. Eventually, we mastered the concept. This is how we learn most concepts in everyday language. Had our parents isolated us from television and other people and then taught us that the word for the idea of distance from top to bottom was *zodige*, we would have had difficulty communicating with others. To be of value, people must share the symbols/terms for concepts and their definitions with others. Most of the concepts we use in everyday life have vague, unclear definitions. Likewise, the values and experiences of people in a specific culture can influence or limit everyday concepts. Preindustrial people in a remote area without electricity who never used a telephone have trouble understanding the concept of a computer or the Internet. Also, some everyday concepts (e.g., evil spirits, demons) have roots in misconceptions, ancient myth, or folklore. Everyday concepts and those used in social science differ, but the difference is not rigid or sharp. Some social science concepts first developed in research studies with precise technical definitions have diffused into the larger culture and language. Over time, they have become less precise or developed an altered meaning. Concepts such as sexism, lifestyle, peer group, urban sprawl, and social class started as technical concepts in a social theory (Neuman 2014)

Topic-021: Causation vs Correlation

While linking variables sociologists should be careful not to confuse correlation, when two variables that are related in such a way that a change in one is accompanied by a change in the other, with causation, when a change in one variable creates a change in another variable. To establish causation, (1) the two variables must be related; (2) the cause must precede the effect; and (3) the relationship between the two variables must persist when all other relevant variables are controlled. Sometimes an apparent relationship between two variables is meaningless. We call this type of relationship spurious. For example, it could be demonstrated that as the deadline for filing income taxes approaches, the sale of swimsuits increases. Despite the strong statistical correlation between the two, it would be ludicrous to assume that filing income taxes causes people to want to wear swimsuits. A much more likely explanation is that because the tax filing deadline falls on April 15, about the same time summer clothing debuts in department stores, people begin to anticipate the oncoming swimming season. Can you think of examples of spurious relationships that are commonly accepted and may go unchallenged? For example, does watching violence on television lead to aggressive and violent behavior? Does capital punishment deter crime? (**Thomson and Hickey 2016**).

Topic-022: Is Sociology a Science?

Sociology uses scientific methods to study social phenomena. It relies on empirical observation, data analysis, and theory building to understand the social world. It aims to develop testable and falsifiable explanations of social phenomena. It incorporates peer review and replication to ensure the validity and reliability of findings. However, some argue that sociology cannot be a science due to the complexity and subjectivity of social phenomena. Others argue that sociology can be a science if it

adheres to scientific methods and principles. Example from Sociology: Studying the relationship between religion and mental health using scientific methods.

Lesson 05**RESEARCH DESIGNS IN SOCIOLOGY****Lesson Overview**

- Doing Sociology: Research Process
- Research Designs: Survey
- Research Designs: Case Study
- Research Designs: Observation
- Research Designs: Experiment
- Research Designs: Secondary data
- Research Ethics

Topic-023: Doing Sociology: Research Process

Defining the research problem and research question. Developing a research hypothesis and theoretical framework. Selecting an appropriate research design and research methods. Collecting data through primary or secondary sources. Analyzing and interpreting the data using statistical or qualitative methods. Drawing conclusions and making generalizations based on the data. Disseminating the research findings through publications or presentations. Example: Conducting a study on the impact of social media on mental health among Pakistani youth.

First, why do we need sociological research? Why can't we simply depend on common sense, on "what everyone knows"? In order to answer a question, we need to move beyond guess work and common sense. We want to know what is really going on. To find out, sociologists do research on about every aspect of social life (**Henslin 2011**).

A Research Model

Scientific research follows eight basic steps which are presented as follows:

Selecting a Topic

The first step is to select a topic. What do you want to know more about? Many sociologists simply follow their curiosity, their drive to learn more about social life. They become interested in a particular topic and they pursue it. Some sociologists choose a topic because funding is available for that topic, others because a social problem such as domestic violence is in the news, and they want to help people better understand it—and perhaps to help solve it.

Defining the Problem

The second step is to define the problem, to specify what you want to learn about the topic. My interest in the homeless increased until I wanted to learn about homelessness across the nation. Ordinarily, sociologists' interests are much more focused than this; they examine some specific aspect of the topic, such as how homeless people survive on the streets. In the case of spouse abuse, sociologists may want to know whether violent and nonviolent husbands have different work experiences. Or they may want to learn what can be done to reduce spouse abuse. The topics that sociologists study are far-ranging. In fact, sociologists do research on any aspect of social life that interests them.

Reviewing the Literature

You must read what has been published on your topic. This helps you to narrow the problem, identify areas that are already known, and learn what areas need to be researched. Reviewing the literature may also help you to pinpoint the questions that you will ask. You might even find out that the problem has been answered already. You don't want to waste your time rediscovering what is already known.

Formulating a Hypothesis

The fourth step is to formulate a hypothesis, a statement of what you expect to find according to predictions from a theory. A hypothesis predicts a relationship between or among variables, factors that change, or vary, from one person or situation to another. For example, the statement "Men who are more socially isolated are more likely to abuse their wives than are men who are more socially integrated" is a hypothesis. Your hypothesis will need operational definitions—that is, precise ways to measure the variables. In this example, you would need operational definitions for three variables: social isolation, social integration, and spouse abuse.

Choosing a Research Method

You then need to decide how you are going to collect your data. Sociologists use seven basic research methods (or research designs), which are outlined in the next section. You will want to choose the research method that will best answer your questions.

Collecting the Data

When you gather your data, you must take care to assure their validity; that is, your operational definitions must measure what they are intended to measure. In this case, you must be certain that you really are measuring social isolation, social integration, and spouse abuse—and not something else. Spouse abuse, for example, seems to be obvious. Yet what some people consider to be abuse is not regarded as abuse by others. Which definition will you choose? In other words, you must state your operational definitions so precisely that no one has any question about what you are measuring.

Analyzing the Results

You can choose from a variety of techniques to analyse the data you gather. If a hypothesis has been part of your research, now is when you will test it. (Some research, especially participant observation, and case studies, has no hypothesis. You may know so little about the setting you are going to research that you cannot even specify the variables in advance.) With today's software, in just seconds you can run tests on your data that used to take days or even weeks to perform. Two basic programs that sociologists and many undergraduates use are Micro case and the Statistical Package for the Social Sciences (SPSS). Some software, such as the Meteorologist's Toolchest, provides advice about collecting data and even about ethical issues.

Disseminating the Results

To wrap up your research, you will write a report to share your findings with the scientific community. You will review how you did your research, including your operational definitions. You will also

show how your findings fit in with what has already been published on the topic and how they support or disagree with the theories that apply to your topic. When research is published, usually in a scientific journal or a book, it “belongs” to the scientific community. Your findings will be available for replication; that is, others can repeat your study to see if they come up with similar results.

Research Designs

Topic-024: Surveys

Let us take the example of “*Spousal abuse*”. Suppose that you want to know how many wives are abused each year. Some husbands also are abused, of course, but let’s assume that you are going to focus on wives. An appropriate method for this purpose would be the survey, in which you would ask individuals a series of questions. Before you begin your research, however, you must deal with practical matters that face all researchers which are as follows:

Selecting a sample: To investigate spousal abuse, ideally, you might want to learn about all wives in the world. Obviously, your resources will not permit such research, and you will have to narrow your **population**, the target group that you are going to study. Let’s assume that your resources (money, assistants, time) allow you to investigate spouse abuse only on your campus. Let’s also assume that your college enrolment is large, so you won’t be able to survey all the married women who are enrolled. Now you must select a **sample**, individuals from among your target population. How you choose a sample is crucial, for your choice will affect the results of your research. For example, married women enrolled in introductory sociology and engineering courses might have quite different experiences. If so, surveying just one or the other would produce skewed results. Because you want to generalize your findings to your entire campus, you need a sample that accurately represents the campus.

How can you get a representative sample? The best way is to use a random sample. This does not mean that you stand on some campus corner and ask questions of any woman who happens to walk by. In a **random sample**, everyone in your population (the target group) has the same chance of being included in the study. In this case, because your population is every married woman enrolled in your college, all married women—whether first-year or graduate students, full- or part-time—must have the same chance of being included in your sample. How can you get a random sample? First, you need a list of all the married women enrolled in your college. Then you assign a number to each name on the list. Using a table of random numbers, you then determine which of these women will become part of your sample. (Tables of random numbers are available in statistics books and online, or they can be generated by a computer).

Questionnaires and Interviews

Even if you have a representative sample and ask neutral questions, you can still end up with biased findings.

Questionnaires

Questionnaires is the list of questions to be asked, can be administered in ways that are flawed. There are two basic techniques for administering questionnaires. The first is to ask the respondents to fill them out. These **self-administered questionnaires** allow a larger number of people to be sampled at a lower cost, but the researchers lose control of the data collection. They don’t know the conditions under which people answered the questions. For example, others could have influenced their answers. The second technique is the **interview**. Researchers ask people questions, often face to face,

sometimes by telephone or e-mail. The advantage of this method is that the researchers can ask each question in the same way. The main disadvantage is that interviews are time-consuming, so researchers end up with fewer respondents. Interviews can also create **interviewer bias**; that is, the presence of interviewers can affect what people say. For example, instead of saying what they really feel, respondents might give “socially acceptable” answers. Although they may be willing to write their true opinions on an anonymous questionnaire, they won’t tell them to another person. Some respondents even shape their answers to match what they think an interviewer wants to hear.

In some cases, structured interviews work best. This type of interview uses closed ended questions—each question is followed by a list of possible answers. Structured interviews are faster to administer, and they make it easier to code (categorize) answers so they can be fed into computer for analysis (**Henslin 2011**).

Topic-025: Case Study

To do a case study, the researcher focuses on a single event, situation, or even individual. The purpose is to understand the dynamics of relationships, power, or even the thought processes that led to some event. Sociologist Ken Levi (2009), for example, wanted to study hit men. He would have loved to have had many hit men to interview, but he had access to only one. He interviewed this man repeatedly, giving us an understanding of how someone can kill others for money. Sociologist Kai Erikson (1978), who became intrigued with the bursting of a dam in West Virginia that killed several hundred people, focused on the events that led up to and followed this disaster. For spouse abuse, a case study would focus on a single wife and husband, exploring the couple’s history and relationship. As you can see, the case study reveals a lot of detail about some particular situation, but the question always remains: How much of this detail applies to other situations? This problem of generalizability, which plagues case studies, is the primary reason that few sociologists use this method (**Henslin 2011**).

Topic-026: Observation

Using direct or participant observation to collect data on social behavior and interactions. Identifying the social setting and context in which the observation takes place. Recording the data using field notes or audio/video recordings. Analyzing the data using qualitative or quantitative methods. Assessing the strengths and limitations of observational research. Example: Conducting an observation study on the gender dynamics in Pakistani workplaces.

Topic 027: Experiments

In commonsense language, to experiment means to modify one thing in a situation and then compare an outcome to what existed without the modification. Experiments are useful for determining cause and effect relationships between variables. Experimental research builds on the principles of a positivist approach. Natural scientists (e.g., chemists or biologists) and researchers in related applied fields (e.g., agriculture, engineering, and medicine) conduct experiments. We use experiments in education, criminal justice, journalism, marketing, nursing, political science, psychology, social work, and sociology to examine many social issues and theories.

There are three critical steps in an experiment: (1) start with causal hypothesis, (2) modify one specific aspect of a situation that is closely connected to the cause, and (3) compare outcomes. An experiment can powerfully test and focus evidence about causal relationships. Compared to other research techniques, it has both advantages and limitations, and these help to see where it is most appropriate. The experiment is often artificial. It is a purposeful simplification of the complex social world. Artificial means that the experimenter consciously controls the study situation and purposely incorporates theoretically relevant variables while removing variables without a causal importance

for a hypothesis. Artificial also means a sharpened focus and narrowly targeted effects that we may not easily encounter in the natural world (**Henslin 2011**).

Topic-028: Secondary Data

Collecting data from existing sources, such as government reports, archives, or surveys. Evaluating the quality and reliability of the secondary data. Using the data to test a research hypothesis or answer a research question. Analyzing the data using statistical or qualitative methods. Assessing the strengths and limitations of secondary data research. Example: Analyzing the demographic trends in Pakistani society using census data.

Unobtrusive Measures

Researchers sometimes use unobtrusive measures, observing the behaviour of people who are not aware that they are being studied. For example, social researchers studied the level of whisky consumption in a town that was legally “dry” by counting empty bottles in trashcans (Lee 2000). Researchers have also gone high-tech in their unobtrusive measures. To trace customers’ paths through stores, they attach infrared surveillance devices to shopping carts.

Grocery chains use these findings to place higher-profit items in more strategic locations (McCarthy 1993). Casino operators use chips that transmit radio frequencies, allowing them to track how much their high rollers are betting at every hand of poker or blackjack (Sanders 2005; Grossman 2007). Billboards read information embedded on a chip in your car key. As you drive by, the billboard displays your name with a personal message (Feder 2007). The same device can collect information as you drive by. Cameras in sidewalk billboards scan the facial features of people who pause to look at its advertising, reporting their sex, race, and how long they looked (Clifford 2008). The billboards, which raise ethical issues of invasion of privacy, are part of marketing, not sociological research (**Henslin 2011**).

Secondary Analysis

In secondary analysis, a fourth research method, researchers analyse data that others have collected. For example, if you were to analyse the original interviews from a study of women who had been abused by their husbands, you would be doing secondary analysis. Ordinarily, researchers prefer to gather their own data, but lack of resources, especially money, may make this impossible. In addition, existing data could contain a wealth of information that wasn’t pertinent to the goals of the original researchers, which you can analyse for your own purposes. Like the other methods, secondary analysis also poses its own problems. How can a researcher who did not carry out the initial study be sure that the data were gathered systematically and recorded accurately and that biases were avoided? This problem plagues researchers who do secondary analysis, especially if the original data were gathered by a team of researchers, not all of whom were equally qualified (**Henslin 2011**).

Documents

The fifth method that sociologists use is the study of documents, recorded sources. To investigate social life, sociologists examine such diverse documents as books, newspapers, diaries, bank records, police reports, immigration files, and records kept by organizations. The term documents are broad, and it also includes video and audio recordings. To study spouse abuse, you might examine police reports and court records. These could reveal what percentage of complaints result in arrest and what proportion of the men arrested are charged, convicted, or put on probation. If these were your questions, police statistics would be valuable (Kingsnorth and MacIntosh 2007).

Topic-029: Research Ethics

In addition to choosing an appropriate research method, we must also follow the ethics of sociology (American Sociological Association 1999). Research ethics require honesty, truth, and openness (sharing findings with the scientific community). Ethics clearly forbid the falsification of results. They also condemn plagiarism—that is, stealing someone else’s work.

Another ethical guideline states that research subjects should generally be informed that they are being studied and should never be harmed by the research. Ethics also require that sociologists protect the anonymity of those who provide information. Sometimes people reveal things that are intimate, potentially embarrassing, or otherwise harmful to themselves. Finally, although not all sociologists agree, it generally is considered unethical for researchers to misrepresent themselves (**Henslin 2011**).

Lesson 06**SOCIAL INTERACTION****Lesson Overview**

- Understanding social interaction
- Types of social interaction: Non-Verbal
- Types of social interaction: Exchange and Cooperation
- Types of social interaction: Competition and Conflict
- Elements of social interaction: Status and Role
- Processes of social interaction: accommodation and assimilation
- Processes of social interaction: Amalgamation and diffusion

Topic-030: Understanding Social Interaction

Social interaction is the process by which people act and react in relation to others and what people do when they come together. Social interaction is the focus of micro sociology. Sociologists who use this approach are likely to analyse the men's rules, or "codes," for getting along; their survival strategies ("hustles"); how they divide up money, wine, or whatever other resources they have; their relationships with girlfriends, family, and friends; where they spend their time and what they do there; their language; their pecking order; and so on. Micro sociology is the primary focus of symbolic interventionists.

Importance of Understanding Social Interaction

Understanding social interaction is important in analyzing and explaining social phenomena and social change. Example from Pakistan: Analyzing the impact of social media on social interaction and communication patterns in Pakistani society.

Topic-031: Non-Verbal

Non-verbal communication refers to the use of gestures, facial expressions, and body language to convey meaning and emotions. Non-verbal communication can be intentional or unintentional and can have significant impacts on social interaction and relationships. Non-verbal communication can vary across cultures and can sometimes lead to misunderstandings and conflicts. Example from Pakistan: Examining the use of non-verbal communication in Pakistani culture and its role in social interaction and relationships.

Topic-032: Types of Social Interaction**Exchange and Cooperation:**

Exchange is perhaps the most basic form of social interaction (Blau, 1963, 1964). Exchange can be voluntary or coerced and can occur in various social contexts, such as markets, families, or organizations. Social exchange theorists maintain that our interactions with others are guided by the "profit motive"; that is, we seek to maximize rewards and minimize costs (Homans, 1961). Social exchange is based on the norm of reciprocity—that we help and not harm those who have helped us (Gouldner, 1960). This norm establishes the expectation that gifts, recognition, love, and other favors will be returned. In a day, people exchange smiles, waves, and other simple courtesies. Exchanges of this kind are most often taken for granted—at least until people fail to meet our expectations. The norm of reciprocity, of course, has a negative side, which includes the expectation that hostilities, threats, social slights, and other acts meant to harm will be reciprocated. Exchange

theorists believe that people, groups, organizations, and nations keep a running account of what they are owed and what they owe others. Top priority is given to exchange relationships with business partners, political allies, friends, kin, or lovers who provide the greatest benefits at the lowest costs. Because people have an interest in searching for the most favourable cost-benefit ratios in their dealings with others, relationships are forever shifting. Nevertheless, exchanges and ties of mutual obligation are vital social glue (**Thomson and Hickey 2016**).

Cooperation is a pattern of interaction in which individuals, groups, and societies work together to achieve shared goals. Cooperation is fundamental to human survival; without its social life would be impossible. Cooperation sustains routine, face-to-face encounters. It is also necessary if people are to make love, raise children, protect themselves, and make a living. Some societies place greater emphasis on cooperation than others. For example, the Japanese, whose norms, and values promote sharing and “selflessness,” have altered the American version of baseball, which stresses individualism and encourages “stars” to stand out from the group. In Japan, people expect all players to exhibit we, a sense of team spirit that obligates the individual to subordinate everything to the group. Team members always eat together and sleep together (**Thomson and Hickey 2016**).

Topic-033: Competition and Conflict

Competition is much like cooperation, in that both individuals and groups strive to achieve a shared goal. It differs from cooperation, however, in that in competition, instead of joining with others to achieve valued goals, people or groups contest for them, recognizing that society’s prizes are in limited supply and only one person or group can attain them. Competitive relationships are especially common to capitalist economies and pervade almost all aspects of people’s lives. For example, corporations compete for customers, professional athletes vie for prizes, students compete for grades, political rivals contest for votes, and even pastors must win converts from competitors (**Thomson and Hickey 2016**).

Conflict is a pattern of interaction in which people or groups struggle to achieve a “commonly prized object or goal” (Nisbet, 1970:75). Conflict is especially common when competitors violate rules and seek to gain their objective by any means available. Robert Nisbet (1970:76) wrote, “There is no group or relationship, however small and intimate, in which conflict does not occasionally occur.” We most often consider conflict to be opposed to human interests, harmful to the social order, and something to be avoided or resolved as quickly as possible. Yet, as conflict theorists emphasize, conflict has a positive side. It may enhance social solidarity, for nothing reduces conflicts and strains within a relationship (whether marital or between nations) better than an external threat (Simmel [1908] 1955; Coser, 1956; Nisbet, 1970). As Robert Nisbet (1970:76) observed, it also may serve as a vehicle for social change in which stagnant beliefs and values are dissolved, old tyrannies loosened, and individuals released to achieve new and higher goals (**Thomson and Hickey 2016**).

Coercion

When people or groups are compelled to interact with each other, coercion is the glue that binds them together. Coercion is the actualization of the threat of force that those with power sometimes use to achieve their objectives. For example, in the United States, education is compulsory; children must attend school whether they want to or not. The relative strength of coercion as a cohesive force lies not so much in blatant expressions of power and authority as in the myriad expressions it may assume in everyday life. Ridicule, gossip, the silent treatment, and withdrawal of affection are but a handful of coercive devices people use in their daily interactions with others. Coercion involves an individual or group that dominates another, the superordinate, and a person or group that is dominated, the subordinate. There cannot be one without the other for, as Georg Simmel ([1908] 1955) noted, the behavior of one is conditioned by the other (**Thomson and Hickey 2016**).

Topic-034: Elements of Social Interaction: Status and Role

Status: In every society, people build their everyday lives using the idea of status, a social position that a person holds. In everyday use, the word status generally means “prestige,” as when we say that a college president has more “status” than a newly hired assistant professor. But sociologically speaking, both “president” and “professor” are statuses, or positions, within the collegiate organization. Status is part of our social identity and helps define our relationship to others. As Georg Simmel (1950:307, orig. 1902), one of the founders of sociology, once pointed out, before we can deal with anyone, we need to know who the person is **(Macionis 2012)**. Example from Pakistan: Analyzing the role of status and role in the Pakistani caste system and its impact on social mobility.

Status Set

Each of us holds many statuses at once. The term status set refers to all the statuses a person holds at a given time. A teenage girl may be a daughter to her parents, a sister to her brother, a student at her school, and a goalie on her soccer team. Status sets change over the life course. A child grows up to become a parent, a student graduates to become a lawyer, and a single person marries to become a husband or wife, sometimes becoming single again because of death or divorce. Joining an organization or finding a job enlarges our status set; withdrawing from activities makes it smaller. Over a lifetime, people gain and lose dozens of statuses **(Macionis 2012)**.

Ascribed and Achieved Status

Sociologists classify statuses in terms of how people attain them. An ascribed status is a social position a person receives at birth or takes on involuntarily later in life. Examples of ascribed statuses include being a daughter, a Cuban, a teenager, or a widower. Ascribed statuses are matters about which we have little or no choice. By contrast, an achieved status refers to a social position a person takes on voluntarily that reflects personal ability and effort. Achieved statuses in the United States include Honors student, Olympic athlete, nurse, software writer, and thief. In the real world, of course, most statuses involve a combination of ascription and achievement. That is, people’s ascribed statuses influence the statuses they achieve. People who achieve the status of lawyer, for example, are likely to share the ascribed benefit of being born into relatively well-off families. By the same token, many less desirable statuses, such as criminal, drug addict, or unemployed worker, are more easily achieved by people born into poverty **(Macionis 2012)**.

Master Status

Some statuses matter more than others. A master status is a status that has special importance for social identity, often shaping a person’s entire life. For most people, a job is a master status because it reveals a great deal about a person’s social background, education, and income. In a few cases, name is a master status; being in the Bush or Kennedy family attracts attention and creates opportunities. A master status can be negative as well as positive. Take, for example, serious illness. Sometimes people, even long-time friends, avoid cancer patients or people with AIDS because of their illnesses. As another example, the fact that all societies limit the opportunities of women makes gender a master status. Sometimes a physical disability serves as a master status to the point where we dehumanize people by seeing them only in terms of their disability **(Macionis 2012)**.

Role

Another important social structure is role, behaviour expected of someone who holds a particular status. A person holds a status and performs a role (Linton, 1937b). For example, holding the status of student leads you to perform the role of attending classes and completing assignments. Both statuses and roles vary by culture. In the United States, the status of “uncle” refers to the brother of a mother or a father. In Vietnam, the word for “uncle” is different on the mother’s and father’s sides of the family, and the two men have different responsibilities. In every society, actual role performance varies with an individual’s unique personality, and some societies permit more individual expression of a role than other (Macionis 2012).

Role Set

Because we hold many statuses at once—a status set—everyday life is a mix of many roles. Robert Merton (1968) introduced the term role set to identify several roles attached to a single status (Macionis 2012).

Role Conflict and Role Strain

People in modern, high-income nations juggle many responsibilities demanded by their various statuses and roles. As most mothers (and more and more fathers) can testify, the combination of parenting and working outside the home is physically and emotionally draining. Sociologists thus recognize role conflict as conflict among the roles connected to two or more statuses. We experience role conflict when we find ourselves pulled in various directions as we try to respond to the many statuses we hold. One response to role conflict is deciding that “something has to go.” More than one politician, for example, has decided not to run for office because of the conflicting demands of a hectic campaign schedule and family life. In other cases, people put off having children to stay on the “fast track” for career success. Even roles linked to a single status may make competing demands on us. Role strain refers to tension among the roles connected to a single status. A college professor may enjoy being friendly with students. At the same time, however, the professor must maintain the personal distance needed to evaluate students fairly. In short, performing the various roles attached to even one status can be something of a balancing act. One strategy for minimizing role conflict is separating parts of our lives so that we perform roles for one status at one time and place and carry out roles connected to another status in a completely different setting. A familiar example of this idea is deciding to “leave the job at work” before heading home to the family (Macionis 2012).

Topic-035: Processes of social interaction: Accommodation and Assimilation

Accommodation

Accommodation refers to the process of adjusting or adapting to cultural differences and similarities in order to coexist and cooperate with others.

Assimilation

Powerful ethnic groups also may encourage or demand that a minority group modify its way of life to conform to the dominant group. Assimilation is a process in which minority groups lose their distinctive identities and conform to cultural patterns of the dominant group. Milton Gordon (1964, 1978) identified three major variants of assimilation: cultural assimilation, in which a minority is encouraged or required to adopt the host group’s culture; structural assimilation, where members of the minority group are encouraged or required to participate in the dominant group’s social organizations, schools, and churches; and marital assimilation, where the minority is encouraged or permitted to marry members of the dominant group (Thomson and Hickey 2016).

Topic-036: Processes of Social Interaction: Amalgamation and Diffusion

Amalgamation refers to the process of blending or mixing different cultures or ethnic groups to create a new and distinct cultural identity. **Diffusion** refers to the spread of cultural traits or practices from one society to another through migration, trade, or communication. Amalgamation refers to the process of blending or mixing different cultures or ethnic groups to create a new and distinct cultural identity. Diffusion refers to the spread of cultural traits or practices from one society to another through migration, trade, or communication.

Lesson 07

SOCIAL GROUPS

Lesson Overview

- Nature of Groups: Primary vs Secondary
- Functions of Groups: Part 1
- Functions of Groups: Part 2
- Types of Groups

Almost everyone wants a sense of belonging, which is the essence of group life. A social group is two or more people who identify with and interact with one another. Human beings come together in couples, families, circles of friends, churches, clubs, businesses, neighbourhoods, and large organizations. Whatever the form, a group is made up of people with shared experiences, loyalties, and interests. In short, while keeping their individuality, members of social groups also think of themselves as a special “we.” Not every collection of individuals forms a group. People all over the country with a status in common, such as women, homeowners, soldiers, millionaires, college graduates, and Roman Catholics, are not a group but a category. Though they know that others hold the same status, most are strangers to one another. Similarly, students sitting in a large stadium interact to a very limited extent. Such a loosely formed collection of people in one place is a crowd rather than a group. However, the right circumstances can quickly turn a crowd into a group. Unexpected events, from power failures to terrorist attacks, can make people bond quickly with strangers.

Topic-037: Types of groups: Primary and Secondary Groups

Primary Group: A primary group consists of people who regularly interact and have close and enduring relationships. When he coined the term, Charles Horton Cooley (1909:23) used the word primary because he believed small, intimate groups were “fundamental in forming the social nature and ideas of the individual.” In primary groups, people interact with one another on an informal basis, and relationships are flexible and enduring. Moreover, people are treated as total social persons, not just in terms of particular social identities, such as student or customer. In primary groups, relationships are valued not for what they can do for members, but for the relationships themselves. These expressive relationships usually have deep emotional significance and meaning for people. People develop strong attachments to primary groups and often use the word we when referring to them (Cooley, 1909). Two lovers, a family, close friends, and neighbours who see each other regularly and who care about each other’s welfare are good examples of primary groups. In simple, preindustrial societies, most interactions occur in primary groups of kin, friends, and neighbours (Thomson and Hickey 2016). Examples of primary groups include families, close friends, and peer groups.

Secondary Group

A secondary group consists of two or more people who interact on a formal and impersonal basis to accomplish a specific objective. Sociologists call these activities instrumental behavior, because people interact with others not as an end in itself, but to achieve specific goals. In most secondary relationships, interactions are limited and often brief, rules are important, and people relate to one another in terms of specific roles. For example, professors and students may get to know each other well during a semester, but primarily in terms of their reciprocal roles. It is rare for either to know where the other lives, the names of

spouses and children, or how the other person spends his or her leisure time. Secondary groups may be small or large, but all large groups in which regular face-to-face interaction is impossible are secondary groups. If you examine your daily routines, you will discover that whereas a few hours each day may be devoted to your family and friends, much of the day's activities are embedded in secondary groups. When you visit a restaurant, attend class, shop at the mall, go to church, participate in a club meeting, or have a brief chat with the mail carrier, you are engaging in secondary group activities. The distinction between primary and secondary groups, however, is not always clear-cut, and in everyday life groups may include elements of each ideal type (**Thomson and Hickey 2016**).

Topic-038: Functions of Groups Part 1

The group in our life gives us a sense of belonging. The groups facilitate socialization, transmission of cultural values and norms and fostering emotional support and interpersonal relationships. This can bring positive consequences for others, such as our tendency to excuse the faults of people we love and to encourage them to do better.

Producing a Mirror Within

Cooley called primary groups the “springs of life.” By this, he meant that primary groups, such as family and friends, are essential to our emotional well-being. As humans, we have an intense need for face-to-face interaction that generates feelings of self-esteem. By offering a sense of belonging and a feeling of being appreciated—and sometimes even loved—primary groups are uniquely equipped to meet this basic need. Primary groups are also significant because their values and attitudes become fused into our identity. We internalize their views, which then become the lenses through which we view life. Even when we are adults—no matter how far we move away from our childhood roots—early primary groups remain “inside” us. There, they continue to form part of the perspective from which we look out onto the world. Ultimately, then, it is difficult, if not impossible, for us to separate the self from our primary groups, for the self and our groups merge into a “we.”

Secondary Groups are Important because Contemporary society could not function without secondary groups. They are part of the way we get our education, make our living, spend our money, and use our leisure time (**Henslin 2011**).

Topic-039: Functions of groups: Part 2

Providing opportunities for social exchange and cooperation. Facilitating the achievement of common goals and objectives. Creating social networks and connections that can lead to other opportunities. Promoting social change and social movements. In Pakistan, professional associations or trade unions can be examples of groups that facilitate social exchange and cooperation, while political parties can promote social change and social movements.

Topic-040: Types of Groups

In-groups are groups to which we feel a sense of belonging and loyalty, while out-groups are groups to which we feel a sense of opposition or competition.

Formal groups are groups with a designated structure, goals, and rules, while informal groups are groups that form naturally based on shared interests or social ties.

Virtual groups are groups that interact primarily through technology, such as online communities or social media networks.

In Pakistan, sports teams or political parties can be examples of in-groups, while rival teams or opposing political parties can be examples of out-groups. Social media groups or online forums can be examples of virtual groups.

Reference Group

How do we assess our own attitudes and behavior? Frequently, we use a reference group, a social group that serves as a point of reference in making evaluations and decisions. A young man who imagines his family's response to a woman he is dating is using his family as a reference group. A supervisor who tries to predict her employees' reaction to a new vacation policy is using them in the same way. As these examples suggest, reference groups can be primary or secondary. In either case, our need to conform shows how others' attitudes affect us. We also use groups that we do not belong to for reference. Being well prepared for a job interview means showing up dressed the way people in that company dress for work. Conforming to groups we do not belong to is a strategy to win acceptance by others and illustrates the process of anticipatory socialization (**Macionis 2012**).

Ingroup and Outgroup

Each of us favors some groups over others, based on political outlook, social prestige, or even just manner of dress. On the college campus, for example, left-leaning student activists may look down on fraternity members, whom they consider too conservative; fraternity members, in turn, may snub the "nerds," who they feel work too hard. People in every social setting make positive and negative evaluations of members of other groups. Such judgments illustrate another important element of group dynamics: the opposition of in-groups and out-groups. An in-group is a social group toward which a member feels respect and loyalty. An ingroup exists in relation to an out-group, a social group toward which a person feels a sense of competition or opposition. In-groups and outgroups are based on the idea that "we" have valued traits that "they" lack. Tensions between groups sharpen the groups' boundaries and give people a clearer social identity. However, members of in-groups generally hold overly positive views of themselves and unfairly negative views of various out-groups. Power also plays a part in intergroup relations. A powerful ingroup can define others as a lower-status out-group. Historically, in countless U.S. towns and cities, many white people viewed people of colour as an out-group and subordinated them socially, politically, and economically. Minorities who internalize these negative attitudes often struggle to overcome negative self-images. In this way, says Tajfel (1982) and Bobo & Hutchings (1996), in-groups and out-groups foster loyalty but also generate conflict (**Macionis 2012**).

Group Size: Dyad and Triad

The Dyad

The German sociologist Georg Simmel (1858–1918) studied social dynamics in the smallest groups. Simmel (1950, orig. 1902) used the term dyad (Greek for "pair") to designate a social group with two members. Simmel explained that social interaction in a dyad is usually more intense than in larger groups because neither member shares the other's attention with anyone else. In the United States, love affairs, marriages, and the closest friendships are typically dyadic. But like a stool with only two legs, dyads are unstable. Both members of a dyad must work to keep the relationship going; if either withdraws, the group collapses. Because the stability of marriages is important to society, the marital dyad is supported by legal, economic, and often religious ties (**Macionis 2012**).

The Triad

Simmel also studied the triad, a social group with three members, which contains three relationships, each uniting two of the three people. A triad is more stable than a dyad because one member can act as a mediator should the relationship between the other two become strained. Such group dynamics help explain why members of a dyad (say, a married couple) often seek out a third person (such as a counsellor) to discuss tensions between them. On the other hand, two of the three can pair up at times to press their views on the third, or two may intensify their relationship, leaving the other feeling left out. For example, when two of the three develop a romantic interest in each other, they will come to understand the meaning of the old saying, “Two’s company, three’s a crowd.” As groups grow beyond three people, they become more stable and capable of withstanding the loss of one or more members. At the same time, increases in group size reduce the intense personal interaction possible only in the smallest groups. This is why larger groups are based less on personal attachment and more on formal rules and regulations (Macionis 2012).

Lesson-08**FORMAL ORGANIZATIONS****Lesson Overview**

- Formal Organizations
- Bureaucracy: Characteristics
- Bureaucracy: Dysfunctions
- Mass media Organizations
- Formal Organizations: Present and Future

Topic-041: Formal Organization

It is not surprising that formal organizations, secondary groups designed to achieve explicit objectives, are rare in traditional societies. As you have seen, life there is organized around personal relationships. There were three exceptions in traditional societies, however, that foreshadowed the changes ushered in by industrialization. An outstanding example is the twelfth-century guilds of western Europe. Men who performed the same type of work organized to control their craft in a local area. They set prices and standards of workmanship (Bridgwater 1953; “Guilds” 2008). Much like modern unions, guilds also prevented outsiders (non-members of the guild) from working at their particular craft. Two other examples of early formal organizations are the army and the Roman Catholic Church, each with its hierarchical structure. Although they use different names for their ranks (commander-in- chief/pope, general/cardinal, private/priest, and so on), in each, senior ranks are in charge of junior ranks. Formal organizations, however, used to be rare, but with rationality they have become a central feature of today’s social life. Society has changed so extensively that most of us are even born within a formal organization. We are also educated in formal organizations, we spend our working lives in them, and we are even buried by them. The change is so extensive that we can’t even think of modern society without referring to formal organizations. One of the main characteristics of formal organizations is that they tend to develop into bureaucracies (**Henslin 2012**).

Topic-042: Bureaucracy: Characteristics

According to weber (1913/1947), Bureaucracies have the following characteristics.

1. **Clear levels, with assignments flowing downward and accountability flowing upward:** Each level assigns responsibilities to the level beneath it, and each lower level is accountable to the level above it for fulfilling those assignments.
2. **A division of labour:** Each worker is assigned specific tasks, and the tasks of all the workers are coordinated to accomplish the purpose of the organization. In a college, for example, a teacher does not fix the heating system, the president does not approve class schedules, and a secretary does not evaluate textbooks. These tasks are distributed among people who have been trained to do them.
3. **Written rules:** In their attempt to become efficient, bureaucracies stress written procedures. In general, the longer a bureaucracy exists and the larger it grows, the more written rules it has. The rules of some bureaucracies cover just about every imaginable situation. In my university, for example, the rules are published in handbooks: separate ones for faculty, students, administrators, civil service workers, and perhaps others that I don’t even know about.

4. **Written communications and records:** Records are kept for much of what occurs in a bureaucracy. Some workers must detail their activities in written reports. My university, for example, requires that each semester, faculty members compile a summary of the number of hours they spent performing specified activities. They must also submit an annual report listing what they accomplished in teaching, research, and service—all accompanied by copies of publications, evidence of service, and written teaching evaluations from each course. These materials go to committees that evaluate the performance of each faculty member.
5. **Impersonality and replaceability:** The office is important, not the individual who holds the office. Each worker is a replaceable unit. You work for the organization, not for the replaceable person who heads some post in the organization. When a professor retires, for example, someone else is appointed to take his or her place. This makes each person a small cog in a large machine (**Henslin 2011**).

Topic-043: Bureaucracy Dysfunctions

Bureaucracy can sometimes produce negative outcomes or unintended consequences. **Examples:** Inefficient decision-making, red tape and bureaucratic delays, lack of responsiveness to public needs, etc. **Causes:** Rigid adherence to rules and procedures, lack of accountability, corruption, etc. Although in the long run no other form of social organization is more efficient, as Weber recognized, bureaucracies also have a dark side. Let's look at some of their dysfunctions.

Red Tape

A Rule Is a Rule. Bureaucracies can be so bound by red tape that when officials apply their rules, the results can defy all logic (**Henslin 2011**).

Lack of Communication between Units

Each unit within a bureaucracy performs specialized tasks, which are designed to contribute to the organization's goals. At times, units fail to communicate with one another and end up working at cross-purposes (**Henslin 2011**).

Bureaucratic Alienation

Perceived in terms of roles, rules, and functions rather than as individuals, many workers begin to feel more like objects than people. Marx termed these reactions alienation, a result, he said, of workers being cut off from the finished product of their Labor. He pointed out that before industrialization, workers used their own tools to produce an entire product, such as a chair or table. Now the capitalists own the tools (machinery, desks, computers) and assign each worker only a single step or two in the entire

production process. Relegated to performing repetitive tasks that seem remote from the final product, workers no longer identify with what they produce. They come to feel estranged not only from the results of their Labor but also from their work environment (**Henslin 2011**).

Resisting Alienation

Because workers need to feel valued and want to have a sense of control over their work, they resist alienation. A major form of that resistance is forming primary groups at work. Workers band together in informal settings—at lunch, around desks, or for a drink after work. There, they give one

another approval for jobs well done and express sympathy for the shared need to put up with cantankerous bosses, meaningless routines, and endless rules. In these contexts, they relate to one another not just as workers, but also as people who value one another. They flirt, laugh, and tell jokes, and talk about their families and goals. Adding this multidimensionality to their work relationships maintains their sense of being individuals rather than mere cogs in a machine (**Henslin 2011**).

The Alienated Bureaucrat

Not all workers succeed in resisting alienation. Some become alienated and quit. Others become alienated but remain in the organization because they see no viable alternative, or they wait it out because they have “only so many years until retirement.” They hate every minute of work, and it shows—in their attitudes toward clients, toward fellow workers, and toward bosses. The alienated bureaucrat does not take initiative, will not do anything for the organization beyond what is absolutely required, and uses company rules to justify doing as little as possible. Despite poor attitude and performance, alienated workers often retain their jobs. Some keep their jobs because of seniority, while others threaten costly, time-consuming, and embarrassing legal action if anyone tries to fire them. Some alienated workers are shunted off into small bureaucratic corners, where they spend the day doing trivial tasks and have little chance of coming in contact with the public. This treatment, of course, only alienates them further (**Henslin 2011**).

Bureaucratic Incompetence

In a tongue-in-cheek analysis of bureaucracies, Laurence Peter proposed what has become known as the **Peter principle**: Each employee of a bureaucracy is promoted to his or her level of incompetence (Peter and Hull 1969). People who perform well in a bureaucracy come to the attention of those higher up the chain of command and are promoted. If they continue to perform well, they are promoted again. This process continues until they are promoted to a level at which they can no longer handle the responsibilities well—their level of incompetence. There they hide behind the work of others, taking credit for the accomplishments of employees under their direction. In our opening vignette, the employee who sent the wrong mail has already reached his or her level of incompetence. Although the Peter principle contains a grain of truth, if it were generally true, bureaucracies would be staffed by incompetents, and these organizations would fail. Bureaucracies are remarkably successful. Sociologists Peter Evans and James Rauch (1999) examined the government bureaucracies of thirty-five developing countries. They found that greater prosperity comes to the countries that have central bureaucracies and hire workers based on merit (**Henslin 2011**).

Implications: Bureaucratic dysfunctions can undermine public trust in government and lead to negative impacts on society.

Topic-044: Mass Media Organizations

Mass communication contrasts markedly with face-to-face interaction in many ways. First, neither the communicator (medium) nor the receiver (audience) is a single person. The sender is usually a formal organization and its spokesperson a professional communicator, whereas the receiver is a large, heterogeneous, mass audience whose members are anonymous to one another (Dominick, 1987). Second, the communication does not involve give and take, with spontaneous and unpredictable elements, but instead is unidirectional, with the sender transmitting a standardized message and thousands or even millions of individuals receiving it. Mass communication thus allows extensive influence and, as Denis McQuail (1983:35) wrote, “much less variability of response than

occurs with slow and sequential person-to-person diffusion of information.” Sociologists have focused much attention on the mass media as organizational systems. Following Etzioni’s (1975) typology of organizations, sociologists classify most media organizations as utilitarian, because the majority operate for profit and people who receive their messages do so voluntarily. Many media organizations, however, are operated for both utilitarian and ideological ends, because they wish not only to make a profit but also to promote certain values and beliefs. In cases where media organizations are owned and operated by governments and messages must conform to an official view, the media appear to be more like coercive organizations. However, although governments can package information to suit their ends, it is much more difficult to force people to receive their propaganda and interpret it as officials wish. Consequently, media organizations are never completely coercive (McQuail, 1983). Ironically, although bureaucracies perform important functions, the media often present them either as faceless, cold, or, in the case of government bureaucracies, as irrational, incompetent, and wasteful.

In the twenty-first century, consolidating media and a handful of mega media survivors have great influence over all media. The large networks and broadcast television take in most political advertising dollars and “the 20 leading Internet sites and the biggest cable channels are already owned by G.E., Disney, Fox, Gannett, and Time Warner” and a few other media powerhouses (Safire, 2003:1). And the 16,000 or so radio stations have consolidated with similar owners as well (**Henslin 2011**).

Topic-045: Formal organizations: Present and Future

Many writers and scholars believe that despite their record of achievement and success during the twentieth century, the days of giant bureaucratic organizations are almost over. In the 1960s, for example, Warren Bennis and Philip Slater (1968) predicted that future technological changes would become so rapid and unpredictable that bureaucracies, which are geared to relatively stable and routine conditions, would be replaced by smaller, more egalitarian groups and organizations. Highly skilled workers would periodically join forces, solve a problem, and then disband until their skills were needed elsewhere. For a small segment of highly educated and highly skilled workers, these predictions have become a reality.

The expansion and merger of transnational corporations, which now routinely cross political and cultural boundaries to make a profit, have altered bureaucratic organizations as well. During the 1990s, mergers produced giant corporations with complex bureaucracies that spanned the globe. At the same time, an organizational pattern of decentralization and flexibility has become more common among small and large businesses alike. Many corporate CEOs believe that flexibility will be essential to adapt to rapidly changing and diversified global markets—especially international Labor and money markets. One sociologist claims that the new economy has created a “network society,” where work, employment, and much of social life are marked by relentless change.

Another major trend that has changed patterns of work and industrial organization is the success of Japanese and other Pacific Rim corporations. Their bureaucratic structures and decision-making processes have already brought significant social and cultural changes to bureaucratic organizations worldwide (Hickson, 1987). More than 1 million Americans work for Japanese corporations, and they and American business leaders have witnessed many of the competitive advantages of teams, consensus, collective decision making, and worker loyalty and commitment. Several British sociologists argue that new technologies are creating new “hybrid organizational forms.” They are even more flexible than matrix organizations based on project teams and “more responsive to a constantly shifting and unpredictable market” (Heath et al., 2000:303).

Another trend that sociologists will follow is the growing interdependence of bureaucratic organizations. For example, scientific research is no longer conducted by single organizations but by a set of interdependent agencies that includes universities, corporations, and the federal government. Sociologist Stanley Aronowitz (2000) observed that for decades these organizations cooperated as part of a vast military–industrial complex. Today, however, they must justify their existence on commercial, profit-making grounds **(Thomson and Hickey 2016)**.

Lesson-09

CULTURE-I

Lesson Overview

- What is Culture and its Types?
- What is Society and its Relationship with Culture
- Is the Foundation of Culture Biological or Social?
- Components of Culture: Symbols and Language
- Components of Culture: Values

Topic-046: Culture and its Types

Culture: Culture is the learned set of beliefs, values, norms, and material goods shared by group members. Culture consists of everything we learn in groups during the life course— from infancy to old age. Culture therefore includes ideas about what is real and what is not, what we may and may not eat, the clothing we wear, the music we listen to, and the games we play. Culture shapes our understandings of good and evil, health and sickness, and life and death. It lays down rules for serious social concerns as well as guidelines for everyday life. Culture is much more than ideas and rules of behavior, however. It gives our lives meaning, telling us why we should get out of bed each morning, obey the rules, and live from infancy to old age. Culture provides rewards for proper behavior and may promise that these rewards will continue beyond this physical world (**Thomson and Hickey 2016**).

Types of Culture

Material culture includes artifacts, art, architecture, and other tangible goods that people create and assign meanings. Technology, art, architecture, clothing, television sets, and consumer goods at malls and supermarkets are all part of material culture in advanced industrial societies. Nonmaterial culture refers to mental blueprints that serve as guidelines for group behavior. They include the collective assumptions, languages, beliefs, values, norms, and attitudes of groups. Symbols are humans' greatest achievement. The application of symbols to the physical world—specifically, the invention of material culture and technology—follows closely. Material and nonmaterial culture are interrelated in that all societies express their beliefs, values, and understandings in artifacts, architecture, and art

(**Thomson and Hickey 2016**).

High Culture and Popular Culture

The diversity of culture also involves social class. Sociologists use the term high culture to refer to cultural patterns that distinguish a society's elite and popular culture to designate cultural patterns that are widespread among a society's population. Common sense may suggest that high culture is superior to popular culture, but sociologists are uneasy with such judgments for two reasons. First, neither elites nor ordinary people share all the same tastes and interests; people in both categories differ in many ways. Second, do we praise high culture because it is inherently better than popular culture or simply because its supporters have more money, power, and prestige? For example, there is no difference at all between a violin and a fiddle; however, we simply name the instrument a

violin when it is used to produce classical music typically enjoyed by a person of higher position and we call it a fiddle when the musician plays country tunes appreciated by people with lower social standing (**Macionis 2012**).

Topic-047: Society and its Relationship with Culture

Society refers to people who interact in a defined territory and share a culture. Culture is often confused with society, but the two words have different meanings. Whereas a culture is a system of norms and values, a society is a relatively independent, independent, self-perpetuating human group which occupies a territory, shares a culture, and has most of its association within this group. A society is an organization of people whose associations are with one another.

A culture is an organized system of norms and values which people hold. Thus, the plains Indians included a number of societies (which we call tribes), yet to a considerable extent they shared a similar culture. Adjoining societies may have quite different culture, as with the United States and Mexico or they may have quite similar culture as the United States and Canada. With both concepts, society, and culture the boundaries are indistinct. Most societies have some contact with neighborhood societies. Many times, in history two societies became so interwoven that they became one. Thus, many societies were absorbed into Roman society. Also, a single society may include groups of people who differ in culture such as the French, German and Italian speaking segments of the Swiss population or the French and English-speaking segments of the Canadian population (**Horton and Hunt 2004**).

Topic-048: Is the Foundation of Culture Biological or Social?

We know that culture is a human creation, but does human biology influence how this process unfolds? A third theoretical approach, standing with one leg in biology and one in sociology, is socio-biology, a theoretical approach that explores ways in which human biology affects how we create culture. Socio-biology rests on the theory of evolution proposed by Charles Darwin in *On the Origin of Species* (1859). Darwin asserted that living organisms change over long periods of time because of natural selection, a matter of four simple principles. First, all living things live to reproduce themselves. Second, the blueprint for reproduction is in the genes, the basic units of life that carry traits of one generation into the next. Third, some random variation in genes allows a species to “try out” new life patterns in a particular environment. This variation allows some organisms to survive better than

others and pass on their advantageous genes to their offspring. Fourth and finally, over thousands of generations, the genetic patterns that promote reproduction survive and become dominant. In this way, as biologists say, a species adapts to its environment, and dominant traits emerge as the “nature” of the organism. Sociobiologists claim that the large number of cultural universals reflects the fact that all humans are members of a single biological species (**Macionis 2012**).

Topic-049: Components of Culture

Although cultures vary greatly, they all have common elements, including symbols, language, values, and norms. We begin our discussion with the one that is the basis for all the others:

Symbols: Symbols Like all creatures, humans use their senses to experience the surrounding world, but unlike others, we also try to give the world meaning. Humans transform elements of the world into symbols. A symbol is anything that carries a particular meaning recognized by people who share a culture. A word, a whistle, a wall covered with graffiti, a flashing red light, a raised fist—all serve

as symbols. We can see the human capacity to create and manipulate symbols reflected in the very different meanings associated with the simple act of winking an eye, which can convey interest, understanding, or insult. Societies create new symbols all the time. We are so dependent on our culture's symbols that we take them for granted. However, we become keenly aware of the importance of a symbol when someone uses it in an unconventional way, as when a person burns a U.S. flag during a political demonstration.

Entering an unfamiliar culture also reminds us of the power of symbols; **culture shock** is really the inability to “read” meaning in strange surroundings. Not understanding the symbols of a culture leaves a person feeling lost and isolated, unsure of how to act, and sometimes frightened. Culture shock is a two-way process. On one hand, travellers experience culture shock when encountering people whose way of life is different. For example, North Americans who consider dogs beloved household pets might be put off by the Masai of eastern Africa, who ignore dogs and never feed them. The same traveller might be horrified to find that in parts of Indonesia and the People's Republic of China, people roast dogs for dinner. On the other hand, a traveller may inflict culture shock on local people by acting in ways that offend them. A North American who asks for a steak in an Indian restaurant may unknowingly offend Hindus, who consider cows sacred and never to be eaten. Global travel provides almost endless opportunities for this kind of misunderstanding. Symbolic meanings also vary within a single society. To some people in the United States, a fur coat represents a prized symbol of success, but to others it represents the inhumane treatment of animals. In the debate about flying the Confederate flag over the South Carolina statehouse a few years ago, some people saw the flag as a symbol of regional pride, but others saw it as a symbol of racial oppression (**Thompson and Hickey 2016**).

Language

Language, the key to the world of culture, is a system of symbols that allows people to communicate with one another. Humans have created many alphabets to express the hundreds of languages we speak. Language not only allows communication but is also the key to cultural transmission, the process by which one generation passes culture to the next.

Just as our bodies contain the genes of our ancestors, our culture contains countless symbols of those who came before us. Language is the key that unlocks centuries of accumulated wisdom. Throughout human history, every society has transmitted culture by using speech, a process sociologists call the “oral cultural tradition.” Some 5,000 years ago, humans invented writing, although at that time only a privileged few learned to read and write. Not until the twentieth century did high-income nations boast of nearly universal literacy. Still, about 14 percent of

U.S. adults (more than 30 million people) are functionally illiterate, unable to read and write in a society that increasingly demands such skills. In low-income countries of the world, 15 percent of men and 24 percent of women are illiterate (U.S. Department of Education, 2008; Population Reference Bureau, 2011). Language skills may link us with the past, but they also spark the human imagination to connect symbols in new ways, creating an almost limitless range of future possibilities. Language sets humans apart as the only creatures who are self-conscious, aware of our limitations and ultimate mortality, yet able to dream and to hope for a future better than the present (**Thompson and Hickey 2016**).

Topic-050: Components of Culture: Values

Values are culturally defined standards that people use to decide what is desirable, good, and beautiful and that serve as broad guidelines for social living. People who share a culture use values to make

choices about how to live. Values are broad principles that support beliefs, specific thoughts, or ideas that people hold to be true. In other words, values are abstract standards of goodness, and beliefs are particular matters that individuals consider true or false. For example, because most U.S. adults share the value of providing equal opportunities for all, they believe that a qualified woman could serve as president of the United States, as the 2008 campaign of Hillary Clinton demonstrated (NORC, 2011:393).

Values vary from culture to culture around the world. In general, the values that are important in higher-income countries differ somewhat from those common in lower-income countries.

Because lower-income nations contain populations that are vulnerable, people in these countries develop cultures that value survival. This means that people place a great deal of importance on physical safety and economic security. They worry about having enough to eat and a safe place to sleep at night. Lower income nations also tend to be traditional, with values that celebrate the past and emphasize the importance of family and religious beliefs. These nations, in which men have most of the power, typically discourage or forbid practices such as divorce and abortion. People in higher-income countries develop cultures that value individualism and self-expression. These countries are rich enough that most of their people take survival for granted, focusing their attention instead on which “lifestyle” they prefer and how to achieve the greatest personal happiness. In addition, these countries tend to be secular-rational, placing less emphasis on family ties and religious beliefs and more on people thinking for themselves and being tolerant of others who differ from them. In higher-income countries, women have social standing more equal to men, and there is widespread support for practices such as divorce and abortion (World Values Survey, 2008)

Topic-051: Components of Culture: Norms

Norms are expectations and rules for proper conduct that guide the behavior of group members. Among all groups, norms provide guidelines that tell members how they should think and act in any given social situation.

Types of Norms: There are four major kinds of norms: folkways, mores, laws, and taboos.

Folkways: The most common norms are folkways, informal rules and expectations that guide people’s everyday behavior. They include such things as etiquette, table manners, proper appearance, and many other simple, everyday behaviours that in American culture are indicators of “self-control.” Although people find violations of folkways annoying, they typically tolerate them. Moreover, when sanctions are applied, they are usually informal sanctions that are loosely defined and applied by individuals rather than by an authorized social body. When a child holds a fork in the proper hand, a parent may sanction the behavior with praise. Conversely, if the child spreads butter on bread using fingers instead of a knife, negative sanctions may be applied; the child may be ridiculed, threatened, or sent away from the table (Thompson and Hickey 2016).

Mores

Mores (pronounced more-ays) are salient norms that people consider essential to the proper working of society. Mores have considerable moral (and sometimes religious) significance and are closely tied to values. People believe that mores protect what is right and good. Formal sanctions, which are clearly defined rewards or punishments administered by specialized agents of society, are often employed to ensure conformity to mores. Medals and awards may be given in recognition of heroic acts and special contributions to society. Conversely, people who commit serious violations of mores may be imprisoned, tortured, and executed (Thompson and Hickey 2016).

Laws

Important mores typically become encoded into laws. Laws are formal rules enacted and enforced by the power of the state, which apply to members of society. Laws that codify mores are usually recognized as vital to society, and most people believe that without them public order would be impossible. The relationship between laws and mores is complex, however. Sometimes laws and mores correspond closely; for example, it is both immoral and illegal to steal another's property. In other cases, laws may reflect the power of one group or segment of society relative to another, and their legitimacy may be challenged by opposition interests or groups **(Thompson and Hickey 2016)**.

Taboos

Taboos are prohibitions against behaviours that most members of a group consider to be so repugnant they are unthinkable. Eating human flesh, for example, is such a heinous act that in most societies neither sanctions nor laws are needed for compliance with the taboo against this behavior **(Thompson and Hickey 2016)**.

Sanctions

Norms are enforced using sanctions, which are penalties or rewards society uses to encourage conformity and punish deviance. For example, parents are expected to feed, clothe, and care for their children. If they do not, they may not only be punished for their neglect, but they may also lose custody of the children. Some norms apply in certain situations but not in others **(Thompson and Hickey 2016)**.

Lesson-10**CULTURE-II****Lesson Overview**

- Cultural Relativism and Culture Shock
- Cultural Diversity (in Pakistani Context)
- Sub-Cultures and Counter Cultures
- Ideal vs. Real Culture

Topic-052: Cultural Relativism

The concept of Cultural Shock: A process of psychological disorientation experienced by people who come into contact with a culture different from their own. Feelings of confusion and disorientation that occur when a person encounters a very different culture is known as culture shock. If we carefully observe another culture, however, we realize that the same things that cause us shock and confusion provide order, security, identity, and meaning to the people of that culture. Do visitors to the United States experience cultural shock? One of the authors of this text discovered the answer when he served as a tour guide for a visitor from rural China, who was shocked by the many goods and affluent lifestyles that she witnessed in malls and suburban communities, which most Americans consider “ordinary.” The experience was reciprocated a few years later when the author visited rural China and was taken aback by the masses of people (often over a million) living in what were considered “small” villages. (Thompson and Hickey 2016).

Factors that cause Culture Shock are language barrier, different norms and values, food and lifestyle, communication style. **Examples of Culture Shock in Pakistani context** can be students studying abroad, tourists visiting Pakistan, expats living in Pakistan, etc.

The effects of Culture Shock can be feelings of anxiety, homesickness, disorientation, depression, etc.

Strategies to overcome Culture Shock:

Some strategies can be building a support system, staying open-minded, maintaining a positive attitude, learning about the new culture.

Practicing Cultural Relativism

Definition of Cultural Relativism: the idea that cultural beliefs, values, and practices should be understood within their own cultural context and not judged according to the standards of another culture.

To counter our tendency to use our own culture as the standard by which we judge other cultures, we can practice cultural relativism; that is, we can try to understand a culture on its own terms. This means looking at how the elements of a culture fit together, without judging those elements as superior or inferior to our own way of life. With our own culture embedded so deeply within us, however, practicing cultural relativism can challenge our orientations to life. Applying cultural relativism is an attempt to refocus that lens so we can appreciate other ways of life rather than simply asserting “Our way is right.”

Although cultural relativism helps us to avoid cultural smugness, this view has come under attack. In a provocative book, *Sick Societies* (1992), anthropologist Robert Edgerton suggests that we develop a scale for evaluating cultures on their “quality of life,” much as we do for

U. S. cities. He also asks why we should consider cultures that practice female circumcision, gang rape, or wife beating, or cultures that sell little girls in morally equivalent to those that do not. Cultural values that result in exploitation, he says, are inferior to those that enhance people's lives. If almost any kind of behavior is the norm somewhere in the world, does that mean everything is equally right? Does the fact that some Indian and Moroccan families benefit from having their children work long hours justify child Labor? Since we are all members of a single species, surely there must be some universal standards of proper conduct. But what are they? And in trying to develop them, how can we avoid imposing our own standards on others? There are no simple answers to these questions. But when confronting an unfamiliar cultural practice, it is best to resist making judgments before grasping what people in that culture understand the issue to be. Remember also to think about your own way of life as others might see it. After all, what we gain most from studying others is better insight into ourselves.

Cultural relativism can be difficult for travellers to adopt: It requires not only openness to unfamiliar values and norms but also the ability to put aside cultural standards we have known all our lives. Even so, as people of the world come into increasing contact with one another, the importance of understanding other cultures becomes ever greater (**Henslin 2011**).

Topic-053: Cultural Diversity

Definition of Cultural Diversity is the existence of different cultural beliefs, values, and practices within a society. Pakistan is a culturally diverse country with a mix of different ethnic, linguistic, and religious groups. Examples of cultural diversity in Pakistan: Punjabi, Sindhi, Pashtun, Balochi, etc. The **benefits** of cultural diversity are it enhances creativity and innovation, promotes tolerance and understanding, and provides a rich cultural heritage. However, there are some challenges of cultural diversity in Pakistan like cultural conflicts, language barriers, economic disparities.

Topic-054: Subcultures and Counterculture

Subculture: The term subculture refers to cultural patterns that set apart some segment of a society's population. People who specialize in an occupation—from cabbies to politicians—tend to develop a subculture, a world within the larger world of the dominant culture. Subcultures are not limited to occupations, for they include any corner in life in which people's experiences lead them to have distinctive ways of looking at the world. It is easy but often inaccurate to place people in some subcultural category because almost everyone participates in many subcultures without necessarily having much commitment to any of them. In some cases, however, cultural differences can set people apart from one another with tragic results. For example, the 1990s civil war in the former nation of Yugoslavia was fueled by extreme cultural diversity (**Henslin 2011**).

Counterculture: Sociologists use the term counterculture to refer to such groups. To better see this distinction, consider motorcycle enthusiasts and motorcycle gangs. Motorcycle enthusiasts—who emphasize personal freedom and speed and affirm cultural values of success through work or education—are members of a subculture. In contrast, the Hell's Angels, Pagans, and Bandidos not only stress freedom and speed but also value dirtiness and contempt toward women, work, and education. This makes them a counterculture. Countercultures do not have to be negative, however. Back in the 1800s, the Mormons were a counterculture that challenged the dominant culture's core value of monogamy. An assault on core values is always met with resistance. To affirm their own values, members of the mainstream culture may ridicule, isolate, or even attack members of the counterculture (**Henslin 2011**).

Topic-055: Ideal vs Real Culture

Many of the norms that surround cultural values are followed only partially. Differences always exist between a group's ideals and what its members actually do. Consequently, sociologists use the term **ideal culture** to refer to the values, norms, and goals that a group considers ideal, worth aiming for. Success, for example, is part of ideal culture. Americans glorify academic progress, hard work, and the display of material goods as signs of individual achievement. What people actually do, however, usually falls short of the cultural ideal. **Real culture** on the other hand are the cultural norms, values, and practices that are actually practiced and experienced within a society. Compared with their abilities, for example, most people don't work as hard as they could or go as far as they could in school. Sociologists call the norms and values that people actually follow real culture (**Henslin 2011**). Real Culture is shaped by the experiences and practices of individuals within a society.

Examples of Ideal Culture vs. Real Culture in Pakistan: Ideal Culture may be represented by the traditional values of respect for elders and strong family bonds, while Real Culture may include practices such as arranged marriages and gender discrimination.

The impact of Ideal Culture vs. Real Culture on individuals: Ideal Culture can provide individuals with a sense of identity and purpose, but Real Culture can also cause conflict and tension when it contradicts the ideals.

The importance of understanding the distinction between Ideal Culture and Real Culture: Understanding the distinction between Ideal Culture and Real Culture can help individuals navigate cultural differences.

Lesson-11

CULTURE-III

Lesson Over view

- Culture Universals
- Cultural Lag
- Culture, Class, and the Media
- Cultural Change: Today and Tomorrow

Topic-056: Culture Universals

With the amazing variety of human cultures around the world, are there any cultural universals—values, norms, or other cultural traits that are found everywhere? To answer this question, anthropologist George Murdock (1945) combed through the data that anthropologists had gathered on hundreds of groups around the world. He compared their customs concerning courtship, marriage, funerals, games, laws, music, myths, incest taboos, and even toilet training. He found that these activities are present in all cultures, but the specific customs differ from one group to another. There is no universal form of the family, no universal way of toilet training children, nor a universal way of disposing of the dead. Incest is a remarkable example. Comparing hundreds of cultures, George Murdock (1945) identified dozens of cultural universals. One common element is the family, which functions everywhere to control sexual reproduction and to oversee the care of children. Funeral rites, too, are found everywhere because all human communities cope with the reality of death. Jokes are another cultural universal, serving as a safe means of releasing social tensions. (Henslin 2011).

Universals of culture refer to elements that can be found in every culture around the world, regardless of its distinct characteristics. Examples of universals of culture include the use of language, the need for food and shelter, and the establishment of social norms. In Pakistan, universals of culture can be seen in the widespread use of Urdu as a national language, the importance of family structures, the observance of religious practices, and the celebration of festivals like Eid-ul-Fitr and Eid-ul-Adha. Other universals of culture in Pakistan include the emphasis on hospitality, respect for elders, and the value of social relationships.

Topic-057: Cultural Lag

Cultural lag refers to the time it takes for cultural changes to catch up with technological advances and other societal shifts. Some elements of culture change faster than others. William Ogburn (1964) observed that technology moves quickly, generating new elements of material culture (things) faster than Nonmaterial culture (ideas) can keep up with them. Ogburn called this inconsistency cultural lag, the fact that some cultural elements change more quickly than others, disrupting a cultural system (Macdonis 2012).

About three generations ago, sociologist William Ogburn (1922/1938) coined the term cultural lag. By this, Ogburn meant that not all parts of a culture change at the same pace. When one part of a culture changes, another parts lag behind. Ogburn pointed out that a group's material culture usually changes first, with the nonmaterial culture lagging behind. This leaves the nonmaterial (or symbolic) culture playing a game of catch-up. For example, when we get sick, we can type our symptoms into a computer and get an immediate diagnosis and a recommended course of treatment. In some tests, computer programs outperform physicians. Yet our customs have not caught up with our technology, and we continue to visit the doctor's office (Henslin 2011).

An example of cultural lag in Pakistan is the slow adoption of modern technology in rural areas, which often lack access to the internet and other digital resources. Another example of cultural

lag can be seen in the traditional gender roles that persist in some parts of the country, despite increased education and opportunities for women. The resistance to changing social norms and practices, such as the caste system in rural areas, is also an example of cultural lag in Pakistan. The prevalence of child marriage and female genital mutilation in some parts of the country is another example of cultural lag.

Topic-058: Culture, Class and the Media

The media plays a crucial role in shaping cultural norms, beliefs, and values. In Pakistan, the media has contributed to the growth of a consumerist culture, particularly among the urban middle class. The media has also been used to reinforce and perpetuate traditional gender roles, which has limited the opportunities available to women in society. The media has been used to create an idealized image of the "perfect" Pakistani, which often reinforces class and ethnic biases and ignores the diversity of experiences within the country. The media has also been used to create a sense of national identity and pride, which has been used to strengthen the social cohesion of the country.

During much of the twentieth century, and typical of modern culture described earlier, cultural variation was reflected in the different aesthetic standards and tastes of social classes. According to Herbert Gans (1975), during this period there were three major kinds of "taste cultures" in all advanced industrial societies: high culture, folk culture, and popular culture.

High Culture: High culture includes tastes and creations supported and used by the upper classes and intelligentsia to make fine distinctions within their ranks and to distinguish themselves from those beneath them in the social hierarchy. High culture demands elaborate training, technical proficiency, and considerable resources. Consequently, it has long been used by elites as social indicators of refinement, education, and style. Examples in Western cultures include classical music, opera, ballet, novels by the "great authors," and works by artists defined as possessing extraordinary skills and creative talents. Conflict theorists argue that the belief that high culture is far superior to folk and popular culture reflects elite definitions of the situation. One English scholar, for example, wrote that "the differences between trash culture and high culture show only that storytelling adapts to changing economic, social, and political conditions" (Simon, 1999:2). According to Shrum (1991:373), those who play a key role in constraining artistic diversity and keeping highbrow genres distinct from folk and popular tastes are aesthetic gatekeepers and include critics, reviewers, taste makers, and opinion makers whose reviews, disseminated through the mass media, "may be more widely experienced than the artwork itself" (Thompson and Hickey 2016).

Folk Culture: Folk culture is in most ways the opposite of high culture; it includes the art, dance, music, and other creations of working-class and minority group members in their home environments. Folk culture includes such things as doll and quilt making, subway art, customized low-rider automobiles, and dancing. Folk culture is spontaneous, familiar, and practical and is produced for and by ordinary people (Real, 1977). It also includes various forms of graffiti that Susan Phillips (1999) in her book *Wallbanging* classified into gang graffiti, political graffiti, and hip-hop graffiti, the latter what she called "subway art." (Thompson and Hickey 2016).

Popular Culture: Popular culture comprises tastes and creations that appeal to the masses. Because popular culture consists of products and creations designed for leisure, entertainment, and mass consumption, it includes a bewildering assortment of things that critics say favor "vulgarity," "the commonplace," and the "lowest common denominator" (Bogart, 1991:63). Examples of popular culture include prime-time television, live concerts by popular artists, tractor-pulling contests, mud wrestling, baseball cards, NASCAR, and the mall Easter Bunny and Santa Claus (Thompson and Hickey 2016).

Topic-059: Cultural change: Today and Tomorrow

Perhaps the most basic human truth of this world is that “all things shall pass.” Even the dinosaurs, which thrived on this planet for 160 million years, exist today only as fossils. Will humanity survive for millions of years to come? All we can say with certainty is that given our reliance on culture, for as long as we survive, the human record will show continuous change.

Cultural change refers to the transformation of cultural norms, values, and practices over time. Change in one part of a culture usually sparks changes in others. For example, today’s college women are much more interested in making money because women are now far more likely to be in the labor force than their mothers or grandmothers were. Working for income may not change their interest in raising a family, but it does increase both the age at first marriage and the divorce rate. Such connections illustrate the principle of cultural integration, the close relationships among various elements of a cultural system.

Today, cultural change in Pakistan is being driven by globalization, urbanization, and the spread of technology and social media. These changes have led to the emergence of new cultural practices, such as the rise of social media influencers, and the growth of the gig economy. However, cultural change in Pakistan is also being shaped by political and economic factors, including the rise of populism and the increasing divide between the rich and the poor. Tomorrow, cultural change in Pakistan is likely to be driven by demographic shifts, including the growth of the youth population, and the changing nature of work and employment.

Lesson 12**SOCIALIZATION****Lesson overview**

- Society makes us Humans: Feral children
- Society makes us Human: Isolated children
- The role of socialization (Nature vs Nurture)
- Primary and secondary socialization
- Society within us: the self and emotion as social control

Sociologists use the term socialization to refer to the lifelong social experience by which people develop their human potential and learn culture. Unlike other living species, whose behavior is mostly or entirely set by biology, humans need social experience to learn their culture and to survive. Social experience is also the foundation of personality, a person's consistent patterns of acting, thinking, and feeling. We build a personality by internalizing—taking in—our surroundings. But without social experience personality hardly develops at all (**Henslin 2010**).

Topic-060: Society Makes us Humans: Feral children

What do you mean, society makes us human?" is probably what you are asking. "That sounds ridiculous. I was born a human." The meaning of this statement will become more apparent as we get into the chapter. Let's start by considering what is human about human nature. How much of a person's characteristics comes from "nature" (heredity) and how much from "nurture" (the social environment, contact with others)? Experts are trying to answer the nature–nurture question by studying identical twins who were separated at birth and reared in different environment. Another way is to examine children who have had little human contact. Let's consider such children.

Feral children

The naked child was found in the forest, walking on all fours, eating grass, and lapping water from the river. When he saw a small animal, he pounced on it. Growling, he ripped at it with his teeth. Tearing chunks from the body, he chewed them ravenously.

This is an apt description of reports that have come in over the centuries. Supposedly, these feral (wild) children could not speak; they bit, scratched, growled, and walked on all fours. They drank by lapping water, ate grass, tore ravenously at raw meat, and showed insensitivity to pain and cold. Thus, **children assumed to have been raised by animals, in the wilderness, isolated from humans are referred to as feral children (Henslin 2010).**

Feral children are children who have been raised in isolation without human contact or socialization. Examples of feral children in history include Genie, a girl who was kept in isolation for 13 years, and Oxana Malaya, a girl who was raised by dogs in Ukraine.

The study of feral children provides insights into the importance of socialization and human contact in the development of language, emotions, and social skills. Feral children often suffer from developmental delays and lack basic social skills. Feral children also demonstrate the impact of environmental factors on human development

Topic-061: Society Makes us Human: Isolated Children

Isolated children are children who have been raised in extreme social isolation. Examples of isolated children in history include Anna, a girl who was kept in a dark room for most of her life, and the case of the Austrian Fritzl family, where a father kept his daughter locked up in a basement for 24 years. In Pakistan, there have been rare cases of children being kept in extreme isolation. The study of isolated children provides insights into the importance of socialization and the impact of extreme social isolation on human development. Isolated children often suffer from developmental delays and lack basic social skills. Isolated children also demonstrate the impact of environmental factors on human development

Topic-062: The Role of Socialization: Nature vs Nurture

Socialization refers to the process of learning cultural norms, values, and beliefs. It is a dynamic and ongoing process that continues throughout the lifespan. It can be intentional or unintentional and occurs through a variety of mechanisms, including family, peers, education, and media. In Pakistan, socialization plays a significant role in shaping attitudes towards religion, family values, and gender roles.

The debate between nature and nurture is ongoing and has implications for understanding human behavior and development. It focuses on the extent to which biology and genetics versus socialization shape human behavior and development. Twin studies are often used to help understand the relative contributions of nature and nurture to human development. Identical twins, who share 100% of their genetic material, can be compared to fraternal twins, who share only 50% of their genetic material, but are still raised together in the same environment.

The role of Nature

Charles Darwin's groundbreaking 1859 study of evolution led people to think that human behavior was instinctive, simply our "nature." Such ideas led to claims that the U.S. economic system reflects "instinctive human competitiveness," that some people are "born criminals," or that women are "naturally" emotional while men are "naturally" rational. People trying to understand cultural diversity also misunderstood Darwin's thinking. Centuries of world exploration had taught Western Europeans that people behaved quite differently from one society to another. But Europeans linked these differences to biology rather than culture. It was an easy, although incorrect and very damaging, step to claim that members of technologically simple societies were biologically less evolved and therefore "less human." This ethnocentric view helped justify colonialism: Why not take advantage of others if they seem not to be human in the same sense that you are?

The Social Sciences: The Role of Nurture

In the twentieth century, biological explanations of human behavior came under fire. The psychologist John B. Watson (1878–1958) developed a theory called behaviorism, which holds that behavior is not instinctive but learned. Thus, people everywhere are equally human, differing only in their cultural patterns. In short, Watson rooted human behavior not in nature but in nurture. Today, social scientists are cautious about describing any human behavior as instinctive. This does not mean that biology plays no part in human behavior. Human life, after all, depends on the functioning of the body. We also know that children often share biological traits (like height and hair colour) with their parents and that heredity plays a part in intelligence, musical and artistic talent, and personality (such as how you react to frustration). However, whether you develop your inherited potential depends on how you are raised. For example, unless children use their brain early in life, the brain does not fully develop (Goldsmith, 1983; Begley, 1995). Without denying the importance of nature, then, we can correctly say that nurture matters more in shaping human behavior. More precisely, nurture is our nature (Henslin 2010).

Topic-063: Primary and Secondary Socialization

Primary socialization refers to the initial process of socialization, which typically occurs during childhood within the family unit. Secondary socialization refers to the later stages of socialization, which typically occur outside of the family unit. In Pakistan, primary socialization is often influenced by family and religious traditions, while secondary socialization is increasingly shaped by exposure to technology and global media.

The study of primary and secondary socialization is important for understanding the different ways in which cultural norms and values are transmitted and reinforced. Socialization influences our sense of self, our attitudes, and our behaviors. Socialization can also reinforce social inequalities and perpetuate discrimination and prejudice

Topic-04: Society Within Us: The Self and Emotions as Social Control

Much of our socialization is intended to turn us into conforming members of society. Socialization into the self and emotions is essential to this process, for both the self and our emotions mould our behaviour. Are emotions global? Is their way of expressing them universal? Some of the factors that influence how you act: the expectations of friends and parents, of neighbours and teachers; classroom norms and college rules; city state, and federal laws. For example, if in a moment of intense frustration, or out of a devilish desire to shock people, you wanted to tear off your clothes and run naked down the street, what would stop you? The answer is your socialization—society within you. Your experiences in society have resulted in a self that thinks along certain lines and feels particular emotions. This helps to keep you in line. Thoughts such as “Would I get kicked out of school?” and “What would my friends (parents) think if they found out?” represent an awareness of the self in relationship to others. So does the desire to avoid feelings of shame embarrassment. Your social mirror, then—the result of your being socialized into a self and emotions—sets up effective controls over your behavior. In fact, socialization into self and emotions is so and effective that some people feel embarrassed just thinking about running naked in public.

The self and emotion are important aspects of social control, which refers to the mechanisms that maintain social order and conformity. In Pakistan, the concept of "face" or reputation is a significant aspect of social control. Emotions such as shame, guilt, and fear can be used as social control mechanisms to reinforce cultural norms and values. Social control can also be enforced through formal mechanisms such as laws and regulations

In a nutshell: The study of the self and emotion in the context of social control is important for understanding how cultural norms and values are internalized and reinforced within individuals. Social control can both promote and limit individual freedom and agency. It is essential for our development as human beings. From interaction with others, we learn how to think, reason, and feel. The net result is the shaping of our behavior—including our thinking and emotions—according to cultural standards. This is what sociologists mean when they refer to “society within us.” **(Henslin 2010)**

Lesson-13**UNDERSTANDING THE SOCIALIZATION PROCESS FROM THEORETICAL PERSPECTIVE****Lesson Overview**

- Theoretical perspective on socialization: functional approach
- Theoretical perspective on socialization: conflict approach
- Theoretical perspective on socialization: Feminist approach
- Socialization into the self and mind
- Socialization into the self and mind: Cooley and the looking glass self
- Socialization into the self and mind: G.H. Mead and role taking
- Learning personality, morality, and emotions

Topic-065: Theoretical Perspectives on Socialization: Functional Approach**Perpetuating Society and Culture: A Structural Functionalist Viewpoint**

From a functionalist's perspective, socialization serves the important function of reinforcing the social structure, perpetuating society, and transmitting culture from one generation to the next. It is necessary for the maintenance of social order and stability. It teaches individuals the values, norms, and roles necessary for society to function. It also ensures that individuals are equipped to perform the roles necessary for the functioning of society.

The socialization process is viewed much like inoculation: members of society are injected with the attitudes, values, beliefs, and norms that will allow them to assume and successfully fulfill the roles of full and productive citizens. Functionalists identify motivation and ability to perform role expectations as one of the basic prerequisites for survival of the social system, and these motivations and abilities are acquired through socialization (Parsons, 1951). In this approach, socialization is viewed as a positive force that contributes to the well-being of both individuals and society. In Pakistan, functionalists might point to the role of family, education, and religion in teaching children the cultural practices and traditions that are central to Pakistani society.

Resocialization is also important from the functionalist perspective because it serves the critical function of helping an individual abandon a previous role to fulfill a new one. This process is viewed as essential to make successful transitions from home to school, school to work, civilian to military life, the "free world" to prison, and so on. From the functionalists perspective, a breakdown in socialization leads to a breakdown in the social system. Hence, functionalists attribute various forms of deviant behaviour to inadequate socialization and failure to internalize society's norms. Thus, resocialization is viewed from this perspective as one way to rehabilitate deviants and help ensure society's survival. This differs dramatically from the view of the conflict perspective. **(Henslin 2010)**. One limitation of this perspective is that it tends to emphasize consensus and downplay conflict and may overlook the ways in which socialization can be used to maintain power differentials.

Topic-066: Theoretical perspective on socialization: The Conflict Perspective

From a conflict perspective, socialization is one of the most powerful and effective tools used by those in power to maintain the status quo and legitimize existing social inequalities. Socialization is a means by which those in power maintain their dominance over those without power. It reproduces social inequality by transmitting values and norms that justify and reinforce the existing social order. Socialization can also be used as a tool of social control to maintain the status quo and suppress dissent. At a very fundamental level, socialization prepares people for the lower class may be socialized from childhood to show deference to those above them in the social hierarchy and may be trained in skills that will increase their opportunities for serving those who are higher on the social ladder.

We know that stereotypes are often learned through socialization, and the mass media play a powerful role in this capacity. The media promote age, race, and gender stereotypes and socialize people in how to see and act toward the elderly, racial and ethnic minorities, and women. Moreover, they tend to provide a dichotomous view of society that simplifies complex issues into conflicts between right and wrong, good, and bad, moral and immoral. In most media scenarios, the side of right, good, and moral eventually prevails. Not coincidentally, the conflict theorists point out, these are almost always represented by those viewed as having legitimate power and authority over others: the government, the police, the rich, and the powerful. Criminals, drug addicts, lunatics, and others who pose a threat to the existing order are often portrayed in the media as coming from the lower social strata, foreign evil empires, or other planets (Parenti, 1992).

Class-related roles they will fill throughout their lives. For example, even as children, members of the upper class are socialized for positions of authority and leadership roles. They are trained how to interact among members of the same class as well as how to deal with servants, staff, and members of the lower classes.

The conflict perspective also points out that socialization is not a unidimensional process. Throughout the life course, especially during adolescence, people are bombarded with contradictory and conflicting attitudes, values, beliefs, and behaviors. Most of us remember at some time being told “Do as I say, and not as I do” by someone in authority whom we may have caught violating one of the rules he or she had taught us. We probably all remember being told by our parents, teachers, and religious leaders that certain behaviors were wrong, and perhaps forbidden, only to find that our peer group insisted they were not only okay but mandatory. Most adolescent boys, for example, are taught that fighting is improper, but they are considered cowards by their peers if they walk away from a fight. Similarly, although teenage girls may be taught that premarital sex is immoral and will ruin their reputation, they realize that boys are not held to the same standard and may feel tremendous pressure from both male and female peers to be sexually active to be “normal” or enter “adulthood.”

Sociologists who use the conflict perspective view resocialization as an example of how those in power attempt to coerce and exploit others and attempt to perpetuate their own authority. Resocialization in total institutions such as the military, prisons, and mental hospitals reaffirms the importance of status hierarchies and obedience to the rules established by those in power. Moreover, they legitimate the status quo by rewarding unquestioned conformity and punishing those who challenge existing authority structures, question social inequalities, or even dare to be different. As we look to the future and anticipate an even more diverse and complex society, these various sociological perspectives become even more important for looking beneath the surface assumptions in the socialization process (Henslin 2010).

In Pakistan, conflict theorists might point to the ways in which the education system perpetuates social inequality by providing better resources to wealthy students and reinforcing the values and behaviors of the ruling elite. In this approach, socialization is viewed as a negative force that perpetuates social inequality and oppression. One limitation of this perspective is that it tends to downplay the ways in which socialization can also be a means of resistance and agency for those who are marginalized.

Becoming humans: A Symbolic Interactionism

Perhaps symbolic interaction’s major contribution to sociology has been in the area of socialization. Emphasis on microlevel analysis of social interaction, the importance of primary groups, interpretation of meaningful symbols, the development of a social identity, and viewing the self as an object is ideal for analysis of the socialization process. Consequently, much of this chapter has focused on the symbolic interactionist perspective. As noted earlier, Cooley’s looking-glass self, with its insistence that our self-image develops because of how we interpret other peoples’ impressions of us, provides an important theoretical framework for the interactionist perspective on socialization.

Mead built on this framework with his work on the I and the me, significant and generalized others, developmental stages leading to role taking, and the indistinguishable link among mind, self, and society. Today, interactionists are particularly interested on the impact of the media and techno media on the development of a concept of self and how these shapes social interaction in “real life” and online.

Although symbolic interactionism dominates the sociological approach to socialization and human development, it is not the only theoretical perspective interested in the process. Structural functionalists view socialization, especially the transmission of culture and internalization of norms, as critical for the overall functioning of a social system (Henslin 2010).

Topic-067: Theoretical Perspective on Socialization: Feminist Approach

Socialization perpetuates gender roles and reinforces patriarchy. It teaches individuals to internalize and accept gendered norms and expectations, which are often oppressive to women and other marginalized groups. The feminist approach also highlights the role of socialization in creating gendered identities and shaping the way individuals see themselves and others. In this approach, socialization is viewed as a site of struggle, where individuals and groups can resist and challenge gendered norms and expectations. One limitation of this perspective is that it tends to focus exclusively on gender and may overlook other forms of social inequality and oppression.

Topic-068: Socialization into Self and Mind

When you were born, you had no ideas. You didn't know that you were a son or daughter. You didn't even know that you were a he or she. How did you develop a self, your image of who you are? How did you develop your ability to reason? Let's find out.

Socialization into the self and mind involves the development of a sense of self and the ability to understand the perspectives of others. It is a lifelong process that begins in childhood and continues throughout the lifespan. In Pakistan, socialization into the self and mind might involve learning to balance individual needs and desires with the needs and desires of the larger community. The development of the self and mind is shaped by both nature (biology) and nurture (environment). In this approach, socialization is viewed as a way of creating a shared reality and promoting social integration.

Topic-069: Socialization into the Self and Mind: Cooley and the Looking Glass Self

About a hundred years ago, Charles Horton Cooley (1864–1929), a symbolic interactionist who taught at the University of Michigan, concluded that the self is part of how society makes us human. He said that our sense of self develops from interaction with others. To describe the process by which this unique aspect of “humanness” develops, Cooley (1902) coined the term looking-glass self.

The looking glass self refers to the idea that our sense of self develops through our interactions with others. We imagine how we appear to others, interpret their reactions, and then develop our sense of self based on those interpretations.

The looking-glass self contains three elements:

1. **We imagine how we appear to those around us.** For example, we may think that others perceive us as witty or dull.
2. **We interpret others' reactions.** We come to conclusions about how others evaluate us. Do they like us for being witty? Do they dislike us for being dull?
3. **We develop a self-concept.** How we interpret others' reactions to us frames our feelings and ideas about ourselves. A favourable reflection in this social mirror leads to a positive self-concept; a negative reflection leads to a negative self-concept.

In Pakistan, the looking glass self might be seen in the importance placed on social status and reputation, and the ways in which individuals present themselves to others. Cooley believed that our sense of self is constantly evolving and is influenced by the feedback we receive from others. In this approach, socialization into the self and mind is viewed as a social process that is continually shaped and reshaped by our interactions with others. In this approach, socialization into the self and mind is viewed as a social process that is continually shaped and reshaped by our interactions with others. Note that the development of the self does not depend on accurate evaluations. Even if we grossly misinterpret how others think about us, those misjudgements become part of our self- concept. Note also that although the self-concept begins in childhood, its development is an ongoing, lifelong process. During our everyday lives, we monitor how others react to us. As we do so, we continually modify the self. The self, then, is never a finished product—it is always in process, even into our old age (**Henslin 2010**).

Topic-070: Socialization into the Self and Mind: G.H. Mead and Role Taking

Another symbolic interactionist, George Herbert Mead (1863–1931), who taught at the University of Chicago, pointed out how important play is as we develop a self. As we play with others, we learn to **take the role of the other**.

Role taking refers to the ability to see oneself from the perspective of another person, and to take on the roles of others. G.H. Mead believed that role taking is a crucial component of socialization, and allows individuals to understand and anticipate the behavior of others. Mead believed that role taking allows individuals to develop a sense of self that is based on the expectations of others. In this approach, socialization into the self and mind is viewed as a process of learning to take on the roles and expectations of others, and integrating those roles into one's own sense of self. That is, we learn to put ourselves in someone else's shoes—to understand how someone else feels and thinks and to anticipate how that person will act. This doesn't happen overnight. We develop this ability over a period of years (Mead 1934; Denzin 2007).

Psychologist John Flavel (1968) asked 8- and 14-year-olds to explain a board game to children who were blindfolded and to others who were not. The 14-year-olds gave more detailed instructions to those who were blindfolded, but the 8-year-olds gave the same instructions to everyone. The younger children could not yet take the role of the other, while the older children could. As we develop this ability, at first, we can take only the role of **Significant others**, individuals who significantly influence our lives, such as parents or siblings. By assuming their roles during play, such as dressing up in our parents' clothing, we cultivate the ability to put ourselves in the place of significant others. As our self gradually develops, we internalize the expectations of more and more people. Our ability to take the role of others eventually extends to being able to take the role of "the group as a whole." Mead used the term **generalized other** to refer to our perception of how people in general think of us. Taking the role of others is essential if we are to become cooperative members of human groups—whether they be our family, friends, or co-workers. This ability allows us to modify our behavior by anticipating how others will. We go through three stages as we learn to take the role of the other:

1. **Imitation.** Under the age of 3, we can only mimic others. We do not yet have a sense of self separate from others, and we can only imitate people's gestures and words. (This stage is actually not role taking, but it prepares us for it.)
2. **Play.** During the second stage, from the ages of about 3 to 6, we pretend to take the roles of specific people. We might pretend that we are a firefighter, a wrestler, a nurse, Supergirl, Spiderman, a princess, and so on. We also like costumes at this stage and enjoy dressing up in our parents' clothing or tying a towel around our neck to "become" Superman or Wonder Woman.

3. Team Games. This third stage, organized play, or team games begins roughly when we enter school. The significance for the self is that to play these games we must be able to take multiple roles. One of Mead's favourite examples was that of a baseball game, in which each player must be able to take the role of all the other players. To play baseball, it isn't enough that we know our own role; we also must be able to anticipate what everyone else on the field will do when the ball is hit or thrown.

Mead also said there were two parts of the self, the "I" and the "me." The "I" is the self as subject, the active, spontaneous, creative part of the self. In contrast, the "me" is the self as object. It is made up of attitudes we internalize from our interactions with others. Mead chose these pronouns because in English "I" is the active agent, as in "I shoved him," while "me" is the object of action, as in "He shoved me." Mead stressed that we are not passive in the socialization process. We are not like robots, with programmed software shoved into us. Rather, our "I" is active. It evaluates the reactions of others and organizes them into a unified whole. Mead added that the "I" even monitors the "me," fine-tuning our ideas and attitudes to help us better meet what others expect of us (**Henslin 2010**).

One limitation of this perspective is that it tends to downplay the ways in which individuals can resist and challenge the expectations and roles assigned to them.

Topic-071: Learning Personality, Morality and Emotions

Our personality, morality, and emotions are vital aspects of who we are. Let's look at how we learn these essential aspects of our being.

Socialization is a key means by which individuals learn personality traits, moral values, and emotional expressions. In Pakistan, socialization might involve learning to value hospitality, respect for elders, and a strong work ethic. Socialization also teaches individuals to express and regulate their emotions in culturally appropriate ways. Personality and moral values are learned through a process of internalizing cultural norms and values. In this approach, socialization is viewed as a means of transmitting cultural values and shaping individuals' behavior and attitudes.

Freud and the development of personality

Along with the development of the mind and the self comes the development of the personality. Sigmund Freud (1856–1939) developed a theory of the origin of personality that has had a major impact on Western thought. Freud, a physician in Vienna in the early 1900s, founded psychoanalysis, a technique for treating emotional problems through long-term exploration of the subconscious mind. Let's look at his theory. Freud believed that personality consists of three elements. Each child is born with the first element, an **id**, Freud's term for inborn drives that cause us to seek self-gratification. The **id** of the newborn is evident in its cries of hunger or pain. The pleasure-seeking **id** operates throughout life. It demands the immediate fulfillment of basic needs: food, safety, attention, sex, and so on.

The **id**'s drive for immediate gratification, however, runs into a roadblock: primarily the needs of other people, especially those of the parents. To adapt to these constraints, a second component of the personality emerges, which Freud called the **ego**. The **ego** is the balancing force between the **id** and the demands of society that suppress it. The **ego** also serves to balance the **id** and the **superego**, the third component of the personality, more commonly called the *conscience*.

The **superego** represents culture within us, the norms, and values we have internalized from our social groups. As the moral component of the personality, the **superego** provokes feelings of guilt or shame when we break social rules, or pride and self-satisfaction when we follow them. According to Freud, when the **id** gets out of hand, we follow our desires for pleasure and break society's norms. When the **superego** gets out of hand, we become overly rigid in following those norms and end up wearing a straitjacket of rules that inhibit our lives. The **ego**, the balancing force, tries to prevent

either the superego or the id from dominating. In the emotionally healthy individual, the ego succeeds in balancing these conflicting demands of the id and the superego. In the maladjusted individual, the ego fails to control the conflict

between the id and the superego. Either the id or the superego dominates this person, leading to internal confusion and problem behaviour (**Henslin 2010**).

Kohlberg, Gilligan, and the Development of Morality

If you have observed young children, you know that they want immediate gratification and show little or no concern for others. (“Mine!” a 2-year-old will shout, as she grabs a toy from another child.) Yet, at a later age this same child will become considerate of others and try to be fair in her play. How does this change happen? Kohlberg’s Theory. Psychologist Lawrence Kohlberg (1975, 1984, 1986; Reed 2008) concluded that we go through a sequence of stages as we develop morality. Building on Piaget’s work, he found that children start in the amoral stage I just described. For them, there is no right or wrong, just personal needs to be satisfied. From about ages 7 to 10, children are in what Kohlberg called a Pre-conventional stage. They have learned rules, and they follow them to stay out of trouble. They view right and wrong as what pleases or displeases their parents, friends, and teachers. Their concern is to avoid punishment. At about age 10, they enter the conventional stage. During this period, morality means following the norms and values they have learned. In the post conventional stage, which Kohlberg says most people don’t reach, individuals reflect on abstract principles of right and wrong and judge people’s behavior according to these principles.

Gilligan and Gender Differences in Morality. Carol Gilligan, another psychologist, grew uncomfortable with Kohlberg’s conclusions. They just didn’t match her own experience. Then she noticed that Kohlberg had studied only boys. By this point, more women had become social scientists, and they had begun to question a common assumption of male researchers, that research on boys would apply to girls as well. Gilligan (1982, 1990) decided to find out if there were differences in how men and women looked at morality. After interviewing about 200 men and women, she concluded that women are more likely to evaluate morality in terms of personal relationships. Women want to know how an action affects others. They are more concerned with personal loyalties and with the harm that might come to loved ones. Men, in contrast, tend to think more along the lines of abstract principles that define right and wrong. As they see things, an act either matches or violates a code of ethics, and personal relationships have little to do with the matter. Researchers tested Gilligan’s conclusions. They found that both men and women use personal relationships and abstract principles when they make moral judgments (Wark and Krebs 1996). Although Gilligan no longer supports her original position (Brannon 1999), the matter is not yet settled. Some researchers have found differences in how men and women make moral judgments (White 1999; Jaffee and Hyde 2000). Others stress that both men and women learn cultural forms of moral reasoning (Tappan 2006). As with personality, in this vital area of human development, sociological research is also notably absent (**Henslin 2010**).

Socialization into Emotions

Emotions too, are an essential aspect of who we become. Sociologists who research this area of our “humanness” find that emotions are not simply the results of biology. Like the mind, emotions depend on socialization (Hochschild 2008). This may sound strange. Don’t all people get angry? Doesn’t everyone cry? Don’t we all feel guilt, shame, sadness, happiness, fear? What has socialization to do with emotions?

Global Emotions

At first, it may look as though socialization is not relevant, that we simply express universal feelings. Paul Ekman (1980), a psychologist who studied emotions in several countries, concluded that

everyone experiences six basic emotions: anger, disgust, fear, happiness, sadness, and surprise. He also observed that we all show the same facial expressions when we feel these emotions. A person from Peru, for example, could tell from just the look on an American's face that she is angry, disgusted, or fearful, and we could tell from the Peruvian's face that he is happy, sad, or surprised. Because we all show the same facial expressions when we experience these six emotions, Ekman concluded that they are wired into our biology.

Expressing Emotions

If we have universal facial expressions to express basic emotions, then this is biology, something that Darwin noted back in the 1800s (Horwitz and Wakefield 2007:41). What, then, does sociology have to do with them? Facial expressions are only one way by which we show emotions. We also use our bodies, voices, and gestures. Jane and Sushana have been best friends since high school. They were hardly ever apart until Sushana married and moved to another state a year ago. Jane has been waiting eagerly at the arrival gate for Sushana's flight, which has been delayed. When Sushana exits, she and Jane hug one another, making "squeals of glee" and even jumping a bit. If you couldn't tell from their names that these were women, you could tell from their behavior. To express delighted surprise, U.S. women are allowed to make "squeals of glee" in public places and to jump as they hug. In contrast, in the exact circumstances, U.S. men of glee," they would be violating a fundamental "gender rule." In addition to "gender rules" for expressing emotions, there also are "rules" of culture, social class, relationships, and settings (Henslin 2010).

Lesson-14

AGENTS OF SOCIALIZATION

Lesson Overview

- Family
- School
- Peer group
- Mass Media
- Religion
- De-socialization and re-socialization: Total institutions

Individuals and groups that influence our orientations to life—our self-concept, emotions, attitudes, and behavior—are called agents of socialization. We have already considered how three of these agents—the family, our peers, and the mass media—influence our ideas of gender. Now we'll look more closely at how agents of socialization prepare us in other ways to take our place in society. We shall first consider the family, then the neighbourhood, religion, day care, school and peers, and the workplace (**Henslin 2010**).

Topic-072: Family

The family is often considered the most important agent of socialization, as it is the primary source of emotional support, basic needs, and socialization for children. Socialization in the family typically begins with the earliest interactions between parents and infants, and continues throughout childhood and adolescence. Families also provide models for behavior and communication styles, and shape children's ideas about social roles and relationships.

Family is the first group to have a major impact on us is our family. Our experiences in the family are so intense that their influence is lifelong. These experiences establish our initial motivations, values, and beliefs. In the family, we receive our basic sense of self, ideas about who we are and what we deserve out of life. It is here that we begin to think of ourselves as strong or weak, smart, or dumb, good-looking, or ugly—or somewhere in between. And as already noted, the lifelong process of defining ourselves as female or male also begins in the family.

In Pakistan, families might transmit cultural and religious values, expectations about gender roles, and ideas about family structure and hierarchy.

The Family and Social Class: Social class makes a huge difference in how parents socialize their children. Sociologist Melvin Kohn (1959, 1963, 1976, 1977; Kohn et al. 1986) found that working-class parents are mainly concerned that their children stay out of trouble. For discipline, they tend to use physical punishment. Middle-class parents, in contrast, focus more on developing their children's curiosity, self-expression, and self-control. They are more likely to reason with their children than to use physical punishment. But why such differences? As a sociologist, Kohn knew that the answer was life experiences of some sort.

He found that answer in the world of work. Blue-collar workers are usually told exactly what to do. Since they expect their children's lives to be like theirs, they stress obedience. Middle-class parents, in contrast, have work that requires more initiative, and they socialize their children into the qualities they find valuable. Kohn wanted to know why some working-class parents act more like middle-class parents, and vice versa. As he probed further, he found the key—the parents' type of job. Some middle-class workers, such as office workers, are supervised closely. It turned out that they follow the working-class pattern and emphasize conformity. And some blue-collar workers, such as those who do home repairs, have a good deal of freedom. These workers follow the middle-class model in rearing their children (Pearlin and Kohn 1966; Kohn and Schooler 1969). According to

Lareau (2002), Social class also makes a difference in the ideas that parents have of how children develop, ideas that have fascinating consequences for children's play (**Henslin 2010**).

The Neighbourhood

As all parents know, some neighbourhood are better than others for their children. Parents try to move to those neighbourhoods—if they can afford them. Their common-sense evaluations are borne out by sociological research. Children from poor neighbourhoods are more likely to get in trouble with the law, to become pregnant, to drop out of school, and even to have worse mental health in later life (Brooks-Gunn et al. 1997; Sampson et al. 2001; Wheaton and Clarke 2003; Yonas et al. 2006). Sociologists have also found that the residents of more affluent neighbourhoods keep a closer eye on the children than do the residents of poor neighbourhoods (Sampson et al. 1999). The basic reason is that the more affluent neighbourhoods have fewer families in transition, so the adults are more likely to know the local children and their parents. This better equips them to help keep the children safe and out of trouble (**Henslin 2010**).

Topic-073: The School

Schools are important agents of socialization, as they provide structured opportunities for children to learn and interact with peers and adults outside of the family context. Schools also teach a range of cognitive and social skills, such as reading, writing, problem-solving, and teamwork. The school environment can also shape students' social identities, attitudes, and relationships with peers and authority figures.

Part of the manifest function, or intended purpose, of formal education is to teach knowledge and skills, such as reading, writing, and arithmetic. The teaching of such skills is certainly part of socialization, but so are the schools' latent functions, their unintended consequences that help the social system. Let's look at this less visible aspect of education. At home, children learn attitudes and values that match their family's situation in life. At school, they learn a broader perspective that helps prepare them to take a role in the world beyond the family. At home, a child may have been the almost exclusive focus of doting parents, but in school, the child learns universality—that the same rules apply to everyone, regardless of who their parents are or how special they may be at home.

Sociologists have also identified a **hidden curriculum** in our schools. This term refers to values that, although not explicitly taught, are part of a school's "cultural message." For example, the stories and examples that are used to teach math and English may bring with them lessons in patriotism, democracy, justice, and honesty. There is also a **corridor curriculum**, what students teach one another outside the classroom. Unfortunately, the corridor curriculum seems to emphasize racism, sexism, illicit ways to make money, and coolness (Hemmings 1999).

You can determine for yourself which of these is functional and which is dysfunctional. Conflict theorists point out that social class separates children into different educational worlds. Children born to wealthy parents go to private schools, where they learn skills and values that match their higher position. Children born to middle- and lower-class parents go to public schools, which further refine the separate worlds of social class. Middle-class children learn that good jobs, even the professions, beckon, while children from blue-collar families learn that not many of "their kind" will become professionals or leaders. This is one of the many reasons that children from blue-collar families are less likely to take college prep courses or to go to college. In short, schools around the world reflect and reinforce their nation's social class, economic, and political systems (**Henslin 2010**). In Pakistan, schools might transmit values related to education, social hierarchies, and national identity.

Topic-074: Peer Groups

Peer groups are important agents of socialization, as they provide opportunities for children and adolescents to interact with others their own age and to develop a sense of identity outside of the family context. Peer groups provide opportunities for young people to experiment with different social roles, values, and behaviors, and to receive feedback and validation from their peers. Peer groups can also influence individuals' attitudes and behaviors related to academic achievement, drug use, and other social issues.

As a child's experiences with agents of socialization broaden, the influence of the family decreases. Entry into school marks only one of many steps in this transfer of allegiance. One of the most significant aspects of education is that it exposes children to peer groups that help them resist the efforts of parents and schools to socialize them. When sociologists Patricia and Peter Adler (1998) observed children at two elementary schools in Colorado, they saw how children separate themselves by sex and develop separate gender worlds. The norms that made boys popular were athletic ability, coolness, and toughness. For girls, popularity was based on family background, physical appearance (clothing and use of makeup), and the ability to attract popular boys. In this children's subculture, academic achievement pulled in opposite directions: For boys, high grades lowered their popularity, but for girls, good grades increased their standing among peers.

You know from your own experience how compelling peer groups are. It is almost impossible to go against a peer group, whose cardinal rule seems to be "conformity or rejection." Anyone who doesn't do what the others want becomes an "outsider," a "non-member," an "outcast." For preteens and teens just learning their way around in the world, it is not surprising that the peer group rules. As a result, the standards of our peer groups tend to dominate our lives. If your peers, for example, listen to rap, Nortec, death metal, rock and roll, country, or gospel, it is almost inevitable that you also prefer that kind of music. In high school, if your friends take math courses, you probably do, too (Crosnoe et al. 2008). It is the same for clothing styles and dating standards. Peer influences also extend to behaviors that violate social norms. If your peers are college-bound and upwardly striving, that is most likely what you will be; but if they use drugs, cheat, and steal, you are likely to do so, too (**Henslin 2010**).

In Pakistan, peer groups might play a role in shaping fashion trends, music preferences, and attitudes toward dating and relationships.

Topic-075: Mass Media

Mass media, such as television, movies, social media, and advertising, are important agents of socialization, as they provide messages and images that shape individuals' attitudes, beliefs, and values. In Pakistan, mass media might play a role in shaping ideas about beauty, gender roles, and cultural identity. Mass media also provides information about social issues, and can influence public opinion and political attitudes. Mass media can also affect individuals' health behaviors, such as smoking, diet, and exercise.

Topic-076: Religion

How important is religion in your life? You could be among the two-thirds of Americans who belong to a local congregation, but what if you are among the other third (Gallup Poll 2007)? Why would religion be significant for you? To see the influence of religion, we can't look only at people who are religious. Even in the extreme—people who wouldn't be caught dead near a church, synagogue, or mosque—religion plays a powerful role. Perhaps this is the most significant aspect of religion. Religion is an important agent of socialization, as it provides a framework for understanding the world, moral values, and ideas about the self and others. Religion also provides rituals and practices that help individuals to connect with others and to develop a sense of community. Religion can also influence individuals' attitudes and behaviors related to social issues, such as charity and social justice.

For example, people who participate in religious services learn not only beliefs about the hereafter but also ideas about what kinds of clothing, speech, and manners are appropriate for formal occasions. Life in congregations also provides a sense of identity for its participants, giving them a feeling of belonging. It also helps to integrate immigrants into their new society, offers an avenue of social mobility for the poor, provides social contacts for jobs, and in the case of African American churches, has been a powerful influence in social change (**Henslin 2010**).

Religious ideas so pervade U.S. society that they provide the foundation of morality for both the religious and the nonreligious. For many Americans, the influence of religion is more direct. This is especially true for the two of every five Americans who report that during a typical week they attend a religious service (Gallup Poll 2007). Through their participation in congregational life, they learn doctrine, values, and morality, but the effects on their lives are not limited to these obvious factors. **In Pakistan, religion might play a role in shaping ideas about gender roles, family values, and social relationships.**

Topic-077: De-socialization and re-socialization: Total institutions

Total institutions are places where people are completely immersed in the activities of the institution and cut off from the outside world, such as prisons, mental hospitals, and military boot camps. The purpose of total institutions is to de-socialize individuals from their previous identities and re-socialize them with new values, attitudes, and behaviors that are deemed appropriate for the institution. De-socialization is the process of breaking down an individual's previous identity by removing their personal possessions, clothing, and hairstyle, and creating a standardized environment where everyone is treated the same.

Resocialization

What does a woman who has just become a nun have in common with a man who has just divorced? The answer is that they both are undergoing resocialization; that is, they are learning new norms, values, attitudes, and behaviors to match their new situation in life. In its most common form, resocialization occurs each time we learn something contrary to our previous experiences. **Re-socialization is the process of building a new identity for an individual by teaching them new norms, values, and behaviors that are in line with the institutional culture. This can involve a variety of techniques, including reward and punishment systems, peer pressure, and intense indoctrination.**

A new boss who insists on a different way of doing things is resocializing you. Most resocialization is mild—only a slight modification of things we have already learned. Resocialization can also be intense. People who join Alcoholics Anonymous (AA), for example, are surrounded by reformed drinkers who affirm the destructive effects of excessive drinking. Some students experience an intense period of resocialization when they leave high school and start college—especially during those initially scary days before they find companions, start to fit in, and feel comfortable. The experiences of people who join a cult or begin psychotherapy are even more profound, for they learn views that conflict with their earlier socialization. If these ideas “take,” not only does the individual's behavior change but he or she also learns a fundamentally different way of looking at life (**Henslin 2010**).

Total Institutions

Relatively few of us experience the powerful agent of socialization that sociologist **Erving Goffman** (1961) called the total institution. He coined this term to refer to a place in which people are cut off from the rest of society and where they come under almost total control of the officials who are in charge. Boot camp, prisons, concentration camps, convents, some religious cults, and some military

schools, such as West Point, are total institutions. A person entering a total institution is greeted with a **degradation ceremony** (Garfinkel 1956), an attempt to remake the self by stripping away the individual's current identity and stamping a new one in its place. This unwelcome greeting may involve fingerprinting, photographing, or shaving the head. Newcomers may be ordered to strip, undergo an examination (often in a humiliating, semi-public setting), and then put on a uniform that designates their new status. Officials also take away the individual's personal identity kit, items such as jewellery, hairstyles, clothing, and other body decorations used to express individuality. Total institutions are isolated from the public. The bars, walls, gates, and guards not only keep the inmates in but also keep outsiders out. Staff members supervise the day-to-day lives of the residents. Eating, sleeping, showering, recreation—all are standardized. Inmates learn that their previous statuses—student, worker, spouse, parent—mean nothing. The only thing that counts is their current status. No one leaves a total institution unscathed, for the experience brands an indelible mark on the individual's self and colours the way he or she sees the world. Prison as well as mental hospital are total institutions which are brutal and prolonged. Neither recruit nor prisoner, however, has difficulty in knowing that the institution has had profound effects on attitudes and orientations to life (Henslin 2010).

Some critics of total institutions argue that they can be dehumanizing and lead to a loss of individuality and autonomy, as individuals become overly dependent on the institution for their identity and sense of self.

Lesson-15**SOCIALIZATION AND THE LIFE COURSE****Lesson Overview**

- Childhood (from birth to about age 12)
- Adolescence (age 13 to 17)
- Transitional Adulthood (age 18 to 29)
- The middle years (age 30 to 65)
- The older years (About age 65 on)
- The social significance of the life course
- Are we prisoners of socialization?

Socialization through life course

You are at a particular stage in your life now, and college is a good part of it. You know that you have more stages ahead of you as you go through life. These stages, from birth to death, are called the life course (Elder 1975; 1999). The sociological significance of the life course is twofold. First, as you pass through a stage, it affects your behavior and orientations. You simply don't think about life in the same way when you are 30, are married, and have a baby and a mortgage, as you do when you are 18 or 20, single, and in college. (Actually, you don't even see life the same way as a freshman and as a senior.) Second, your life course differs by social location. Your social class, race–ethnicity, and gender, for example, map out distinctive worlds of experience. This means that the typical life course differs for males and females, the rich and the poor, and so on (Henslin 2010).

Topic-078: Childhood (birth to about age 12)

Consider how different your childhood would have been if you had grown up in another historical era. Historian Philippe Aries (1965) noticed that in European paintings from about A.D. 1000 to 1800 children were always dressed in adult clothing. If they were not depicted stiffly posed, as in a family portrait, they were shown doing adult activities. From this, Aries drew a conclusion that sparked a debate among historians: He said that during this era in Europe, childhood was not regarded as a special time of life. He said that adults viewed children as miniature adults and put them to work at an early age. At the age of 7, for example, a boy might leave home for good to learn to be a jeweller or a stonecutter. A girl, in contrast, stayed home until she married, but by the age of 7 she assumed her share of the household tasks. Historians do not deny that these were the customs of that time, but some say that Aries' conclusion is ridiculous. They say that other evidence of that period indicates that childhood was viewed as a special time of life (Orme 2002). Having children work like adults did not disappear with the Middle Ages. It is still common in the Least Industrialized Nations today, where children work in many occupations—from blacksmiths to waiters. They are most visible as street peddlers, hawking everything from shoelaces to chewing gum and candy. Child rearing, too, was remarkably different. Three hundred years ago, parents and teachers considered it their moral duty to terrorize children to keep them in line. They would lock children in dark closets, frighten them with bedtime stories of death and hellfire, and force them to witness gruesome events.

Industrialization transformed the way we perceive children. When children had the leisure to go to school and postponed taking on adult roles, parents and officials came to think of them as tender and innocent, as needing more care, comfort, and protection. Such attitudes of dependency grew, and today we view children as needing gentle guidance if they are to develop emotionally, intellectually, morally, even physically. We take our view for granted—after all, it is only “common sense.” Yet,

as you can see, our view is not “natural.” It is, instead, rooted in geography, history, and economic development (**Henslin 2010**).

Childhood is a critical period for socialization, as children learn many important skills, values, and attitudes that will shape their lives as adults. Socialization during childhood is primarily facilitated by family, schools, and peer groups, which provide children with a variety of experiences and opportunities for learning. Children's experiences during childhood can vary widely depending on their family background, economic status, and cultural context. Childhood socialization can have a profound impact on an individual's later development, including their personality, cognitive abilities, and social relationships. The experience of childhood is not universal and can vary widely across cultures and historical periods. **In Pakistan, childhood is often heavily influenced by family and community values, including a strong emphasis on respect for elders, gender roles, and religious values.**

Topic-079: Adolescence (ages 13–17)

It might seem strange to you, but adolescence is a social invention, not a “natural” age division. In earlier centuries, people simply moved from childhood to young adulthood, with no stopover in between. The Industrial Revolution allowed adolescence to be invented. It brought such an abundance of material surpluses that for the first time in history people in their teens were not needed in the Labor force. At the same time, education became more important for achieving success. As these two forces in industrialized societies converged, they created a gap between childhood and adulthood. The term adolescence was coined to indicate this new stage in life (Hall 1904), one that has become renowned for inner turmoil. To mark the passage of children into adulthood, tribal societies hold initiation rites. This grounds their self-identity. They know how they fit in the society. In the industrialized world, however, adolescents must “find” themselves, grappling with the dilemma of “I am neither a child nor an adult. Who am I?” As they attempt to carve out an identity that is distinct from both the “younger” world being left behind and the “older” world that is still out of reach, adolescents develop their own subcultures, with distinctive clothing, hairstyles, language, gestures, and music. We usually fail to realize that contemporary society, not biology, created this period of inner turmoil that we call adolescence (**Henslin 2010**).

Adolescence is a transitional period between childhood and adulthood, marked by significant physical, cognitive, and social changes. During adolescence, individuals may experiment with different identities and social roles as they explore their own values and beliefs. Adolescence can be a challenging time, as individuals navigate social and emotional pressures while trying to establish their own sense of identity and autonomy. Adolescence is a relatively recent concept in human history, and its significance as a distinct life stage can vary across cultures. In Pakistan, adolescence is often a time when young people face significant pressure to conform to cultural expectations around morality and career choices. Adolescents may experience socialization through a range of institutions, including family, schools, peer groups, and media.

Topic-080: Transitional Adulthood (ages 18–29)

If society invented adolescence, can it also invent other periods of life? this is actually happening now. Post-industrial societies are adding another period of extended youth to the life course, which sociologists call transitional adulthood (also known as adulescence). After high school, millions of young adults postpone adult responsibilities by going to college.

They are mostly freed from the control of their parents, yet they don't have to support themselves. After college, many live at home, so they can live cheaply while they establish themselves in a career—and, of course, continue to “find themselves.” During this time, people are “neither psychological adolescents nor sociological adults” (Keniston 1971). At some point during this period

of extended youth, young adults ease into adult responsibilities. They take a full-time job, become serious about a career, engage in courtship rituals, get married—and go into debt (**Henslin 2010**).

Transitional adulthood is a period of exploration and transition, as young adults navigate the challenges of entering the workforce, forming relationships, and establishing their own sense of identity and purpose. The experience of transitional adulthood can vary widely depending on an individual's social background, economic status, and cultural context. Transitional adulthood is marked by significant changes in the brain, including increased cognitive abilities and the ability to form abstract thoughts and concepts. Transitional adulthood is a relatively new concept in human history, as young people in many cultures historically transitioned directly from adolescence to adulthood. In Pakistan, young adulthood is often a time when individuals face significant pressure to establish themselves in their careers and find a suitable partner for marriage. Transitional adulthood is a time when individuals may experience significant socialization through their work, romantic relationships, and peer groups.

Topic-081: The Middle Years (ages 30–65) The Early Middle Years (ages 30–49)

During their early middle years, most people are surer of themselves and of their goals in life. As with any point in the life course, however, the self can receive severe jolts. Common in this period are divorce and losing jobs. It may take years for the self to stabilize after such ruptures. The early middle years pose a special challenge for many U.S. women, who have been given the message, especially by the media, that they can “have it all.” They can be super workers, super wives, and supermoms—all rolled into one. Reality, however, hits them in the face: too little time, too many demands, even too little sleep. Something has to give and attempts to resolve this dilemma are anything but easy. The Later Middle Years (ages 50–65). During the later middle years, health issues and mortality begin to loom large as people feel their bodies change, especially if they watch their parents become frail, fall ill, and die. The consequence is a fundamental reorientation in thinking—from time since birth to time left to live (Neugarten 1976). With this changed orientation, people attempt to evaluate the past and come to terms with what lies ahead. They compare what they have accomplished with what they had hoped to achieve. Many people also find themselves caring not only for their own children but also for their aging parents. Because of this double burden, which is often crushing, people in the later middle years sometimes are called the “sandwich generation.” Life during this stage isn’t stressful for everyone. Many find late middle age to be the most comfortable period of their lives. They enjoy job security and a standard of living higher than ever before; they have a bigger house (one that may even be paid for), drive newer cars, and take longer and more exotic vacations. The children are grown, the self is firmly planted, and fewer upheavals are likely to occur (**Henslin 2010**).

The middle years of adulthood are marked by stability and responsibility, as individuals settle into their careers, build families, and establish social networks. Socialization during the middle years may be primarily facilitated by family, work, and community organizations, as individuals build and maintain social networks. The middle years of adulthood can be a time of personal growth and development, as individuals continue to learn and explore new interests and opportunities. The experience of the middle years can vary widely depending on an individual's social background, economic status, and cultural context. The middle years are a time when individuals may confront significant challenges and stressors, including work-related stress, relationship problems, and health issues. In Pakistan, middle age is often a time when individuals experience significant pressure to provide for their families and to conform to social expectations around gender and family roles.

Topic-082: The Older Years (about age 65 on)

In agricultural societies, when most people died early, old age was thought to begin at around age 40. As industrialization brought improved nutrition, medicine, and public health, allowing more

people to live longer, the beginning of “old age” gradually stretched out. People who are in good health today are coming to experience their 60s not as old age, but as an extension of their middle years. This change is so recent that a new stage of life seems to be evolving, the period between retirement (averaging about 63) and old age—which people are increasingly coming to see as beginning around age 75. We can call this stage the transitional older years. Researchers are focusing more on this transitional stage of life. They have found that social isolation harms both the body and brain, that people who are more integrated into social networks stay mentally sharper (Ertel et al. 2008). With improved health, two-thirds of the men and two-fifths of the women between their late 60s and age 75 continue to be sexually active (Lindau et al. 2007). Not only are people in this stage of life having more sex, but they also are enjoying it more (Beckman et al. 2008). Because we have a self and can reason abstractly, we can contemplate death. In our early years, we regard death as a vague notion, a remote possibility. As people see their parents and friends die and observe their own bodies no longer functioning as before, however, the thought of death becomes less abstract. Increasingly during this stage in the life course, people feel that “time is closing in” on them (**Henslin 2010**).

Elderly people often experience a decline in physical health and mobility. They may also experience changes in their social roles, such as retirement or becoming grandparents. In many cultures, elderly people are respected and considered a valuable source of wisdom and experience. However, elderly people can also experience ageism, which involves discrimination or prejudice based on their age.

Topic-083: The Sociological Significance of the Life Course

The sociological significance of the life course is that it does not merely represent biology, things that naturally occur to all of us as we add years to our lives. Rather, social factors influence our life course. As you just saw, when you live makes a huge difference in the course that your life takes. And with today’s rapid social change, the difference in historical time does not have to be vast. Being born just ten years earlier or later may mean that you experience war or peace, an expanding economy, or a depression—factors that vitally affect what happens to you not just during childhood but throughout your life. Your social location, such as social class, gender, and race–ethnicity, is also highly significant. Your experience of society’s events will be like that of people who share your social location, but different from that of people who do not. If you are poor, for example, you likely will feel older sooner than most wealthy people for whom life is less demanding. Individual factors—such as your health or marrying early or entering college late—may throw your life course “out of sequence.” For all these reasons, this sketch of the life course may not adequately reflect your own past, present, and future. As sociologist C. Wright Mills (1959) would say, because employers are beating a path to your door, or failing to do so, you are more inclined to marry, to buy a house, and to start a family—or to postpone these life course events. In short, changing times change lives, steering the life course into different directions (**Henslin 2010**).

The life course refers to the different stages and transitions that people go through as they age. Sociologists study how these stages and transitions are shaped by social factors such as culture, institutions, and historical context. The life course is significant because it helps to shape people's identities, social roles, and relationships. It also affects people's access to resources and opportunities throughout their lives.

Topic-084: Are We Prisoners of Socialization?

From our discussion of socialization, you might conclude that sociologists think of people as robots: The socialization goes in, and the behavior comes out. People cannot help what they do, think, or feel, for everything is simply a result of their exposure to socializing agents. Sociologists do not think of people in this way. Although socialization is powerful, and affects all of us profoundly,

we have a self. Established in childhood and continually modified by later experience, our self is dynamic. Our self is not a sponge that passively absorbs influences from the environment but, rather, a vigorous, essential part of our being that allows us to act on our environment. It is precisely because people are not robots that their behavior is so hard to predict. The countless reactions of others merge in each of us. As the self develops, we each internalize or “put together” these innumerable reactions, producing a unique whole called the individual. Each of us uses our mind to reason and to make choices in life. In this way, each of us is actively involved in the construction of the self. Although our experiences in the family lay down our fundamental orientations to life, we are not doomed to keep those orientations if we do not like them. We can purposely expose ourselves to other groups and ideas. Those experiences, in turn, will have their own effects on our self. In short, although socialization is powerful, we can change even the self within the limitations of the framework laid down by our social locations. And that self—along with the options available within society—is the key to our behaviour **(Henslin 2010)**.

Socialization can be seen as a form of control that restricts our behavior and limits our choices. However, socialization also provides us with a sense of belonging and helps us to navigate social interactions and relationships. While socialization may shape our behavior, we still have agency and the ability to make choices within the constraints of our social context. Sociologists debate the extent to which people are shaped by socialization versus the extent to which they shape their own social context.

Lesson-16**DEVIANCE AND SOCIAL CONTROL****Lesson Overview**

- Making moral judgments
- Defining normal and deviant behavior: The functions of deviance
- Defining normal and deviant behavior: The dysfunctions of deviance
- Identity as deviance
- Mechanisms of social control: Internal means of control.
- Mechanism of social control: external means of social control.
- Social control and deterrence
- Informal and formal social control

Topic-085: Making Moral Judgments

Normal behavior is culturally defined and varies across societies and time periods. Moral judgments are often used to distinguish between normal and deviant behavior. Moral judgments can be influenced by factors such as religion, tradition, and social norms. In Pakistan, homosexuality is often considered deviant behavior due to religious and cultural beliefs. Drug use is also often viewed as deviant behavior and is illegal in Pakistan. The line between normal and deviant behavior can be subjective and constantly changing

Topic-086: Defining Normal and Deviant Behavior: The Functions of Deviance

Sociologists use the term deviance to refer to any violation of norms, whether the violation is as minor as driving over the speed limit, or as serious as murder. This simple definition takes us to the heart of the sociological perspective on deviance, which sociologist Howard S. Becker (1966) described this way: It is not the act itself, but the reactions to the act, that make something deviant.

Normal behavior is culturally defined and varies across societies and time periods. Moral judgments are often used to distinguish between normal and deviant behavior. Moral judgments can be influenced by factors such as religion, tradition, and social norms. The line between normal and deviant behavior can be subjective and constantly changing.

Relativity of deviance is a major point made by symbolic interactionist. Because different groups have different norms, what is deviant to some is not deviant to others. This principle holds both within a society and across cultures. Thus, acts that are acceptable in one culture—or in one group within a society—may be considered deviant in another culture or by another group within the same society. This principle also applies to a specific form of deviance known as crime; the violation of rules that have been written into law. In the extreme, an act that is applauded by one group may be so despised by another group that it is punishable by death. Making a huge profit on business deals is one example.

Unlike the public, sociologists use the term deviance nonjudgmentally, to refer to any act to which people respond negatively. When sociologists use this term, it does not mean that they agree that an act is bad, just that people judge it negatively. To sociologists, then, all of us are deviants of one sort or another, for we all violate norms from time to time. To be considered deviant, a person does not even have to do anything. Sociologist Erving Goffman (1963) used the term stigma to refer to characteristics that discredit people. These include violations of norms of ability (blindness, deafness, mental handicaps) and norms of appearance (a facial birthmark, a huge nose). They also include involuntary memberships, such as being a victim of AIDS or the brother of a rapist. The stigma can become a person's master status, defining him or her as deviant (**Henslin 2010**).

In Pakistan, homosexuality is often considered deviant behavior due to religious and cultural beliefs

Drug use is also often viewed as deviant behavior and is illegal in Pakistan.

The Functions of Deviance

Most of us are upset by deviance, especially crime, and assume that society would be better off without it. The classic functionalist theorist Emile Durkheim, however, came to a surprising conclusion. Deviance, he said—including crime—is functional for society, for it contributes to the social order. Its three main functions are:

- 1. Deviance clarifies moral boundaries and affirms norms:** A group's ideas about how people should think, and act mark its moral boundaries. Deviant acts challenge those boundaries. To call a member into account is to say, in effect, "You broke an important rule, and we cannot tolerate that." Punishing deviants affirms the group's norms and clarifies what it means to be a member of the group.
- 2. Deviance promotes social unity:** To affirm the group's moral boundaries by punishing deviants fosters a "we" feel among the group's members. In saying, "You can't get away with that," the group affirms the rightness of its own ways.
- 3. Deviance promotes social change:** Deviance can also bring attention to social issues and promote change. Groups do not always agree on what to do with people who push beyond their accepted ways of doing things. Some group members may even approve of the rule-breaking behaviour. Boundary violations that gain enough support become new, acceptable behaviours. Deviance, then, may force a group to rethink and redefine its moral boundaries, helping groups—and whole societies—to adapt to changing circumstances (**Henslin 2010**).

In Pakistan, activism against government corruption can be considered deviant but has played a crucial role in bringing about change.

Other functions:

- **Deviance serves as a way for individuals to express their individuality and challenge societal expectations:** Deviance can also serve as a way for individuals to express their individuality and challenge societal expectations. However, deviance can also lead to social stigma and exclusion from mainstream society.

The functions of deviance can vary across cultures and societies.

Topic-087: Defining normal and deviant behavior: The Dysfunctions of Deviance

Deviance can also have negative consequences for society, such as creating a sense of insecurity and fear. Deviance can also lead to social disorganization and break down social institutions. In Pakistan, the rise of extremist groups has caused social disorganization and created a sense of fear among citizens. Deviance can also lead to inequality and discrimination against marginalized groups. The dysfunctions of deviance can have long-lasting effects on society and can be difficult to overcome. However, addressing the root causes of deviance can help prevent its negative consequences

Deviance as Social Pathology

An early version of the structural functionalist approach to deviance is found in Herbert Spencer's (1889) assertion that deviance is a form of social pathology. Like most functionalists, Spencer viewed society as consisting of a basic structure that included a variety of interconnected and interdependent parts. To Spencer, a problem in one part of the organism affected the entire organism. Building on Spencer's organic analogy, many early sociologists viewed deviant behavior as a form of social pathology, a problem that potentially threatens the survival of society. Crime, mental illness, drug abuse, suicide, and other forms

of deviance were viewed as social pathologies in need of study and remedy. Spencer's approach to deviance provided a theoretical basis for the structural functionalist approach to deviance that later became known as structural or strain theories (**Thompson and Hickey 2016**).

Topic-088: Identity as Deviance

Identity can also be considered deviant if it does not conform to societal norms and expectations. In Pakistan, religious minorities and marginalized groups often face discrimination and are viewed as deviant. Non-conforming gender identities, such as transgender individuals, are also often considered deviant and face social stigma. Identity as deviance can lead to social exclusion and can be a barrier to accessing basic rights and services. However, embracing and accepting diverse identities can lead to a more inclusive and equitable society. Addressing discrimination and promoting acceptance of diverse identities can help reduce the negative consequences of identity as deviance.

Howard Becker (1963) developed a career model of deviance that demonstrates how the application and subsequent internalization of the deviant label leads to continued and increased deviance. Becker's emphasis on the developmental process underscored the idea that deviance often becomes a master status, a status that overpowers and, in many cases, supersedes any other statuses an individual holds that might run counter to it. Edwin Schur (1971) pointed out that individuals often internalize the deviant identity to the extent that they, too, view themselves as generally deviant, rather than deviant in relation to a specific act or attribute. Describing this process as role engulfment, Schur explained that people often become so absorbed in their deviant identity that this shapes their subsequent behavior, and they fulfill expectations associated with the deviant role. Likewise, Becker concluded that treating a person as generally rather than specifically deviant produces a self-fulfilling prophecy (**Thompson and Hickey 2016**).

Topic-089: Mechanisms of Social Control: Internal Means of Control

Internal means of control refer to the individual's own sense of right and wrong. This can include personal beliefs, values, and morals. In Pakistan, religion plays a significant role in internal means of control for many individuals. Family upbringing and cultural traditions can also shape an individual's internal means of control. Internal means of control can be effective in guiding behavior and promoting social cohesion. However, they may not always align with social norms and can vary greatly between individuals.

Voluntary (or Internalized) social control is one of the most effective methods of regulating human behaviour. It is for people to internalize society's values and norms and voluntarily restrain themselves. For example, most of us have never committed murder, but that is due more to the fact that we believe it is morally wrong to take another person's life than because it is illegal, and we fear being caught and punished. Most people voluntarily conform most of the time. What psychologists refer to as "conscience" represents the sense of guilt we feel when we violate or even consider breaking social norms. Sociologists take this reasoning a step further, explaining that we not only consider the norms, values, and beliefs of others, but that we also anticipate social reactions to our acts before we commit them (**Thompson and Hickey 2016**).

Topic-090: Mechanism of Social Control: External Means of Social Control

External means of control refer to the use of outside forces to regulate behavior. This can include laws, formal institutions, and social norms. In Pakistan, the legal system and government institutions serve as external means of social control. Social norms around gender roles and family expectations can also act as external means of control. External means of control can be effective in promoting conformity to social norms and preventing deviance. However, they can also be restrictive and oppressive, particularly for marginalized groups.

Topic-091: Social control and Deterrence

Social control can involve the use of deterrence to prevent deviant behavior. Deterrence involves the use of punishment or the threat of punishment to discourage deviant behavior. In Pakistan, the death penalty is used as a form of deterrence for certain crimes. The fear of punishment can be effective in promoting conformity to social norms. However, it may not always be effective in preventing deviant behavior and can lead to a focus on punishment rather than prevention and rehabilitation. Balancing social control and deterrence with prevention and rehabilitation is important for promoting a just and equitable society.

Some sociologists contend that deterrence is the most important element of social control, and that social control is the most important aspect of sociological inquiry. Deterrence theory states that deviance will be deterred if negative social sanctions (especially punishment) are perceived to be certain, swift, and severe (Gibbs, 1975). Deterrence theorists differentiate between specific deterrence, which are punishments that discourage the individual from committing similar acts in the future, and general deterrence, which discourages others from committing similar acts. For example, as a specific deterrent, capital punishment is 100 percent effective. There has never been a case where someone who was executed committed another offense after the execution. However, there is very little evidence that capital punishment serves as an effective general deterrent: states with capital punishment have higher violent crime rates than those without it. Moreover, a state may execute an individual at 12:01 for committing capital murder, and at 12:02 someone else may commit the same offense. Ideally, social control mechanisms should accomplish both specific and general deterrence (**Thompson and Hickey 2016**).

Topic-092: Informal and Formal Social Control

Formal Social Control: Formal social control involves the use of laws and institutions to regulate behavior. In Pakistan, formal social control is enforced through the legal system and government institutions. Balancing informal and formal social control is important for promoting a just and equitable society, as well as ensuring individual rights and freedoms. External means of control refer to the use of outside forces to regulate behavior. This can include laws, formal institutions, and social norms. In Pakistan, the legal system and government institutions serve as external means of social control.

Informal Social Control: When voluntary social control is insufficient and folkways or mores are violated, informal social control measures may be implemented. Gossip, for instance, is a very effective means of penalizing behaviour. In small towns or groups where everybody knows everybody else, gossip may be a powerful deterrent to straying from the straight and narrow. Ridicule, or shame, is another common and effective method of informal social control. Few people enjoy being the butt of others' jokes. American teenagers seem particularly adept at this form of informal control over their peers. Research indicates that shame, especially in the form of informal but pervasive social control by others, is linked to conformity (Scheff, 1988). Perhaps one of the most effective methods of informal social control is ostracism—excluding someone from social acceptance or group membership. For the Old Order Amish, ostracism (shunning) is the most powerful negative sanction against church members who seriously deviate from the moral and social codes of their faith. The shunned individual is not allowed to take meals with others, is neither spoken to nor acknowledged, and cannot participate in any community activities. In small, interdependent communities such as those created by the Old Order Amish, primary interaction is essential to daily living, and shunning amounts to “social death” (Hostetler, 1980; Thompson, 1986). Informal social control can be very powerful and is often all that is necessary to dissuade deviance and encourage conformity. When formal norms are violated, however, informal social control may be supplemented and reinforced by formal controls (**Thompson and Hickey 2016**).

Lesson-17

THEORIES OF DEVIANCE AND CRIME**Lesson Overview**

- Symbolic interactionism: differential association, control theory, labeling theory
- The functional perspective: can deviance really be functional for society?
- The functional perspective: Strain theory: How mainstream values produce deviance.
- The conflict perspective: class crime and the criminal justice system.
- Theories of Crime and Deviance: Biological Theories
- Theories of Crime and Deviance: Psychological theories

Topic-093: Symbolic interactionism: Differential Association, Control Theory, Labeling Theory

Symbolic interactionism focuses on how individuals interpret and respond to social interactions and symbols. As we examine symbolic interactionism, it will become more evident why sociologists are not satisfied with explanations that are rooted in socio-biology or psychology. A basic principle of symbolic interactionism is that we are thinking of beings who act according to our interpretations of situations. Let's consider how our membership in groups influences how we view life and, from there, our behavior (**Henslin 2010**).

Differential Association Theory:

Differential association theory suggests that individuals learn deviant behavior through their interactions with others who engage in deviant behaviour. Going directly against the idea that biology or personality is the source of deviance, sociologists stress our experiences in groups (Deflem 2006; Chambliss 1973/2007). Consider an extreme: boys and girls who join street gangs and those who join the Scouts. Obviously, each will learn different attitudes and behaviors concerning deviance and conformity. Edwin Sutherland coined the term differential association to indicate this: From the different groups we associate with, we learn to deviate from or conform to society's norms (Sutherland 1924, 1947; Sutherland et al. 1992).

Sutherland's theory is more complicated than this, but he basically said that the different groups with which we associate (our "differential association") give us messages about conformity and deviance. We may receive mixed messages, but we end up with more of one than the other (an "excess of definitions," as Sutherland put it). The result is an imbalance—attitudes that tilt us in one direction or another. Consequently, we learn to either conform or to deviate.

Families: Since our family is so important for teaching us attitudes, it probably is obvious to you that the family makes a big difference in whether we learn deviance or conformity.

Researchers have confirmed this informal observation. Of the many confirming studies, this one stands out: Of all prison inmates across the United States, about half have a father, mother, brother, sister, or spouse who has served time in prison. In short, families that are involved in crime tend to set their children on a law-breaking path.

Friends, Neighborhoods, and Subcultures: Most people don't know the term differential association, but they do know how it works. Most parents want to move out of "bad" neighborhoods because they know that if their kids have delinquent friends, they are likely to become delinquent,

too. Sociological research also supports this common observation (Miller 1958; Chung and Steinberg 2006; Yonas et al. 2006). Some neighborhoods even develop a subculture of violence. In these places, even a teasing remark can mean instant death. If the neighbors feel that a victim deserved to be killed, they refuse to testify because “he got what was coming to him” (Kubrin and Weitzer 2003). In some neighborhoods, killing is even considered an honorable act (**Henslin 2010**).

Control Theory:

Control theory suggests that individuals are naturally inclined to deviance but are controlled by social bonds and relationships. Sociologist Walter Reckless (1973), who developed control theory, stressed that two control systems work against our motivations to deviate. Our inner controls include our internalized morality—conscience, religious principles, ideas of right and wrong. Inner controls also include fears of punishment, feelings of integrity, and the desire to be a “good” person (Hirschi 1969; McShane and Williams 2007). Our outer controls consist of people—such as family, friends, and the police—who influence us not to deviate. The stronger our bonds are with society, the more effective our inner controls are (Hirschi 1969). Bonds are based on attachments (our affection and respect for people who conform to mainstream norms), commitments (having a stake in society that you don’t want to risk, such as a respected place in your family, a good standing at college, a good job), involvements (participating in approved activities), and beliefs (convictions that certain actions are morally wrong). This theory can be summarized as self-control, says sociologist Travis Hirschi. The key to learning high self-control is socialization, especially in childhood. Parents help their children to develop self-control by supervising them and punishing their deviant acts (Gottfredson and Hirschi 1990; Hay and Forrest 2006). They sometimes use shame to keep their children in line. You probably had that forefinger shaken at you. I certainly recall it aimed at me (**Henslin 2010**).

Labelling Theory:

Labeling theory suggests that individuals may engage in deviance because of being labeled as deviant by society.

Suppose for one undesirable moment that you had the reputation as a “whore,” a “pervert,” or a “cheat.” (Pick one.) What power such a reputation would have—both on how others would see you and on how you would see yourself. How about if you became known as “very intelligent,” “truthful in everything,” or “honest to the core”?

(Choose one.) You can see that such a reputation would give people a different expectation of your character and behavior. This is what labelling theory focuses on, the significance of reputations, how they help set us on paths that propel us into deviance or that divert us away from it.

According to Labelling theory, labelling is the view that the labels people are given affect their own and others’ perceptions of them, thus channeling their behavior into either deviance or conformity. A related term is **degradation ceremony**, coined by Harold Garfinkel to refer to a ritual whose goal is to reshape someone’s self by stripping away that individual’s self-identity and stamping a new identity in its place.

How do labels work? Although the matter is complex, because it involves the self-concept and reactions that vary from one individual to another, we can note that labels open and close doors of opportunity. Unlike its meaning in sociology, the term deviant in everyday usage is emotionally charged with a judgment of some sort. This label can lock people out of conforming groups and push them into almost exclusive contact with people who have been similarly labelled (**Henslin 2010**).

In Pakistan, the use of labels such as “terrorist”, “na laik” or “nikamma” can lead to social exclusion and marginalization, perpetuating deviant behavior. Understanding the mechanisms of symbolic interactionism can provide insight into the root causes of deviance and how to prevent it.

Topic-094: The Functional Perspective: Can Deviance Really be Functional for Society?

The functional perspective suggests that deviance can serve a function for society, such as reinforcing social norms or promoting change. However, the functional perspective is often criticized for ignoring the negative consequences of deviance, such as social disorganization and inequality. In Pakistan, the use of protests to challenge government corruption can be seen.

as functional but has also led to violence and social disorganization. Balancing the potential functions of deviance with its negative consequences is important for promoting a just and equitable society.

Topic-095: The Functional Perspective: Strain Theory: How Mainstream Values Produce Deviance

Functionalists argue that crime is a natural part of society, not an aberration or some alien element in our midst. Mainstream values can even generate crime. Consider what sociologists Richard Cloward and Lloyd Ohlin (1960) identified as the crucial problem of the industrialized.

world: the need to locate and train its talented people—whether they were born into wealth or into poverty—so that they can take over the key technical jobs of society. When children are born, no one knows which ones will have the ability to become dentists, nuclear physicists, or engineers. To get the most talented people to compete with one another, society tries to motivate everyone to strive for success. It does this by arousing discontent—making people feel dissatisfied with what they have so they will try to “better” themselves. We are quite successful in getting almost everyone to want cultural goals, success of some sort, such as wealth or prestige. But we aren’t very successful in equalizing access to institutionalized means, the legitimate ways to reach those goals. As sociologist Robert Merton (1956, 1968) analyzed socialization into success and the blocked access to it, he developed strain theory. Strain refers to the frustrations people feel when they want success but find their way to it blocked. It is easy to identify with mainstream norms (such as working hard or pursuing higher education) when they help you get ahead, but when they don’t seem to be getting you anywhere, you feel frustrated. You might even feel wronged by the system. If mainstream rules seem illegitimate, you experience a gap that Merton called anomie, a sense of normlessness. As part of living in society, all of us must face these cultural goals and institutionalized means. Table 8.1 compares the various ways that people react to them. The first reaction, which Merton said is the most common, is conformity, using socially acceptable means to try to reach cultural goals. In industrialized societies most people try to get good jobs, a good education, and so on. If well-paid jobs are unavailable, they take less desirable jobs. If they are denied access to Harvard or Stanford, they go to a state university. Others take night classes and go to vocational schools. In short, most people take the socially acceptable path.

Four Deviant Paths: The remaining four responses, which are deviant, represent reactions to the strain people feel between the goals they want and their access to the institutionalized means to reach them. Let’s look at each. Innovators are people who accept the goals of society but use illegitimate means to try to reach them. Crack dealers, for instance, accept the goal of achieving wealth, but they reject the legitimate avenues for doing so. Other examples are embezzlers, robbers, and con artists. The second deviant path is taken by people who become discouraged and give up on achieving cultural goals. Yet they still cling to conventional rules of conduct. Merton called this response ritualism. Although ritualists have given up on getting ahead at work, they survive by rigorously following the rules of their job. Teachers whose idealism is shattered (who are said to suffer from “burnout”), for example, remain in the classroom, where they teach without enthusiasm. Their response is considered deviant because they cling to the job even though they have abandoned the goal, which may have been to stimulate young minds or to make the world a better place. People who choose the

third deviant path, retreatism, reject both the cultural goals and the institutionalized means of achieving them. Some people stop pursuing success and retreat into alcohol or drugs. Although their path to withdrawal is considerably different, women who enter a convent or men a monastery are also retreatists. The final type of deviant response is rebellion. Convinced that their society is corrupt, rebels, like retreatists, reject both society's goals and its institutionalized means. Unlike retreatists, however, rebels seek to give society new goals, as well as new means for reaching them. Revolutionaries are the most committed type of rebels (**Henslin 2010**).

Topic-096: The Conflict Perspective: Class Crime and the Criminal Justice System

The Law as an Instrument of Oppression: Conflict theorists regard power and social inequality as the main characteristics of society. They stress that the power elite uses the criminal justice system to protect its position of power and privilege. The idea that the law operates impartially to bring justice, they say, is a cultural myth promoted by the capitalist class. They point out that the law is really an instrument of oppression, a tool designed by the powerful to maintain their privileged position (Chambliss 2000, 1973/2007; Spitzer 1975; Reiman 2004). With their large numbers, the working class and those below them pose a special threat to the power elite. Receiving the least of society's material rewards, they hold the potential to rebel and overthrow the current social order. To prevent this, the law comes down hard on its members who get out of line. The working poor and the underclass are a special problem. They are the least rooted in society. They have few skills and only low- paying, part-time, or seasonal work—if they have jobs at all. Because their street crimes threaten the social order that keeps the elite in power, they are punished severely. From this class come most of the prison inmates in the United States. The criminal justice system, then, does not focus on the executives of corporations and the harm they do through manufacturing unsafe products, creating pollution, and manipulating prices. Yet the violations of the capitalist class cannot be ignored totally, for if they become too outrageous or oppressive, they might outrage the working class, encouraging them to rise up and revolt. To prevent this, a flagrant violation by a member of the capitalist class is occasionally prosecuted. The publicity given to the case helps to stabilize the social system by providing evidence of the “fairness” of the criminal justice system. The powerful, however, are usually able to bypass the courts altogether, appearing instead before an agency that has no power to imprison (such as the Federal Trade Commission). These agencies are directed by people from wealthy backgrounds who sympathize with the intricacies of the corporate world.

Topic-097: Theories of Crime and Deviance: Biological Theories

Biological theories suggest that criminal behavior is rooted in a person's physical or genetic makeup. These theories propose that some individuals are predisposed to criminal behavior due to their biological traits. Cesare Lombroso's theory of atavism argued that criminals are "throwbacks" to earlier stages of human evolution. Pakistan has a high rate of violent crime, and some research has linked this to genetic factors.

Topic-098: Theories of Crime and Deviance: Psychological Theories

Psychological theories suggest that criminal behavior is the result of mental, emotional, or personality disorders. Sigmund Freud's psychoanalytic theory proposed that criminal behavior is the result of unresolved conflicts in the unconscious mind. The social learning theory suggests that individuals

learn criminal behavior through observation and imitation of others. In Pakistan, some research has linked high levels of poverty and social inequality to an increased risk of psychological disorders and criminal behavior.

Lesson-18**TYPES OF CRIME-I****Lesson Overview**

- Types of crime: juvenile crime
- Types of crime: violent crime
- Types of crime: property crime
- Types of crime: white collar crime

Topic-099: Types of Crime: Juvenile Crime

The crime committed by people of younger age is known as juvenile crime. Common types of juvenile crime include theft, drug abuse, and vandalism. Pakistan has a significant problem with juvenile delinquency, with some estimates suggesting that over half of all crimes in the country are committed by young people. Poverty, lack of education, and poor family relationships are all risk factors for juvenile crime in Pakistan.

Topic-100: Types of Crime: Violent Crime

Violent crimes are considered the most threatening because they involve offenses against persons. They include homicide (the wilful taking of a person's life), aggravated assault (an attack with the intent to inflict severe bodily harm), forcible rape (sexual intercourse against the victim's will), and robbery (stealing from a person by the use or threat of force) (**Thompson and Hickey 2016**). Pakistan has a high rate of violent crime, with some estimates suggesting that there are over 20,000 murders in the country each year. Factors that contribute to the prevalence of violent crime in Pakistan include poverty, political instability, and the proliferation of weapons.

Topic-101: Types of Crime: Property Crime

Although people fear violent crimes the most, they are far more likely to become victims of property offenses, which occur much more frequently. Property offenses are nonviolent crimes, the most serious of which include burglary (unlawful entry with the intent to steal), larceny-theft (the theft of anything valued more than \$100), auto theft, and arson (intentionally setting a fire) (**Thompson and Hickey 2016**).

Pakistan has a high rate of property crime, with some estimates suggesting that there are over 100,000 reported cases of theft each year. Factors that contribute to the prevalence of property crime in Pakistan include poverty, lack of security, and corruption in law enforcement.

Topic-102: Types of Crime: White Collar Crime

White collar crime refers to nonviolent crimes committed by individuals in positions of power or authority. Examples of white-collar crime include fraud, embezzlement, and insider trading. In Pakistan, white collar crime is often associated with corruption in government and business. The 2017 Panama Papers scandal, which implicated several high-ranking Pakistani politicians and businesspeople, is an example of white-collar crime in the country. White-Collar Crime: Like the poor, the forms of crime of the more privileged classes also match their life situation. And how different their illegitimate opportunities are! Physicians don't hold up cabbies, but they do cheat

Medicare. Investment managers like Bernie Madoff run fraudulent schemes that cheat customers around the world. Mugging, pimping, and burgling are not part of this more privileged world, but evading income tax, bribing public officials, and embezzling are. Sociologist Edwin Sutherland (1949) coined the term white-collar crime to refer to crimes that people of respectable and high social status commit during their occupations. A special form of white-collar crime is corporate crime, crimes committed by executives to benefit their corporation. Seldom is corporate crime taken seriously, even when it results in death (**Henslin 2010**).

Lesson-19

TYPES OF CRIME-II

Lesson Overview

- Types of crime: victimless crime
- Crime against people: Murder, rape, personal assault, child abuse, harassment
- Crimes against property: Computer crime, organized crime
- The emergence and importance of law

Topic-103: Victimless Crime

Another type of crime is public order, or victimless, crime, such as prostitution, illegal gambling, and illegal drug use. Because these crimes do not involve a clear-cut victim, the average citizen feels much less threatened by them. Nevertheless, many people argue that these crimes are not victimless because they disrupt social order and threaten society's moral fiber, thus victimizing all members of society. Émile Durkheim observed that crime is a normal part of all societies, and all societies institutionalize measures to control criminals. In the United States, social concern about crime and efforts to sanction criminals have led to the creation of one of the most complex and elaborate criminal justice systems in the world. Criminal justice procedures can be divided into law enforcement, the courts, and corrections (**Thompson and Hickey 2016**).

In Pakistan, drug use is a common form of victimless crime, and the country has a significant problem with drug addiction.

Topic-104: Crime against people: Murder, Rape, Personal Assault, Child Abuse, Harassment

Crime against person constitute crimes that direct violence or the threat of violence against others. Such crimes include murder and **manslaughter**, defined as, *willful killing of one human. being by another*, **Aggravated assault**, *an unlawful attack by one person upon another for the purpose of inflicting severe or aggravated bodily injury*. **Forcible rape**, and **Robbery**, *taking or attempting to take anything of value from the care, custody or control of a person or persons by force or threat of force or violence and/or putting the victim in fear*.

Topic-105: Crimes Against Property: Computer Crime, Organized Crime

Although people are afraid of violent crimes the most, they are far more likely to become victims of property offenses, which occur much more frequently. Property offenses are nonviolent crimes, burglary being the most serious of them defined as (unlawful entry with the intent to steal), larceny-theft (the theft of anything valued more than \$100), auto theft, and arson (intentionally setting a fire).

Cyber-Crime

The recent advance in information technology has facilitated international organized crime in fundamental ways. Technological advancement on one hand has offered exciting innovative opportunities, while on the other hand they have elevated crime vulnerability. While the extent of cyber-crime is hard to quantify it is the *criminal acts committed with the assistance of information technology*.

Topic-106: The Emergence and Importance of Law

Law emerged to regulate behavior and resolve conflicts in early human societies. The earliest forms of law were based on customs and traditions and were often enforced through informal means. As societies became more complex, formal legal systems developed to enforce laws and punish violators. The importance of law in modern societies includes protecting individual rights and promoting social order. In Pakistan, the legal system is a mix of Islamic law (Sharia) and British common law. The Pakistani legal system includes both civil and criminal law.

Lesson-20**FORMAL SOCIAL CONTROL MECHANISMS****Lesson Overview**

- Formal social control mechanisms: criminal justice system
- Criminal justice system: the police
- Criminal justice system: the court
- Criminal justice system: the prison
- Crime in Pakistan

Topic-107: Formal Social Control Mechanism: Criminal Justice System

Formal social control mechanisms are essential for maintaining social order and regulating behavior in complex societies. The criminal justice system is one of the most important formal social control mechanisms. The criminal justice system includes a range of institutions, including the police, courts, and prisons. The purpose of the criminal justice system is to enforce laws and punish those who violate them. The criminal justice system is an essential component of the state's power and authority. The criminal justice system is subject to ongoing debate and criticism, particularly about issues of fairness and bias.

Topic-108: Criminal Justice System: The Police

Police officers are the most visible and most direct link between the criminal justice system and the public. They take primary responsibility for the enforcement of laws. The police have two important roles: to catch criminals and to maintain order with the hope of preventing crime. Although the media emphasize the “crime-fighter” image of police work, police officers spend far more time in the second role. Since the 1960s, technological advances have provided more elaborate means of communication and surveillance, better equipped squad cars, and more sophisticated weaponry. Of course, criminals have benefited from increased technology as well. This and other developments have led many city leaders to accentuate the need to reemphasize police–community relations. Thus, in the early 1990s, many cities adopted community policing strategies and reassigned police officers to walk beats in an effort to regain community trust and cooperation. Today, community policing is a major part of law enforcement in almost every American city (**Thompson and Hickey 2016**).

Topic-108: Criminal Justice System: The Courts

Although every criminal is entitled to his or her day in court, almost 90 percent of criminal cases never go to trial. Instead, prosecuting attorneys representing the state and defense attorneys representing the accused usually negotiate a plea bargain, whereby the defendant agrees to plead guilty to a specific charge (usually less serious than the one originally filed). Even with only about 10 percent of cases going to trial the criminal court dockets are crowded, and it may take a year or more for a case to go to trial. Judges play a key role in the court phase of criminal justice. They have a great deal of discretion in accepting pleas, admitting evidence, instructing jurors, and setting sentences for those who are convicted of crimes. Private citizens also play an important role in this aspect of the criminal justice system because they make up the juries when cases go to trial. When criminal cases are resolved through plea bargaining or convictions, a judge or jury must decide what type of sentence the criminal will receive. This begins the third and final stage of the criminal justice process: corrections (**Thompson and Hickey 2016**).

Topic-108: Criminal Justice System: The Prison

Prisons are an essential component of the criminal justice system, responsible for incarcerating convicted criminals and keeping them separate from society. Prisons serve a range of purposes, including punishment, rehabilitation, and deterrence. The conditions in prisons can have a significant impact on the physical and mental well-being of prisoners and can also affect their likelihood of re-offending. In Pakistan, the prison system is managed by the provincial governments, and there are a range of different types of prisons, including central jails, district jails, and women's jails. The prison system in Pakistan has been subject to criticism and controversy, particularly regarding issues of overcrowding, poor conditions, and mistreatment of prisoners.

Corrections

As the name implies, a correctional system represents society's attempt to "correct" those who have violated its laws. Corrections may be linked to rehabilitation and an effort to reform criminals, but most often they take the form of retribution, or punishment. The most common sentence for nonserious offenses and petty property crimes is probation, in which people pay fines or make restitution to the victim and are allowed to return to public life with restrictions on their freedom. For more serious property offenses and violent crimes, offenders are more likely to have their freedom restricted by incarceration in a local, state, or federal institution.

Most prisoners are released on parole before they serve their entire sentences. Like people on probation, parolees must periodically report to an officer of the court and must live within a set of rules that restricts their personal freedom. The most extreme form of social control is capital punishment; that is, execution of the criminal offender. Most sociologists agree that it is difficult to determine whether formal social control and punishment act as effective deterrents to crime and other forms of deviant behaviour. Although many of us come into contact with either the police, the courts, or corrections at some time in our lives, most citizens' ideas about deviance, crime, and the criminal justice system come from images presented by the mass media: newspapers, magazines, movies, and, especially, television. As we discussed earlier, it is popular to blame much of the deviance in society on the media. Just as the media are often viewed as part of the problem, however, they also are viewed as being part of the solution. Today more than ever, media—especially computers and other sophisticated techno media—are being developed and used in efforts to control, deter, and prevent deviance and crime (**Thompson and Hickey 2016**).

Topic-111: Crime in Pakistan

Crime is a major social problem in Pakistan, with a range of different types of crimes occurring on a regular basis. The most common types of crimes in Pakistan include theft, burglary, and robbery, as well as more serious crimes such as murder and terrorism. Crime in Pakistan is influenced by a range of factors, including poverty, unemployment, social inequality, and political instability. There are a range of formal and informal mechanisms for addressing crime in Pakistan, including the criminal justice system, community policing, and traditional dispute resolution methods. Efforts are underway to address the problem of crime in Pakistan, including through the development of new laws and policies, and the strengthening of law enforcement.

and criminal justice institutions. The issue of crime in Pakistan remains a complex and ongoing challenge, requiring a coordinated and sustained effort by the government, civil society, and other stakeholders.

Lesson-21**SOCIAL STRATIFICATION****Lesson Overview**

- What is social stratification?
- Systems of social stratification: (slavery)
- Systems of social stratification: (Caste)
- Systems of social stratification: (Status)
- Systems of social stratification: (Estate)

Topic-112: What is Social Stratification?

Social stratification is a system in which groups of people are divided into layers according to their relative property, power, and prestige. It is important to emphasize that social stratification does not refer to individuals. It is a way of ranking large groups of people into a hierarchy according to their relative privileges. It is also important to note that every society stratifies its members. Some societies have greater inequality than others, but social stratification is universal. In addition, in every society of the world, gender is a basis for stratifying people. Based on their gender, people are either allowed or denied access to the good things offered by their society (**Henslin 2010**).

System of Social Stratification

There are four major systems of social stratification.

Topic-113: Slavery System

Slavery, whose essential characteristic is that some individuals own other people, has been common throughout world history. The Old Testament even lays out rules for how owners should treat their slaves. So does the Koran. The Romans also had slaves, as did the Africans and Greeks. In classical Greece and Rome, slaves did the work, freeing citizens to engage in politics and the arts. Slavery was most widespread in agricultural societies and least common among nomads, especially hunters and gatherers (Landtman 1938/1968).

Causes of Slavery

Contrary to popular assumption, slavery was usually based not on racism but on one of three other factors. The first was debt. In some societies, creditors would enslave people who could not pay their debts. The second was crime. Instead of being killed, a murderer or thief might be enslaved by the victim's family as compensation for their loss. The third was war. When one group of people conquered another, they often enslaved some of the vanquished. Historian Gerda Lerner (1986) notes that women were the first people enslaved through warfare. When tribal men raided another group, they killed the men, raped the women, and then brought the women back as slaves. The women were valued for sexual purposes, for reproduction, and for their Labor. Roughly twenty-five hundred years ago, when Greece was but a collection of city-states, slavery was common. A city that became powerful and conquered another city would enslave some of the vanquished. Both slaves and slaveholders were Greek. Similarly, when Rome became the supreme power of the Mediterranean area about two thousand years ago, following the custom of the time, the Romans enslaved some of the Greeks they had conquered. More educated than their conquerors, some of these slaves served as

tutors in Roman homes. Slavery, then, was a sign of debt, of crime, or of defeat in battle. It was not a sign that the slave was viewed as inherently inferior (**Henslin 2010**).

Conditions of Slavery

The conditions of slavery have varied widely around the world. In some places, slavery was temporary. Slaves of the Israelites were set free in the year of jubilee, which occurred every fifty years. Roman slaves ordinarily had the right to buy themselves out of slavery. They knew what their purchase price was, and some were able to meet this price by striking a bargain with their owner and selling their services to others. In most instances, however, slavery was a lifelong condition. Some criminals, for example, became slaves when they were given life sentences as oarsmen on Roman war ships. There they served until death, which often came quickly to those in this exhausting service. Slavery was not necessarily inheritable. In most places, the children of slaves were slaves themselves. But in some instances, the child of a slave who served a rich family might even be adopted by that family, becoming an heir who bore the family name along with the other sons or daughters of the household. In ancient Mexico, the children of slaves were always free (Landtman 1938/1968:271). Slaves were not necessarily powerless and poor. In almost all instances, slaves owned no property and had no power. Among some groups, however, slaves could accumulate property and even rise to high positions in the community. Occasionally, a slave might even become wealthy, loan money to the master, and, while still a slave, own slaves himself or herself (Landtman 1938/1968). This, however, was rare (**Henslin 2010**).

Topic-114: Caste System

The second system of social stratification is caste. In a caste system, status is determined by birth and is lifelong. Someone who is born into a low-status group will always have low status, no matter how much that person may accomplish in life. In sociological terms, a caste system is built on ascribed status. Achieved status cannot change an individual's place in this system. Societies with this form of stratification try to make certain that the boundaries between castes remain firm. They practice endogamy, marriage within their own group, and prohibit intermarriage. Elaborate rules about ritual pollution—touching an inferior caste contaminates the superior caste—keeps contact between castes to a minimum (**Henslin 2010**).

India's Religious Castes

India provides the best example of a caste system. Based not on race but on religion, India's caste system has existed for almost three thousand years. Although the Indian government formally abolished the caste system in 1949, centuries old practices cannot be eliminated so easily, and the caste system remains part of everyday life in India (Beckett 2007). The ceremonies people follow at births, marriages, and deaths, for example, are dictated by caste (Chandra 1993a). The upper castes dread the upward mobility of the untouchables, sometimes resisting it even with murder and ritual suicide (Crossette 1996; Trofimov 2007).

Example from South Africa

In South Africa, Europeans of Dutch descent, a numerical minority called Afrikaners, used to control the government, the police, and the military. They used these sources of power to enforce a system called apartheid (ah-PAR-tate), the separation of the races. Everyone was classified by law into one of four groups: Europeans (whites), Africans (blacks), Coloureds (mixed races), and Asians. These classifications determined where people could live, work, and go to school. It also established

where they could swim or see movies—for by law whites were not allowed to mix socially with the others. After years of trade sanctions and sports boycotts, in 1990 Afrikaners began to dismantle their caste system, and in 1994 Nelson Mandela, a black, was elected president. Black Africans no longer must carry special passes, public facilities are integrated, and all racial-ethnic groups have the right to vote and to hold office. Although apartheid has been dismantled, its legacy haunts South Africa. Whites still dominate the country's social institutions, and most blacks remain uneducated and poor. Many new rights—such as the right to higher education, to eat in restaurants, even to see a doctor—are of little use to people who can't afford them (**Henslin 2010**).

Topic-115: Status System

Status is a system of social stratification based on differences in social prestige, which may be based on factors such as occupation, education, and lifestyle. Status is often associated with modern, industrialized societies, in which social position is more fluid and based on individual achievement and merit. Status may be based on a range of different criteria, including wealth, education, occupation, and cultural capital. Those at the top of the status hierarchy often have greater access to social and economic resources, as well as greater political power and influence.

Status can be reinforced through a range of social institutions, including education, the media, and cultural practices. Status is often associated with certain professions or occupations, such as doctors, lawyers, and business executives. Status is often linked to social mobility and the ability to move up or down the social ladder based on individual achievement and effort. In Pakistan, status is an important factor in social stratification, particularly in urban areas and among the middle and upper classes.

Topic-115: Estate System

During the Middle Ages, Europe developed an estate stratification system. There were three groups, or estates. The **first estate** was made up of the nobility, the wealthy families who ruled the country. This group owned the land, which was the source of wealth at that time. The nobility did no farming themselves, or any “work” for that matter. Work was considered beneath their dignity, something to be done by servants. The nobility's responsibility was to administer their lands and to live “genteel” lives worthy of their high position. The **second estate** consisted of the clergy. The Roman Catholic Church was a political power at this time. It also owned vast amounts of land and collected taxes from everyone who lived within the boundaries of a parish. The church's power was so great that to be crowned, kings had to obtain the pope's permission. To prevent their vast land holdings from being carved into smaller chunks, members of the nobility practiced primogeniture, allowing only firstborn sons to inherit land. The other sons had to find some way to support themselves, and joining the clergy was a favoured way. The **third estate** consisted of the commoners. Known as serfs, they belonged to the land. If someone bought or inherited land, the serfs came with it. Serfs were born into the third estate, and they died within it, too. The rare person who made it out of the third estate was a man who was knighted for extraordinary bravery in battle, or someone “called” into a religious vocation (**Henslin 2010**).

Topic-116: Estate System

Women belonged to the estate of their husbands. Women in the first estate had no occupation, for, as in the case of their husbands, work was considered beneath their dignity. Their responsibility was to administer the household, overseeing the children and servants. The women in the second estate, nuns, were the exception to the rule that women belonged to the estate of their husbands, as the Roman Catholic clergy did not marry. Women of the third estate shared the hard life of their husbands,

including physical Labor and food shortages. In addition, they faced the peril of rape by men of the first estate. A few commoners who caught the eye of men of the first estate did marry and join them in the first estate. This, however, was rare (**Henslin 2010**).

Women in the Estate System

Women belonged to the estate of their husbands. Women in the first estate had no occupation, for, as in the case of their husbands, work was considered beneath their dignity. Their responsibility was to administer the household, overseeing the children and servants. The women in the second estate, nuns, were the exception to the rule that women belonged to the estate of their husbands, as the Roman Catholic clergy did not marry. Women of the third estate shared the hard life of their husbands, including physical Labor and food shortages. In addition, they faced the peril of rape by men of the first estate. A few commoners who caught the eye of men of the first estate did marry and join them in the first estate. This, however, was rare (**Henslin 2010**).

Class System

As we have seen, stratification systems based on slavery, caste, and estate are rigid. The lines drawn between people are firm, and there is little or no movement from one group to another. A class system, in contrast, is much more open, for it is based primarily on money or material possessions, which can be acquired. This system, too, is in place at birth, when children are ascribed the status of their parents, but, in this system, unlike the others, individuals can change their social class by what they achieve (or fail to achieve) in life. In addition, no laws specify people's occupations on the basis of birth or prohibit marriage between the classes. A major characteristic of the class system, then, is its relatively fluid boundaries. A class system allows social mobility, movement up or down the class ladder. The potential for improving one's life—or for falling down the class ladder—is a major force that drives people to go far in school and to work hard. In the extreme, the family background that a child inherits at birth may present such obstacles that he or she has little chance of climbing very far—or it may provide such privileges that it makes it almost impossible to fall down the class ladder (**Henslin 2010**).

Lesson-22**THEORETICAL PERSPECTIVES ON SOCIAL STRATIFICATION-I****Lesson Overview**

- Theoretical perspectives on stratification: Functionalism
- Theoretical perspectives on stratification: Conflict theory
- Theoretical perspectives on stratification: Symbolic interactionism
- Theoretical perspectives on stratification: Feminism
- What determines social class? Max Weber: property, power, and prestige

Topic-117: Theoretical perspectives on stratification: Functionalism**The Functionalist view: motivating qualified people**

Functionalists take the position that the patterns of behavior that characterize a society exist because they are functional for that society. Because social inequality is universal, inequality must help societies survive. But how?

Davis and Moore's Explanation: Two functionalists, Kingsley Davis, and Wilbert Moore (1945, 1953), wrestled with this question. They concluded that stratification of society is inevitable because.

1. Society must make certain that its positions are filled.
2. Some positions are more important than others.
3. The more important positions must be filled by the more qualified people.
4. To motivate the more qualified people to fill these positions, society must offer them greater rewards.

To flesh out this functionalist argument, consider college presidents and military generals. The position of college president is more important than that of student because the president's decisions affect a large number of people, including many students. College presidents are also accountable for their performance to boards of trustees. It is the same with generals. Their decisions affect many people and sometimes even determine life and death. Generals are accountable to superior generals and to the country's leader.

Why do people accept such high-pressure positions? Why don't they just take less demanding jobs? The answer, said Davis and Moore, is that society offers greater rewards—prestige, pay, and benefits—for its more demanding and accountable positions. To get highly qualified people to compete with one another, some positions offer a salary of \$2 million a year, country club membership, a private jet and pilot, and a chauffeured limousine. For less demanding positions, a \$30,000 salary without fringe benefits is enough to get hundreds of people to compete. If a job requires rigorous training, it, too, must offer more salary and benefits. If you can get the same pay with a high school diploma, why suffer through the many tests and term papers that college requires? (Henslin 2010).

Topic-118: Theoretical Perspectives on Stratification: Conflict Theory

Conflict theorists don't just criticize details of the functionalist argument. Rather, they go for the throat and attack its basic premise. Conflict, not function, they stress, is the reason that we have social stratification.

Karl Marx's Argument. If he were alive to hear the functionalist argument, Karl Marx would be enraged. From his point of view, the people in power are not there because of superior traits, as the functionalists would have us believe. This view is an ideology that members of the elite use to justify their being at the top—and to seduce the oppressed into believing that their welfare depends on keeping quiet and following authorities. What is human history, Marx asked, except the chronicle of class struggle? All of human history is an account of small groups of people in power using society's resources to benefit themselves and to oppress those beneath them—and of oppressed groups trying to overcome that oppression. Marx predicted that the workers would revolt. Capitalist ideology now blinds them, but one day class consciousness will throw off that blindfold and expose the truth. When workers realize their common oppression, they will rebel. The struggle to control the means of production may be covert at first, taking such forms as work slowdowns and industrial sabotage. Ultimately, however, resistance will break out into the open. The revolution will not be easy, for the bourgeoisie control the police, the military, and even the educational system, where they implant false class consciousness in the minds of the workers' children (**Henslin 2010**).

Current Applications of Conflict Theory

Just as Marx focused on overarching historic events—the accumulation of capital and power and the struggle between workers and capitalists—so do some of today's conflict sociologists. In analyzing global stratification and global capitalism, they look at power relations among nations, how national elites control workers, and how power shifts as capital is shuffled among nations (Sklair 2001). Other conflict sociologists, in contrast, examine conflict wherever it is found, not just as it relates to capitalists and workers. They examine how groups within the same class compete with one another for a larger slice of the pie (Schellenberg 1996; Collins 1988, 1999). Even within the same industry, for example, union will fight against union for higher salaries, shorter hours, and more power. A special focus has been conflict between racial-ethnic groups as they compete for education, housing, and even prestige—whatever benefits society has to offer. Another focus has been relations between women and men, which conflict theorists say are best understood as a conflict over power—over who controls society's resources. Unlike functionalists, conflict theorists say that just beneath the surface of what may appear to be a tranquil society lies conflict that is barely held in check (**Henslin 2010**).

Topic-119: Theoretical Perspectives on Stratification: Symbolic Interactionism

Interactionist agree that members of all classes use symbols, language, clothing, and other things to differentiate themselves from those at other social levels. Fundamental to class are lifestyles, which are the distinctive ways in which group members consume goods and services and display rank. Thorsten Veblen (1899) noted that those at the top of the hierarchy typically convert wealth into prestige through conspicuous consumption and conspicuous leisure. Veblen's book, *Theory of the Leisure Class* (1899) provided the basis for the interactionist view on social stratification and launched the Chicago School's emphasis on social ecology. More subtle elements of nonverbal behavior (e.g., the use of eyes, hands, and posture) distinguish classes and serve as important social barriers as well. For example, members of the upper class rarely use their hands to give orders or directions. That is more typical of the working class and many ethnic groups, who issue directives by pointing and by making arm motions. According to Granovetter (1995), Patterns of sociability and community participation also are class based. One consistent research finding is that working-class people tend to have strong ties with family and large numbers of kin. By contrast, middle- and upper-class members have diverse and wide-ranging associations and social networks that enhance career opportunities and social mobility (**Henslin 2010**).

Topic-120: Theoretical Perspectives on Stratification: Feminism

Feminist theory is a sociological perspective that emphasizes the ways in which gender inequality and patriarchy contribute to social stratification and oppression. According to feminist theory, social stratification is not just based on economic factors, but also on gender, race, and other forms of social difference. Feminists argue that social class and gender are intertwined, with women often experiencing double oppression based on both their gender and their economic status. In Pakistan, feminist perspectives on stratification are often associated with the ways in which women are marginalized and excluded from important social, economic, and political spheres.

Max Weber: Property, Power, and Prestige Max Weber (1864–1920) was an outspoken critic of Marx. Weber argued that property is only part of the picture. Social class, he said, has three components: property, power, and prestige (Gerth and Mills 1958; Weber 1922/1978). Some call these the three P S of social class. (Although Weber used the terms class, power, and status, some sociologists find property, power, and prestige to be clearer terms. To make them even clearer, you may wish to substitute wealth for property.) Property (or wealth), said Weber, is certainly significant in determining a person's standing in society. On that point he agreed with Marx. But, added Weber, ownership is not the only significant aspect of property. For example, some powerful people, such as managers of corporations, control the means of production even though they do not own them. If managers can control property for their own benefit—awarding themselves huge bonuses and magnificent perks—it makes no practical difference that they do not own the property that they use so generously for their own benefit. Power, the second element of social class, is the ability to control others, even over their objections. Weber agreed with Marx that property is a major source of power, but he added that it is not the only source. For example, prestige can be turned into power. Two well-known examples are actors Arnold Schwarzenegger, who became governor of California, and Ronald Reagan, who was elected governor of California and president of the United States. Figure 9.2 shows how property, power, and prestige are interrelated. Prestige, the third element in Weber's analysis, is often derived from property and power, for people tend to admire the wealthy and powerful. Prestige, however, can be based on other factors. Olympic gold medalist, for example, might not own property or be powerful, yet they have high prestige. Some are even able to exchange their prestige for property—such as those who are paid a small fortune for endorsing a certain brand of sportswear or for claiming that they start their day with “the breakfast of champions.” In other words, property and prestige are not one-way streets: Although property can bring prestige, prestige can also bring property.

Determinants of Social Class

In Sum: For Marx, the only distinction that counted was property, more specifically people's relationship to the means of production. Whether we are owners or workers decides everything else, for this determines our lifestyle and shapes our orientation to life. Weber, in contrast, argued that social class has three components—a combination of property, power, and prestige (**Henslin 2010**).

Topic-121: What Determines Social Class? Max Weber: Property, Power and Prestige

In the early days of sociology, a disagreement arose about the meaning of social class. Let's compare how Marx and Weber analyzed the issue.

Karl Marx: the Means of Production

As agricultural society gave way to an industrial one, masses of peasants were displaced from their traditional lands and occupations. Fleeing to cities, they competed for the few available jobs. Paid only a pittance for their Labor, they wore rags, went hungry, and slept under bridges and in shacks. In contrast, the factory owners-built manions, hired servants, and lived in the lap of luxury. Seeing this great disparity between owners and workers, Karl Marx (1818–1883) concluded that social class depends on a single factor: people’s relationship to the means of production—the tools, factories, land, and investment capital used to produce wealth (Marx 1844/1964; Marx and Engels 1848/1967). Marx argued that the distinctions people often make among themselves—such as clothing, speech, education, pay-check, the neighborhood they live in, even the car they drive—are superficial matters. These things camouflage the only dividing line that counts. There are just two classes of people, said Marx: the bourgeoisie (capitalists), those who own the means of production, and the proletariat (workers), those who work for the owners. In short, people’s relationship to the means of production determines their social class. Marx did recognize other groups: farmers and peasants; a lumpenproletariat (people living on the margin of society, such as beggars, vagrants, and criminals); and a middle group of self-employed professionals. Marx did not consider these groups social classes, however, for they lack class consciousness—a shared identity based on their position in the means of production. In other words, they did not perceive themselves as exploited workers whose plight could be resolved by collective action. Marx thought of these groups as insignificant in the future he foresaw—a workers’ revolution that would overthrow capitalism. The capitalists will grow even wealthier, Marx said, and the hostilities will increase. When workers come to realize that capitalists are the source of their oppression, they will unite and throw off the chains of their oppressors. In a bloody revolution, they will seize the means of production and usher in a classless society—and no longer will the few grow rich at the expense of the many. What holds back the workers’ unity, and their revolution is false class consciousness, workers mistakenly thinking of themselves as capitalists. For example, workers with a few dollars in the bank may forget that they are workers and instead see themselves as investors, or as capitalists who are about to launch a successful business **(Henslin 201)**

